

Pols 220 Political Ideologies

Numbered Transcript

POLS 220 • Dr. Eric Kaufmann

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Lecture 1: Ideologies

At a glance — Kaufmann introduces what an ideology is and how to analyze the major ones.

- 1.1 Welcome, everybody. It's a delight to be here. First time in Miami. I should say this has got to be the most glamorous lecture hall I've probably spoken in. I teach in Britain, where most of the time we've got rundown rooms to teach in. So today, I'm here to talk about political ideologies. And just to preface this a bit, I've been teaching political science for fully 24 years in a couple of British universities. Even though I'm Canadian, I've taught in the U.K.
- 1.2 The thing about politics, this is the first politics lecture that we're doing. Politics is about power, the function of power. Economics is about the function of the economy. And so that's one thing, and also political science is also about political institutions. So we're talking about the function of power and political institutions. And within that, which is political science, I'm going to talk to you about ideology, which is one aspect and only one. We could be talking about international relations. We could be talking about different systems of government. But today I'm talking about political ideology.
- 1.3 OK, so it's important when we're talking about political ideology, there is your view of the world, how the world works—that's the "is", if you like. And then there's the "ought", how the world ought to be. Describing in political science how the world is, is the realm of political science theory. So this is about explaining what motivates people to act the way they do and how the world works.
- 1.4 So we could have, for example, a view that culture is really what's important. So for example, we want to explain, if we want to explain changes in the Republican vote, we might want to be explaining why it is that white Catholics have shifted from being 85% Democratic voters in 1960 to being mostly Republican today. So that's a cultural theory.
- 1.5 We might have an economic theory. We might want to explain things through economic self-interest or changes in the economic structure. So the decline of heavy industry leading to the decline of working-class parties, working-class voters being smaller in number, drifting away from left-wing parties like the Democrats or the U.K. Labor Party. So that would be an economic theory.
- 1.6 Or we might have what are called institutional theories. People aren't members of unions as much. They don't go to church as much, perhaps. They aren't members of chapter-based associations, and so therefore, they've drifted away from some of the institutions that might have tied them into the political elite, and that might lead to more alienation.
- 1.7 Those are all potential competing explanations, for example, of—we could have competing explanations of populism. We could have a cultural theory which has to do with immigration. It might have to do with the culture wars. We could have an

economic theory, might have to do with deindustrialization, and we might have an institutional theory to do with the decline of membership in these chapter-based associations, churches, unions. Competing explanations. That would be all about explaining how the world works, how it is.

- 1.8** Then we have how the world ought to be, and that's getting us closer to political ideology. In political science, the branch of political science that deals with this is called political theory, which is very close to political philosophy. How the world ought to be. If you think about different normative political theories, normative really means it's about ought, how the world ought to be. So liberalism, multiculturalism, egalitarianism, feminism—they're all organized around an ought. Liberalism, it's freedom. Egalitarianism, it's about equality.
- 1.9** So you could say then that these political philosophies, or political theories, are the same thing as ideologies. And you might be right because there's a lot of overlap there, but they're not exactly the same. So political philosophy or political theory is similar to ideology. But if you take academic high political theory, they're very concerned with rigor. And this is about analytical consistency. So your conclusions should flow from the premises. The concepts must be defined tightly and consistently. And a principle such as "people should have freedom from government" should be applied consistently on the economic sphere, the cultural sphere, the political sphere. And you're going to be hauled up if you apply it inconsistently.
- 1.10** So there is that art form of analytic rigor in normative political theory, which arguably isn't there as much in ideologies, which are maybe a little more emotional and maybe a little more inconsistent. Having said that, there are certain political philosophies that are perhaps more emotional, perhaps more post-analytical. And these would be, for example, Hegelianism, Marxism, Nietzscheanism, Nietzschean, post-structuralist, post-colonialist. These kinds of theories are arguably quite indistinguishable from ideology because they are very sort of abstract. They have a view about the direction of history, and they are closed systems of ideas. It's very hard to actually test them and contest them because a lot of their arguments are not necessarily testable and measurable.
- 1.11** OK, so we talked about the "is", that is, empirical political science, empirical referring to the real-world measurement, and the "ought", the normative political philosophy or political theory. If we think about ideology, and this comes from a text which you can use for this course, a core text on political ideologies. We'll put the links in. Really, the argument here is that political ideologies are, first of all, an appraisal about how the world works. So that's the "is". An appraisal of how the world ought to be. So the vision for where you want to go, the future society, the "ought". And then how to get from how the world is to how you want it to be, an action plan. That action plan is really not part of normative political theory or political philosophy. So that's distinctive to ideology.

- 1.12** So ideologies then, maybe we've argued, are maybe a little less analytically rigorous and consistent as compared to political philosophies, but they are closely related to political philosophies. One of the differences might be that the connections between ideas in an ideology are more about emotion than they are necessarily about logic and evidence or empirical relationships. So it may be that you have a view on taxing and spending, a view on covid restrictions, a view on abortion. Now, you might say, well, the right-wing view is that you want to have low taxes with low spending. You might be against covid restrictions. You might be against abortion.
- 1.13** It's not obvious from political theory that those three things should go together. And in different countries, there are different relationships between some of these ideas. So for example, in ex-Communist countries, you will often have people who are quite left-wing on economics and quite conservative on culture, and that those sets of ideas tend to be found together. Whereas in Western countries, it tends to be, if you are left-wing on economics, you tend to be a liberal in culture.
- 1.14** So you have these different ways in which these idea sets link together in different cultures, which suggests to us that these are not automatically linked through by a consistent political philosophy. And in fact, it simply could be the case that ideas may be based on emotion.
- 1.15** Now, if you think, for example, of the role of Russia, the appraisal of Russia in conservatism, or the appraisal of free trade in conservatism, if we go back to the 1980s under Reagan, Russia and free—you know, people would've been, conservatives would have been pro-free trade and anti-Russia. You move forward to today, views on Russia are a bit more ambiguous, to say the least. And certainly in terms of free trade, there will be a lot of opposition amongst Republican voters to that, whereas you wouldn't have had that back in the days of the North American Free Trade Agreement in the '80s.
- 1.16** So things can change their valence within an ideology. So their packages—and what ideologies do is they package issue positions together, and sometimes those issue positions change, and it's no longer a right-wing thing to be pro-free trade. It's now maybe the right-wing thing to be anti-free trade. So that shows that there's actually fungibility in these packages. They are not necessarily consistent, necessarily philosophically consistent positions.
- 1.17** So what is it then that leads people to package different issue positions together in an ideology in certain ways? One cause of this could be emotional or effective attachments. You might be attached to free trade emotionally. You might say that's a positive thing, or you might say that's a negative thing. And it could be because Donald Trump said it was a negative thing. It could be because Ronald Reagan said it was a positive thing. And you just follow what the party cues you to follow, potentially.

- 1.18 And so we have then a literature on these affective or emotional attachments to different things. So people are kind of told, "OK, here's the package. This is a good thing. That's a bad thing." Just as an example. And there's an article that talks about these cognitive affective maps. They try and map out people's attachments. And I don't expect you to follow all of this, but I'll try and give you a rough idea.
- 1.19 This is what they looked at for Hutus and Tutsis in Rwanda. There was a genocide in Rwanda. Really tragically, several million people were killed in this genocide. The Hutu were the perpetrators and the Tutsi were the victims in that genocide. Two different ethnic groups within Rwanda. And this would be a mind map of, say, the Hutu worldview in green, where Hutu would be seen with all these positive characteristics—honest, loyal, modest. And the Tutsi would have all of these negative of characteristics—colonial rulers, arrogant, cockroaches, etc. So the red is signifying a negative valence, the green a positive valence. And you can see the opposition between those two idea sets.
- 1.20 Now, what I'm going to try and do is move away from the ethnic conflict situation. Too, again, this is not about you following what's going on here. I just want to point out a few things on this map. One of them is the green refers to things you feel positively about and the red things you feel negatively about, emotionally. And this is not about the intellectual, analytic, empirical connection, consistency between the boxes. It's about how you feel about these boxes.
- 1.21 So you might actually be really, really positive on renewable energy in green, and you might be really, really positive about economic growth in green. But there is potentially a conflict between those two things, the two things you think are really positive. Now, you may very negative on fossil fuel consumption, but that might be important for economic growth. But in your worldview, you might just think, "Oh, no, these are the bad things and these are the good things. And so the good things are in my ideology, the green stuff, and the red stuff is in the other team's ideology."
- 1.22 But it's not necessarily the case that, logically or empirically, that's the way things hang together. That's an example of, if people are making these connections emotionally, that then allows for inconsistency empirically and logically in the sets of issue positions that they hold, which happen to be packaged into these bundles called ideologies.
- 1.23 Now, of course, there is sort of another level, which is how do these ideologies then fit into political parties. In the U.S., most people who are conservative would be Republican. Most people who are liberal would be Democrats. In 1960, 1970, 1980, that relationship would have been much weaker. Many conservatives were Democrats, many liberals were Republicans. And you still see that a little bit today in particularly ethnic minority communities, African-Americans, to some degree, Hispanics today, have less of a connection between ideology and party. So they're more similar to the way America was back in 1960, 1970. But amongst white Americans, there's a very

close link now between ideology and politics, but that's a relatively recent development.

- 1.24** OK, so just to sum up where we've got to, an ideology is a—and this is coming from the political ideologies text—more or less coherent set of ideas. Could be a less coherent, could be a more coherent set of ideas that provide the basis for organized political action. And this could be about preserving or overthrowing power. So if you look at Marxist theory, they would say, "Oh, ideologies are only for the powerful in the ruling class. What we have is utopianism or we have something else. It's not called ideology."
- 1.25** But actually, ideologies are ideologies, whether they're about overthrowing the system or preserving the system. And as I mentioned at the start, they involve the "is", which is an account of how the world works or the existing order, and "ought", which is the desired future society. How you want the world to be, and then C is how do you get from A to B? How do we get from the way the world is to the way the world ought to be? That's a kind of action plan or a program. And that is really where this is, this is ideology.
- 1.26** So we have the existing order, A, and what's wrong with it? Maybe taxes are too high. Maybe the culture is wrong in some way, or perhaps it's not liberal enough. We're then going to go to our vision of the future society. That's normatively where we want to go. Then the theory, see how we're going to get there. How are we going to get from A to B?
- 1.27** All right, I'm now going to try and get into some detail about ideologies and the types of ideology that there are. We can make a distinction, which is made in the text, between so-called thick ideologies, which more complete worldviews that cover off almost all aspects of society, and thinner ideologies, which are focused on one aspect. So thin ideology might be feminism or ecologism or environmentalism. Environmentalism would be concerned with the environment. Feminism would be concerned with women. You can see that that is a part of the whole. It is not everything to do with society. Would feminism necessarily have a view on technology, resource use? Maybe, maybe not, but it's not integral to what feminism is about.
- 1.28** Whereas liberalism, socialism, and conservatism are much more all-encompassing and would almost certainly have a view on all of those matters. We have the thick ideologies and the thin ones. The thick ideologies would have an integrated worldview in answer to most of the issues that you might be concerned about. The thin ideologies—ecologism, feminism, nationalism—would tend to apply in one sphere. Nationalism is concerned with a territorial unit called the nation, but not in exactly as broad brush away as, say, liberalism or socialism, which would cover all aspects of society.
- 1.29** Now, the other thing, of course, is that these can now work in conjunction with each other. So you can get a socialist feminism, a liberal feminism. You can get—now, there are some that are trickier, like conservative feminism. But you can certainly have these

different combinations of these ideologies. Populism can be a conservative populism, like the National Front in France or Rassemblement National in France, or you could have a left-wing populism—Bernie Sanders, Podemos in Spain, for example.

- 1.30 That's an example of where we can have both conservative and socialist forms of populism. Populism, therefore, being the thinner ideology, and the socialism or liberalism being the thicker. You can see this up at the top here. There's a circle showing the thin-centered ideologies, which are just brushing across the top of those thicker ones.
- 1.31 Just in terms of combining the thick all-encompassing ideologies and the thinner, more domain-specific ideologies, we can think of, for example, you could, for example, have a nationalist populism. You could have a socialistic ecologism, different kinds of fundamentalisms as well. I mean, if we think of religion as a thick ideology that tells you about how to live your life in many different ways, then that too can be paired with different thin ideologies. And also, the thicker ideologies can have things to say about specific spheres. So liberalism can have things to say about nationalism, so liberal nationalism. Socialism could have things to say about feminism.
- 1.32 The other thing to note about ideologies is that there are elements which are really core to ideologies, and there are concerns which are more peripheral. So socialism is just really concerned with the economy and redistribution of wealth. That's really central to what socialism is about. But socialism would have a view on the environment, would have a view on the nation, would have a view on feminism. Those would be peripheral, but they would still be part of the ideology of socialism. But core to socialism is really that focus on the economy and economic distribution.
- 1.33 Similarly with the nation and nationalism, nationalism is really concerned with the idea of the nation, its independence, its culture, for example, its unity, but it would possibly have a view on economics. So a nationalist economics, which would tend be the idea of self-sufficiency—we don't want to be dependent on global supply chains. We want to be, not necessarily pursue autarchy, but have a certain self-sufficiency. That would be part of the nationalist program, but it is not as core and central to the nationalist program as political independence.
- 1.34 We, Scotland, want to be independent of Britain, for example. That would be much more core to what being a Scottish nationalist is than the Scottish nationalist view on economics. Even though the Scottish nationalists tend to be on the left economically, that is not mainly what Scottish nationalism is about.
- 1.35 And similarly with conservatism, conservatism would have views on the environment, but generally speaking, that is not central to what conservatism is about. Conservatism is probably more interested in cultural tradition or perhaps in the economy. That is going to be more core to what conservatism is than whatever conservatives' views are on the environment.

- 1.36** So in addition, we have different types of ideologies, some that help to uphold and legitimate a system. North Korea, Communist ideology is legitimating and upholding the state and the system in North Korea. But you can have anti-system ideologies. Clearly, Greek nationalism in the early 19th century was about breaking away from the Ottoman Empire. And so that was clearly an anti-system ideology. Nationalism in Greece, typically paired with liberalism, as opposed to the sort of largely Sunni Muslim and conservative Ottoman Empire.
- 1.37** So you can have legitimating pro-system ideologies, and we've got them listed here. In the U.S., this would be classical liberal democracy. In Iran, Shiite Islam, or you can have anti-system ideologies. Another one would be the Islamist movement in Egypt, Sayyid Qutb's Islamist opposition movement in Egypt. These are all ideologies.
- 1.38** Now, in Marx's theory, they would tend to draw a distinction between ideology as a pro-system thing, and utopian movements, which tend to be anti-system. And there's a subtle argument there that the anti-system stuff is good and the pro-system stuff is bad, and they're not the same thing. The pro-system stuff is brainwashing you. The anti-system stuff is just emerging naturally. But actually, these are all movements that are partly about social conditioning.
- 1.39** I don't want to use the term brainwashing, but sociologically influencing you, and partly resonating with genuine self-interest and genuine evolved psychological dispositions. That's another debate that we can also have, and we will have throughout this course, is to what extent people are blank slates, and therefore it's all about social conditioning or even brainwashing. Or actually, do people have evolved dispositions and interests which are sui generis, or generated themselves, and therefore, actually, you don't have complete control to tell people.
- 1.40** Like, if I was in this room and I said, "You're all Rwandans," if I wanted to, if I tell that to you enough times, are you going to actually believe that you're all Rwandans? Well, probably not. There are probably going to be some limits to how I can brainwash. And that's, again, the argument around blank slateism. To what extent are people blank slates? Just sheets of paper that you can write on if you're a political elite? Or to what extent do they bring a lot to the table that is going to resist what you're going to try and tell them?
- 1.41** OK. So the other part of this is you do have movements that are, you could argue, apolitical or they're quietest. So there are versions of Islamic fundamentalism, of Salafism, for example, that are all about withdrawing from the world. "We're not going to get involved in politics. We're just going to go off somewhere, and we're going to be very pious, and that's it." And so that's quietism. But then you could also get an Islamic fundamentalism that is reformist and say, "No, we want to take power. We want to contest elections or even engage in a political revolution, as in Iran." Sometimes a quietest movement can flip and become politically reformist and interventionist.

- 1.42 This is another wrinkle when it comes to ideologies. An example of an anti-system. So a lot of the anti-system ideologies tend to have a utopian view of the world. They tend to want to create this perfect world. In the 19th century, in the U.S., especially in upstate New York, a lot of new communes, not just upstate New York, parts of the Midwest, like Indiana, utopian socialist groups, anarchist groups, set up these communes. One of the most famous was Brook Farm in, near Boston.
- 1.43 And famous intellectuals like Ralph Waldo Emerson and a number of other early mid-19th century U.S. intellectuals joined some of these communes where they wanted to set up a model society, which typically involved sharing duties, nobody making money, sometimes shared child rearing, so you weren't allowed to give more attention to your own kids than to the community kids. Now, those experiments didn't last very long, but they're an interesting—it's interesting to see how these attempted communal experiments worked in the 19th century.
- 1.44 And this is part of the movements around utopian socialism and utopian anarchism. So they had very clear worldview. They wanted to realize it, but they wanted to do it in this communal way, rather than taking over a state, as occurred in the Soviet Union, for example, taking over the Tsarist Russian state.
- 1.45 Another aspect of ideology is that it tends to link up to certain social groups, groups in the social order. So typically then, socialism appeals more to the working class, people who are workers in the industrial system, not peasants and farmers. Under Marxist ideology, generally, it would be the proletariat, those who were in the industrialized countries, in the industrialized systems, but who were workers. That is who should be in the forefront of socialism, in the forefront of supporting. And it is true that, by and large, the voters for socialist parties tended to come from the manual working class.
- 1.46 Liberalism tended to draw more from the middle class, the artisan class, small business people, what's known as bourgeoisie in Marxist theory. Take an ideology like anti-racism that should be appealing more to minorities than to members of the majority. Feminism, again, should probably be appealing more to women. Populism tends to appeal more to working class or rural populations. Now, these are generalizations. So we know that there is a significant group of very well-educated intellectual socialists, and always has been.
- 1.47 Actually, one of the things that occurs in Europe is still occurring is the loss of the working class. The socialist parties, the mainstream left-wing parties in Europe, and also in the U.S. if you look at the Democrats, have tended to be hemorrhaging working class support to the right-wing parties, particularly the populist right. But likewise, the right-wing parties, like the Conservatives in Britain or the Republicans in the U.S., have been losing their traditional support base of middle-class shopkeepers or perhaps people that are business owners. More of those people, the educated, particularly university-educated, have tended to be moving more to the left. So we're getting a bit of a scrambling of this.

- 1.48** Just as an example, in 1950, if you looked at the support for the British Labour Party and the British Conservative Party, there was a very strong class base to both. Fast forward to the 2000s, especially the 2010s, there's no difference at all in the class makeup of the two parties. And that's been going on for a whole bunch of reasons, which I can't get into today. But traditionally, you would have had certain segments of the population that are supporting certain ideologies.
- 1.49** The terms left and right—where do they come from? This initially derived from where radicals and aristocrats sat in the Estates-General. This was the post-French Revolution legislature. So the position of where the supporters of the revolution and the opponents of the revolution sat. This is how we get the terms left and right.
- 1.50** What do they actually mean? And I think it's very important to know that you can't actually position left and right on a single dimension because we have three different aspects. You could be left on politics, right on economics, left on culture. They're actually somewhat distinct, particularly in the public opinion data. When it comes to political institutions, the distinction is between supporting a hierarchical system or wanting to have a system where everybody is equal. One person, one vote, for example, equal power.
- 1.51** So where are you on the political institution side? Are you in favor of hierarchy or are you opposed to it? What about economics? That's something you probably understand more readily since that's been the basis of left and right for some time. Are you a tax-and-spend person, or do you want to cut tax and cut spending and favor free markets? So redistribution versus free market, that's central to left and right on the economic front. And then lastly, we have the cultural question, which has sometimes been referred to as open, more liberal, closed, more conservative. Those are somewhat pejoratives. Globalist versus nationalist is another way of thinking about this. And so you have a cultural dimension.
- 1.52** Now, what's happened actually, in Western elections, is this cultural dimension. Number three has been becoming more important. We started off in the 18th and 19th century, this political one was the most important. Then in the 20th century, up until the end of the Cold War, the economic was more important, and now it looks like the cultural is becoming more important. For defining Western politics, those are very crude generalizations, but that seems to have been the history of what's going on.
- 1.53** Just to show you how this works in—I'm going to take two dimensions here, the economic and the cultural, to show you where American voters are as of the 2016 election. Red are Republican voters, blue are Democrat voters. This comes from a survey. Every dot is one response in a survey of, let's say, 1,500 people. And people are mapped on two dimensions here. The first one is that classic left versus right economic dimension. Are you free market versus tax-and-spend? Tax-and-spend to the left, free market to the right.

- 1.54 The second one is the globalist-nationalist, or we might call it open-v-closed dimension. Are you more socialist up here? Are you more globalist down there? Are you more, if you like, nationalist versus cosmopolitan? We can use different terms. What you see is that, if we look at the Republicans, actually most Republicans are in the middle economically. They're not on the right. This is the right zone. If they were all about free market, we want cuts to social security and Medicare, they would be all over here. But actually, quite a few of them are in the middle.
- 1.55 Amongst the Democrats, they are clustering largely left on economics and largely left on culture. Sorry, cosmopolitan globalist on culture, left on economics down here. But there are some Democrats that are in this zone, which is actually, yes, we're left on economics, but we're actually more nationalist and patriotic, so we're up in this zone. And actually, this is one of the shifts that occurred with Trump in the U.S. election, is actually you got a lot of people who were reasonably centrist or center-left on economics going to Trump. And that free market vote was more of a Romney, more of the establishment Republican vote.
- 1.56 This is another way of mapping exactly the same thing. You have the—they call it authority-liberty. I've called it nationalist-globalist, open-closed, and then the left-right economic dimension. So you have, for example, somebody who is right -wing on economics, but is actually more of a globalist. That would be the anarcho-capitalist place. Or you have somebody who is somewhat conservative culturally, but very left-wing economically. That's where Stalinism is in this two-dimensional space.
- 1.57 And part of the argument here is you can't just collapse this into one dimension. I'm going to show you some data from British election surveys looking at the 2019 U.K. election, where a lot of people switched from the Labour Party, which is the left-wing party, to the Conservatives, the right-wing party in Britain. We've mapped them along two dimensions here. This is the economics, that's the culture over there.
- 1.58 And we've got two groups here, the reds and the blues. The blues are Conservative voters who voted Conservative in the previous election and in 2019. So these are longer-standing Conservative voters. And the red bars are people who were Labour voters and switched to the Conservatives. So these are switchers who voted Conservative in 2019 but weren't Conservative before. They had been voting for the left-wing party and moved to the Conservatives.
- 1.59 What you see here is, on the economic graph, the people who switched to Conservative in 2019 are left on economics. So these are traditional left on economics Labour voters. They're economically left, but culturally, they are national populists. And so if we look at the right graph, when we look at those red bars, they're clustering over to the right side of this cultural dimension. So these voters are actually on the right culturally, so they're more nationalist culturally, but they are left on economics. And because of the Brexit vote, and these people would have voted overwhelmingly to leave the European Union for Brexit, they are actually relatively nationalist, and that's

why they switched into the Conservative party. So that's just an illustration of these two dimensions.

- 1.60** In the U.S. case, this would be someone who would have been a typically rural or working-class white Democrat who might have been a union person, might be somewhat left-wing, might like their social security and Medicare, but they want better control of the borders, for example. So they switched from the Democrats to the Republicans on those issues, those cultural issues. That is essentially what seems to have gone on is, in Western elections, the economic issues have somewhat become less important in determining who you vote for.
- 1.61** So the class basis of the Democrats and Republicans, or the Labour Party and the Conservative party—the class basis looks more and more and more similar. If anything, perhaps more of the educated middle class are voting for the left-wing parties. But on those cultural issues, they're sorting. So if you are really in favor of tight border control, then you are probably more likely to be voting conservative or Republican. Whereas if you were in favor of open borders, even if you were a free marketeer, there's a good chance you'll vote Democrat.
- 1.62** OK, so I've talked a bit about ideology and voting. I just want to say something about how ideology links with the empirical "is" question—how the world works. So what is it that people of different ideologies think about social science? How does the social world actually operate? And there are a number of different questions when it comes to how the world works, one of which is nature or nurture.
- 1.63** What is it that drives human behavior? Are we blank sheets of paper, and therefore it's all about nurture? It's all about education and learning and perhaps brainwashing, perhaps cultural information we come into contact with? Is it all nurture? Or is, actually, our evolved human nature important, and are there limits to social engineering that are provided by?
- 1.64** And so I mentioned setting up a society where you couldn't give more attention to your own kids than to the kids of the other people in the community. Is that going against human nature too much to work? Or are we just blank sheets, and if you tell people to give as much attention to other kids as to their own kids, they'll just go along with that? What is the truth about how human beings are, about human nature? Are humans the product then of genetics, an instinct, an evolved dispositions, or are they blank slates? That's kind of one "is" question about how the world works that different ideologies will take a different view on.
- 1.65** If we look at anarchism, for example, and this is the idea that the anarchists are opposed to power structures, they're opposed to government. Their assumption is, well, humans aren't actually good, and they're corrupted by government and society, which imprints them with bad ideas and turns them against each other. And all you got to do is get rid of all of these corrupting institutions, and the natural goodness of

humans will emerge, and we'll all be holding hands, and we'll have this brotherly society.

- 1.66** First of all, it takes a very optimistic view of human nature, assuming that humans are essentially born good and corrupted by institutions. Liberalism takes a different approach. Liberalism says, "Well, humans are a bit selfish. They have interests, and we have to work with the grain of that. We have to allow people to express perhaps their selfish interests." We can harness that by using a system, such as the market, in which private vice makes public virtue. Private selfishness can be harnessed to the common good by creating products people want, making everybody richer.
- 1.67** Liberalism takes this view as Isaiah Berlin, a liberal theorist, argued, "The crooked timber of humanity cannot be made straight." So we have certain evolved dispositions, certain degree of selfishness—you aren't going to create the perfect new man, which was an aim of socialist regimes, is to create this perfect new man and this perfectionist view that you can perfect a human being, so that they're not selfish anymore. That would be more associated with socialism.
- 1.68** And that takes a much more blank slatist view that we can actually shape people more. They aren't necessarily born perfectly good as the anarchists would have it, but they're also not as selfish as the the liberals and the conservatives would have it. So we can actually create more of a perfect new man.
- 1.69** Marxist socialism would also have a theory of the economy. This is very different from the liberal theory of the economy. So the Marxists have a view that value comes from labor, not capital, and that as capital exploits labor and squeezes it, it eventually will lead to the immiserization of the capitalist system, which will collapse of its own contradictions. And so it has a theory about what's going to happen to the world. Capitalism will inevitably collapse because it will eventually, because of the labor theory of value and the exploitation of labor, you're going to get a buildup of capital chasing less and less labor, and eventually this system will collapse.
- 1.70** Marxist socialists also have a view about human motivation, that essentially the only major thing that matters is material interest. And ideologies like religion and nationalism are what they would call false consciousness. That is something that has been imprinted in people's brain through a kind of brainwashing by the ruling class, the bourgeoisie in the system. They've devised these ideas to try and distract or fool people into doing their bidding, dividing and ruling, and therefore preventing workers from realizing what's being done to them and overthrowing the system to make socialist revolution.
- 1.71** Now, having said all of that, these are all worldviews of particular ideologies, views of how the world actually works. Having said all that, it's always more complicated. So there are subcategories of socialism, subcategories of liberalism, which don't necessarily take this approach to explaining the world. So for example, there are

versions of socialism that accept evolution and accept that we have a certain evolved set of dispositions. So they're not blank slates. They're still about equal distribution, but they take it, they take it as—they accept the fact, or they accept the view, that actually there are particular evolved limits to social engineering.

- 1.72** OK. I want to now move on to the question of why do people have the ideologies that they do? And there is an argument that there are psychological foundations, that because of the way you are, your personality and your psychology, which might be stemming from an evolved set of dispositions, you may be more receptive to certain ideologies. And you may select into environments that accelerate and accentuate the tendencies, which might be small tendencies, but you then seek out environments which magnify those. And eventually, your psychological personality will then lead you in very different directions.
- 1.73** So what are some of those personality dimensions that might conduce you to having a particular worldview ideologically? One might be whether you prefer order or disorder or chaos. So do you tend to see difference as interesting? Or do you tend to see difference as disorderly? And psychological researchers, just by showing dots on a screen that are neatly arranged and arranged in a more chaotic way—some people like the more chaotic, some people like the more neat. Jonathan Haidt's done some of this work. It's very interesting. And that actually is related to people's ideologies. So that's one dimension, order versus difference. And some psychologists use the term authoritarianism, which is perhaps a bit of a pejorative to describe people who prefer the order-seeking behavior.
- 1.74** Then we have a second dimension, which is about how much do you want the present to be like the past? How much do you see change as stimulating, or do you see it as loss? If you see things moving away from the way they were in the past, do you lament that and see that as a loss? That's status quo conservatism. That's a kind of psychological disposition. Or do you see that as exciting and interesting? Depending on how you score on that, that also will have some predictive power over which ideology you hold and also perhaps your issue positions.
- 1.75** Twin studies which ask twins separated at birth, do they have the same ideologies when they grow up? It's a way of asking how much of people's ideologies are heritable and how much of people's ideologies are coming from social conditioning. Now, if people separated at birth tend to have the same ideology, that would tend to suggest a genetic hereditary aspect to ideology.
- 1.76** What a lot of these studies find is ideologies are between a third and a half heritable. It seems as though there's a strong heritable component, particularly to certain aspects, particularly the cultural questions—that open v. closed, globalist v. nationalist dimension—seems to have a significant hereditary component. It's not over half, but it's there. Whereas party identification does not have a large heritable component to it. It's less because you have to get from the intuitions to the issue positions to the

ideologies to the parties. So it's too much of a stretch for heredity to have as much force.

- 1.77** Jonathan Haidt, the NYU psychologist, also talks a lot about moral foundations. We're going to look at some of the moral foundations that we find. Again in large-scale survey data, we ask people 100, 200 questions of 1000 people, and we're able to map how people's answers to these different questions cluster together or don't cluster together.
- 1.78** Let's take this question. Is it more important for a child to be considerate or well-behaved? It sounds like the same thing. Considerate, well-behaved, is that really a big difference? And yet there is a big, big difference between people who answer "considerate" or who answer "well-behaved" to that question. I'm going to show you some statistical output.
- 1.79** But what this is saying is that, we're trying to ask, what is the chance that somebody voted to leave the European Union, voted for Brexit in Britain, in 2016? We've got two things that we're looking at here. One is the answer to that last question, "Is it more important for a child to be considerate or well-behaved?" Considerate in blue, well-behaved in red. The gap between those lines is about 20 or 25 points.
- 1.80** And then we have along the bottom, the poorest people to the richest people. Richest people, number 4, poorest, number 1. If we just take the poorest British people in this sample, if you're poor, and you answered, "It's more important for the child to be considerate," you only have a 4 in 10 chance of having voted to leave the European Union. If you answered, "It's more important for the child to be well-behaved," it's 65, almost, 0.65, 0.62, something like that. Over 20 points more likely to have voted to leave the EU than someone who answered "considerate." That's a big, big effect.
- 1.81** By contrast, you take the richest person and the poorest person on both lines, there's only about a half of, 0.05 difference in their answer. Compared to 25 points, we got 5 points from the richest to the poorest. So you can look at that and say, "Whether you're rich and poor is not going to make much difference to how you voted in the EU referendum to vote in Brexit. But your answer to that simple psychological question—5 times more important than your economic position in how you voted." And so that's an example of how these psychological personality dimensions underly ideology.
- 1.82** And what we're seeing is that those have become more important. These psychological differences between people are becoming more important in voting than something like whether you're rich or poor, which would have been much more important for where you were in the past.
- 1.83** Another example, same question. We're going to look at Trump voting, 2016, same date. If you are—this is just white Americans. If you take the poorest white Americans, poorest white Americans who said it's more important for a child to be considerate, about 0.35, 35 out of 100 chance of voting for Trump. Well-behaved, it's pushing

towards 55 out of 100, 20-point difference. Whereas the difference between the richest and poorest, again, is only about 5 points. So 5 versus 20, 4 times more important your answer to that psychological question than whether you're rich or poor and whether you voted for Trump as a white American.

- 1.84** OK, I live in a part of London called Wimbledon, where we have a world -famous tennis tournament every year. Now, you wouldn't think that somebody's outfit in a tennis tournament would predict your view of whether there should be a dress code for a tennis tournament. How can that possibly predict where you are politically on any issue? But actually it does for the same reasons that we saw in the previous graphs.
- 1.85** So for example, if we look at attitudes to immigration and attitudes to the Wimbledon tennis dress code amongst 18- to 24-year-old, upper- and middle-class white British people. If you take people who favor much tighter restrictions on immigration, they're split pretty evenly on the question of whether all tennis tournaments should have a strict dress code like Wimbledon. It's 37% of those people who are restrictionists on immigration say, "Yeah, actually, tennis tournaments should all have that Wimbledon dress code," and about 41% say, "No, it shouldn't."
- 1.86** Then let's look at these people down here who want much looser, more open immigration. 57% disagree with having the Wimbledon dress code applied to other tournaments, and only 4% agree. There's a massive difference there in your views on dress codes in tennis tournaments based on your views on immigration. And so that's again showing that there are these links between personality and politics. So personality dimensions do a link to your ideology.
- 1.87** Psychologists have actually studied this in other ways. They have, for example, they will field these large batteries of questions, 200 questions, and they'll map the answers to those questions in a kind of heat map. I'll explain what this is in a minute. Each one of these labels represents a question. And you can see that there's a clustering of the way you answer a question on openness or on justice and universalism. Those answers will tend to cluster together. You don't have bits of red and green and blue together, evenly spread. You actually have these colors tending to cluster there, the blues and greens clustering there.
- 1.88** The question here is voting for a populist right party called the U.K. Independence Party, which tends to be an anti-immigration, anti-European Union populist right party from the mid-2010s. What you can see is that what's lighting up is this corner of the map, which are known as the settlers in this classification scheme. These are people who tend to see change as loss, tend to see difference as disorder, and like to be protected and secure. So they value security. They are afraid of dangers in the environment. They tend to want national security.
- 1.89** Against the settler part of the mind map, we have the, what are called the pioneers, the group down in the bottom quadrant who are very opposed to the U.K. Independence

Party. And these are people who score high on openness, benevolence, caring, poverty awareness, etc. And so what this is telling us is that it's certain types of people who are psychologically disposed in certain ways who will tend to be backing populist right parties or opposing them.

- 1.90** And these same sort of maps are used in marketing, by the way. And so, for example, people are premium shoppers and spenders who are interested in looking good and having a good time. They're over here. They're called prospectors. They are kind of in the middle. But it's this more, kind of, people who focus on creativity, benevolence, caring, that are down in that pioneer zone, very opposed, and the settler group who really want things to be orderly and stable that tend to be, who want to be protected from danger in the world, they tend to be up in the pro-U.K. corner. So that's just a way of illustrating again that these psychological predispositions and intuitions can shape your receptivity to certain ideologies.
- 1.91** Another version of this approach is what's called moral foundations theory. This is an example of a questionnaire that would be fielded. "When you decide whether something is right or wrong, to what extent are the following considerations relevant to your thinking? Whether or not someone suffered emotionally, whether or not someone showed a lack of respect for authority, whether or not someone was good at math?" These are not obviously political questions. It's attempting to create a psychological profile. So 1,000, 2,000 people will go through this, answer these different questions. But the answers, as with the heat map, will tend to cluster in certain patterned ways.
- 1.92** So this is Jonathan Haidt's moral foundation theory. And what he actually comes up with are these 5, what he sees as these 5 moral intuitions that are kind of going to shape how you gravitate to certain ideologies and away from other ideologies. And those moral foundations are harm. So care harm, that is, how important you think it is that you're worried about protecting people from harm. Fairness. This is some notion of just deserts, equality. Now, that could be being treated fairly or it could be equal outcomes. There's different interpretations of this, but harm and fairness. And most people think harm and fairness are quite important.
- 1.93** But then we have the next 3 of those moral foundations, which are loyalty to in-group, respect for authority, and sanctity and purity. And those are really only found amongst conservatives. And so if we look at these lines down here, you can see there we go from very liberal in politics to very conservative along the bottom, from left to right. If you look on the left, the very liberal people are scoring really, really low on this 1 to 6 scale on those last 3 foundations of in-group loyalty, authority, and purity, and very, very high on harm protection and fairness. Whereas the very conservatives, those last 3 moral foundations are approaching in import, approaching, not overtaking, but approaching in importance the harm protection and fairness foundations.
- 1.94** And so what Haidt argues is that very liberal people tend to major on these two moral taste buds and don't really understand these other three moral foundations. And that's

part of the disconnect between political tribes—stems from these psychological taste bud differences between supporters. And this is again getting back to my point that actually in Western politics now, these psychological dimensions are becoming a more important aspect of politics. If you look at surveys of politics around the world, these psychological and personality dimensions are less important in non-Western countries than they are in Western countries in general. That doesn't hold for every country, but in general.

- 1.95 They also would have been less important when politics was mainly about free markets versus tax-and-spend. But now, when we're talking more about these questions about immigration, culture wars, some of these religious questions, perhaps—when those cultural questions are in play, it seems as though these psychological difference matter more.
- 1.96 So just to conclude, and I promise this is the last slide, I've argued that ideology really is about three things. One is a view of how the world works, which we can think of as empirical political science theory, a view of how the world ought to be, which is normative political theory, and then a way of getting from the "is" to the "ought", a program to get from A to B. So it is part-empirical, part-normative, part-thought, part-action. Comparing ideology to normative political theory or political philosophy, ideologies tend to have a stronger emotional or effective component where the links between issue positions tend to be arguably more driven by affect and emotion than necessarily by logic and by empirical connections.
- 1.97 The support bases for the different ideologies also are based to some degree in people's personalities and moral intuitions, which derive from evolutionary psychology to some degree, and therefore are heritable to some degree. We've looked at ideologies and found that some are thicker, offering a more complete worldview covering all aspects of society, and some are thinner, tending to focus only on one aspect, such as women or the environment. Ideologies may be system-justifying, so pro-system, or they may be seeking to overturn a particular order, anti-system.
- 1.98 In terms of ideology, it's not enough just to think of left and right, but we have to think of at least two, if not three, dimensions. So left-right economics, the open-closed cultural dimension, and perhaps also the hierarchical versus non-hierarchical political dimension. So two or three dimensions, although the cultural dimension has become increasingly important for Western politics. And finally, that different ideologies have traditionally been espoused by different social groups, so bourgeoisie for liberalism, manual workers for socialism, for example.
- 1.99 That's it. I look forward to your questions. Thank you.

Lecture 2: Liberalism

At a glance — Liberalism — its principles and development.

- 2.1 Welcome. Welcome back. So the last lecture I gave, I gave you an overview of what an ideology was. And this is the first substantive ideology that I want to deal with, which is, of course, a thick ideology, and it is liberalism. To recap, I talked about three aspects of an ideology, a belief about how the world is and how it works, the so-called "is" question or the empirical question. A belief about how the world ought to be, that normative "ought" question, and then see a plan of action to get from the A to the B.
- 2.2 In terms of liberalism, it has a view of how the world works, which is that humans have different interests. There's a plurality of interests. They pursue those interests. Humans are not necessarily born good. They can be selfish. They are influenced both by society, but also by, if you like, their human nature. That's the "is".
- 2.3 The "ought"—what is the ought in liberalism? The ought focuses very much on freedom, liberty, liberalism. So, people should have the freedom to express themselves, to devise their own life plans, pursue their lives as they see fit. That includes acquiring property. The American constitutional motto, "Life, liberty, and the pursuit of happiness," is a good example of liberalism. The other aspect is that individuals should be treated equally under the law. Again, looking at the U.S. Constitution, "All men are created equal." If we take that men to mean humans, all humans are created equal. Of course, took some time for that to happen. But these are the two aims that are the ought in liberalism.
- 2.4 Of course, as we'll see, liberalism in practice is a lot more complicated than that. But just in very basic terms, liberalism is focused on liberty. Now, the plan to get there can be revolutionary, as with the American Revolution or the French Revolution of 1789, or the English Glorious Revolution, to some degree, of 1688, or it could be reformist. It could be that you do it through incremental reforms, gradually extending liberties to Catholics, women, minorities of different kinds. That could be how liberalism develops. So the plan could be either revolutionary or reformist.
- 2.5 Just in philosophy, and this is a wide-ranging lecture, so philosophy has these terms, the good and the right. In normative philosophy, what we're aiming at is the good. The good are the way we see what we think of as the good life, the substantial ideal or goal that we think it's important to pursue. And that could be individual autonomy. It could be being a rational individual, but it could be being a religious believer. It could be wealth, it could be something. Whatever it is that you want to pursue personally, that's your ideal. That is your good. That is the good.
- 2.6 And if we want to talk about collectively as a system, what should we pursue? Should it be socialism? Should it be to maximize freedom? That is also the good. Therefore, we

deduce from the good what is the right act to get you to the good, to help you maximize what you've decided is the ideal for society or for you as an individual.

- 2.7** And that becomes important because we're now going to start to look at different varieties within liberalism that have slightly different emphases. And so there is a version of liberalism associated with Jeremy Bentham, whose wax figure stands in the University College London. Jeremy Bentham, his view was, "I'm agnostic about what goals and ideals people want to pursue. The aim of liberalism is to be tolerant and allow for a plurality of different pursuits and interests." And so we want to maximize people's freedom to pursue their interests, as long as they're not interfering with other people's freedom.
- 2.8** And Bentham was very much associated with a philosophy known as utilitarianism, which is not exactly the same as liberalism, but intersects with it to some degree. What is utilitarianism? It essentially says that the best philosophy is the one that leads to the greatest happiness and the least suffering. So happiness minus suffering. The consequences then of people's actions are what matters. And so we want to have consequences that result in maximum happiness and minimal suffering. Utility is a way of saying happiness. So utilitarianism is about maximizing the utility in a society. People are going to use their liberty to pursue happiness over pain.
- 2.9** In figuring out what is the right policy, the right act, we always have to calculate the sum of costs and benefits. How much more happiness is that going to bring to society versus how much pain is it going to relieve? It doesn't necessarily matter, therefore, what goods people choose to pursue. If they want to be an ultra-Orthodox Jew and want to pray every day, and that's all they want to do, if that's what makes them happy, fine. They don't have to be an autonomous individual seeking to express themselves, seeking to further their learning. That's not necessary. You can choose to be completely ignorant, but if you're happy in your ignorance, that's fine. So it's agnostic about the good life.
- 2.10** It is, and this is what liberal theorist Isaiah Berlin would call it, procedural or negative liberalism. We're going to enable a whole different set of pursuits. And that's different from the view of John Stuart Mill, who is a 19th-century English liberal, very important liberal, who says, "Well, now, actually, it is important for liberals that we try and encourage people to seek what he would consider to be the higher pleasures." So developing your mind and learning is perhaps more important than betting on a boxing match, for example, or just following tradition. So he is now introducing a positive conception of liberty that actually you should be seeking individual autonomy, breaking with what he would call the cake of custom.
- 2.11** He also applied that, by the way, to different ethnic groups of nations. And again, this shows you the difference between Bentham and Mill. So from Mill, here's a quote. He's talking about minority regions of France, Brittany or the Basque country. Basque country is also in Spain. He's saying, "Nobody can suppose it is not more

beneficial to a Breton or a Basque"—these provincial regional ethnic groups —"no one can suppose it's not more beneficial for them to be French than to, quote, sulk on his rocks, the half-savage relic of past times, revolving in his own little mental orbit." So there's very much a value judgment there about, you don't want to be a backwards peasant, you want to try and obtain this high culture, the French high culture.

- 2.12** He had a similar view when it came to imperialism about less developed nations learning from more developed nations. And again, that's in tune with his view of the world that there are higher pursuits and lower pursuits, and we can't just be utilitarian and agnostic about those pursuits. So that's injecting what Isaiah Berlin would call a positive liberalism, a view of there is an ideal we should be pursuing as individuals, as a society, and we can't just be agnostic about that.
- 2.13** Now, that difference then between the more positive liberalism and the more negative liberalism—the negative liberty says, "You're free to do as you please. We're not going to make a judgment about what you choose to be the good life." And all we're going to have is this procedural liberalism where you have to tolerate others. They have their freedom, you have your freedom. You can't interfere with their freedom. But as long as people agree to that, negative liberty, people are free to do as they please. So they may be traditionally religious. Wear a head scarf, for example. Under negative liberty, no problem.
- 2.14** The positive liberty, however, wants to erect an ideal, sometimes a perfectionist ideal, about what an individual should pursue. Now, that could be—or a society should pursue. So it may be the society should pursue socialism. It may be the society should pursue autonomy and reason and individualism. But there is some kind of ethic that is being pushed as part of liberalism. These are two types of liberalism, the first associated more with Bentham, the second perhaps more with Mill and with other liberal thinkers.
- 2.15** Now, in addition to that distinction then between positive and negative liberty, which comes from Isaiah Berlin, we also have different types of liberalism based on which function of society that we're talking about. So we're talking about the economic function, economic liberalism. What is economic liberalism about? It's essentially free market, is really what it is about. It's associated with Adam Smith, the 18th-century English writer, well, Scottish-English writer, who wrote a famous book called *The Wealth of Nations*, which is essentially really talking about how the market works and how people are pursuing their private interest, that that can lead to something beneficial for everybody else. As supply and demand signaling works, the market can produce much of what everybody wants.
- 2.16** Economic liberalism is very much utilitarian. It doesn't take a view on what people should be pursuing. So it is a more Benthamite, negative liberal type of philosophy. Focusing on—it defends private property, the importance of private property—that is, people's economic liberty to hold private property. Adam Smith talked about "the

invisible hand of the market." If everybody wants blue jeans and nobody's making blue jeans, so there's limited supply and there's high demand, the price is going to rise, and that invisible hand of the price signal is going to get people to produce more blue jeans for the market, which will then bring the price of blue jeans down.

- 2.17** And so, you get whatever the society wants. If the society wants blue jeans, it'll get blue jeans. If they want SUVs, they'll get SUVs, whatever it is. But through this invisible hand, the market signal sends us, the price sends a signal to many people in the society what to produce. And also it tells them things that are expensive. So stop demanding blue jeans because they're \$500 a pair. People are going to stop buying those blue jeans, the price will come down. So invisible hand of the market, and that works to everybody's benefits, according to Adam Smith.
- 2.18** "Private vice makes public virtue." Private selfishness can be channeled into creating wealth, which accrues to everybody, and so it's a public good. That's a very different view of the world from the socialist view, which would say, no, we have to actually produce what is right for society, and so the state should produce and distribute equally the goods of the economy.
- 2.19** Free trade, by the way, is also part of economic liberalism. The view of Adam Smith was that if the conditions are better for producing milk in England and wine in Portugal, Portuguese and English people are going to be able to have more milk and wine combined if the Portuguese focus on producing wine, the English on milk, and they export to each other. Then you're going to get to the degree you could export milk back in the 18th century. So that's economic liberalism, economic freedom.
- 2.20** We can then talk about cultural freedom, cultural liberalism. And so if you take a negative liberty approach to culture, you would say, "Well, people can pursue traditional culture or modern culture, whatever they—individualist culture, collectivist culture—whatever they want." That's the negative liberty approach. But the positive liberty approach takes a different view. It says, "No, you should seek to break from tradition and custom and express yourself in your own distinctive way. And you should be an individual. You should express your individuality and develop your individuality." And that's one of the positive ideals of our society. And we want to engineer society so it creates more people who are more expressively individualistic and who are less traditional.
- 2.21** Now, that's clearly taking a particular value position. Now, so that's cultural liberalism. Now, of course, we have two different types of cultural liberalism. One is toleration. How much toleration is there in society? Because from a negative liberal perspective, people are free to do as they want, but we need to be able to tolerate—people need to be tolerant of people's choices.
- 2.22** Here's an example of the spread of liberalism in American society between 1958 and 2013 in this chart, and that's the proportion approving of marriage between blacks and

whites. 4% in 1959, and it's up to 87% by 2013, and I think it's even a little bit higher now, 93 or something. We've had a big shift in terms of people's toleration of marriage between white and black. By the way, we saw a similar shift in toleration between marriage between Jews and Catholic and Protestants, which also tended to rise a lot in this period. It was higher, but it also rose. That's an example then of the rise in toleration on a cultural liberal dimension.

2.23 Here's another one. Public opinion of sex before marriage. This is again U.S. data. Is sex before marriage not wrong at all? In 1972, fewer than 30% of Americans said sex before marriage was not wrong at all. And by 2018, it's over 60%. So that's a big shift as well. A big shift that has taken place on a cultural issue. That's an example of cultural liberalism.

2.24 Here's another one. This is also cultural liberalism. There's a set of these speakers—communists, militarists, racists, homosexuals, atheists—it's misspelled, sorry about that. That should be atheists. Should these people be allowed to speak in public? There's the proportion that would say they are, from 50% up to 90%. And there's a general rise in toleration for all of these people being allowed, this type of person, being allowed to speak in public. Look at homosexuality or homosexuals. About 65% said homosexuals should be allowed to speak in public back in 1972, and it's 90% by 2018.

2.25 Now, there's one exception, of course, to that pattern, which is interesting. Should a racist be allowed to speak in public? Was about 62%. Peaks in 1990, and actually has gone down. It's the only one of those 5 or 6. There's another question in the GSS, but that has actually trended downward that I think tells us something interesting, but I'm not going to go into that.

2.26 We have this liberalization again on various culture dimensions—interracial marriage, sex before marriage, who should be allowed to speak. These are all examples of cultural liberalism, and they're all examples of toleration. This is a free speech measure. It's all examples of toleration, which is a kind of negative liberalism.

2.27 Now, of course, we also get, we can get the fusion of different ideologies. So two thick ideologies, socialism and liberalism. You can get left liberalism at the intersection, which borrows a bit from liberalism and a bit from socialism. And liberalism, in the United States, the term liberal has come to mean left. And the term liberal doesn't mean that in Europe. It sometimes means right in Europe. And it's very important to distinguish between liberalism as the political philosophy and as the ideology, and liberalism as it is used colloquially. I hope you aren't going to mistake liberalism for left.

2.28 Socialism and liberalism are quite different. Now, having said that, there is a reason why in America people use the term liberal for someone on the left, and that is because liberalism in the 20th, particularly the second half of the 20th century, and into our century, has borrowed a lot from socialism. And it's sort of more of an egalitarian left

liberalism than liberalism would have been in the 19th century, when it would have been more what we call classical liberalism, which emphasizes much more individual freedom, private property, and free markets.

- 2.29** OK, and so what we kind of have is a left- and a right-wing version of liberalism. Not to confuse you any more, and I hope I won't, that the right-wing version of liberalism is more the economic free market liberalism, the classical liberalism. Sometimes the term neoliberalism—you can just actually not even focus on that because I don't use that term, and I think it's confusing. But economic liberalism tends to be associated with the right, whereas cultural liberalism, all those graphs I showed you around attitudes to interracial marriage, sex before marriage, who gets to speak, a lot of that was championed by the left. Actually, the left used to be very in favor of free speech, for example.
- 2.30** So cultural liberalism has been associated with the left, and certainly when it comes to being anti-tradition and wanting to break with custom and valuing that kind of expressive individuality, like the hippie movement, that we're going to defy convention, we're going to be unconventional—that's definitely associated with the left. So cultural liberalism has more of a left-wing valence, economic liberalism a more right-wing valence.
- 2.31** Now, free speech used to be associated with the left more, the Berkeley free speech movement. And you can actually read books by conservatives from that era, from the early mid-60s. There's a book called *Suicide of the West* by James Burnham. And one of the things he's complaining about is free speech. So conservatives were more the anti-free speech group in the mid, in the 1960s. That eventually shifts around. Now, free speech is more associated with the right than with the left in the West. But it's a good kind of indicator. So you can get this flipping of some of these aspects of liberalism.
- 2.32** Free speech, by the way, is more of a cultural form of liberalism as well, I should say, whereas private property and free market rights are more of an economic aspect of liberalism. Now, I showed you these two charts in the last lecture, and what that is, is a segmenting of the electorate on two ideological dimensions, left versus right economics, and the so-called open versus closed cultural dimension, or the nationalist versus globalist dimension.
- 2.33** In terms of liberalism, left is illiberal on the economic side. So economic liberalism, I said, was kind of a right-wing thing, or it's been associated with the right. So free markets, which is economic liberalism, is on the right. Higher state, more tax-and-spend, less private property, less free markets is on the left, OK? So that's economic dimension. On the cultural dimension, however, the more nationalist side is less openness on immigration, for example —up here instead of down there. More of a closed position on immigration would put you up here, where most of these Republican voters are, and more of an open borders position puts you down here where most of these Democratic voters are.

- 2.34 This would be the liberal position on culture, and that is the liberal position on economics. Right on economics is liberal, left on culture is liberal. Hopefully, you're not too confused by that. I'm happy to expand, but we have that kind of two-dimensional space there. And it just shows how the nature of liberalism and how it maps into ideology is different. So, on the left, now in the West, we typically have a combination of economic illiberalism, you could say, in a way. So less free market, private property rights. So that would be seen as a bit less liberal on economics. So the left combines economic illiberalism with cultural liberalism. The right is more illiberal on culture, freedom of movement across borders. They would be more illiberal on culture and more liberal on economics, free market, "what you earn is your own," etc.
- 2.35 So again, that gets back to this whole question of, "Are ideologies consistent?" Is it maybe potentially inconsistent to be illiberal on culture, liberal on economics, or vice versa? I don't know. There's a question mark there, but it just shows that when it comes down to ideologies and how they package particular philosophies, it's not always necessarily consistent.
- 2.36 OK, I want to now move on to the question of why are some parts of the world more liberal than others? How did we get to the liberal society? And questions such as, "Can the Muslim world become liberal in the same way the West is liberal? Were we always liberal? Or when did this change, and why did this change? How did we actually get here?" There's actually nowhere near as much written on this as there is on the pure philosophical aspects. But I want to talk a lot about this history of ideas and the practice of how we got to liberalism. "How was liberalism implemented? How is it extended, deepened within society? And why are some societies more liberal than others? Why is the U.S. more liberal than Saudi Arabia? And how do we get from an autocracy to a democracy? What's the relationship between democracy and liberty and liberalism?" They're not the same thing, far from it.
- 2.37 OK, so we have a set of measures here or varieties of liberalizations. One is, how much freedom do you as an individual have against the state? Can the state throw you in jail without a trial? Do you have the right to freedom of expression? Do you have property rights? Can the state just take away your house, take away your car? Individual rights against the state—that's been the central concern of a lot of liberalism, particularly since the 18th century.
- 2.38 Another aspect of liberalism, politically, is checks on the power of the executive, the president, the king, the monarch. To what extent are there institutions that prevent the president doing whatever he wants to do? What we might call the separation of powers, checks and balances. You may have heard some of these terms. Are there checks on the executive power of the state? Then there's a question also about society. Are there checks on the religious authorities, the power of the religious authorities to punish you and to tell you how to behave, or other forms of tyranny of the majority? Are there any checks on that would protect you from some kind of majority sanction?

- 2.39 Actually, this gets into some of the more recent debates around free speech culture. So even if the government doesn't take away your free speech, if you're canceled by your peers, if you're fired from your job, to what extent is that a violation of your liberty? So a kind of private censorship, not state censorship. So liberalization arguably involves rights, not just against the state, but also perhaps against other kinds of institutions like your workplace, like a university.
- 2.40 What's the relationship between liberalism and democracy? We use this term liberal democracy all the time. France is a liberal democracy. Yemen is not. Are these things exactly the same? I think it's important to note that they're not. So Fareed Zakaria, who's of course on CNN a lot and has written intelligent work on some of this, and Jack Snyder as well, political scientist—their argument is that a lot of the new democracies that have emerged since the 1980s in Latin America, Asia, Africa. There are a lot of these newer democracies, and there's no question there was a big expansion in the number of countries that held elections. So a lot of these new democracies are actually not particularly liberal. They're democratic, but they're not liberal.
- 2.41 What do we mean by this? That in fact, even democratization, holding elections, can lead to an infringement of the rights of particularly minority groups. I just want to sketch out some of the differences between democracy and liberalism. They're not the same thing. Democracy—free, fair, periodic elections, a transfer of power. You can't be president for life and call that a democracy. You have to have peaceful transfers of power. The adult population has to have the right to vote, not just a small elite. There has to be freedom for the opposition to organize and campaign against the government for power. So freedom for dissent, that includes freedom of speech.
- 2.42 People sometimes have to lose elections and leave office, and that there are some kinds of term limits on how long you can be ruling a country. The key in democracy is majority rule and people power, that it's the people that are exercising power. The majority is exercising power, not a small elite. That's the key principle in democracy.
- 2.43 Now, liberalism has some elements that overlap with democracy. So the need for freedom of the press, so that you have voices in opposition, so they can express opposition. But liberalism is much more concerned about the rights of individuals, including minorities, than it is necessarily with the majority of the people ruling. So this means a defense of your constitutional rights, i.e., the right not to be arrested without trial, the right to free speech. And liberalism tends to favor a plurality of interests and not a monist—a system where there is no contestation between ideas and different power centers. So you want political pluralism, including different institutions that might check the power of the executive branch, such as the Supreme Court, such as the legislature.
- 2.44 And finally, individual liberty, what liberalism is concerned with, which is individual liberty—that can actually clash with a key principle of democracy, which is the rule of the majority. The majority should get what it wants, not as tiny an elite. That's the

principle in democracy, whereas liberalism's principle is all about defending the individual, including minorities. And it's that majority versus minority clash between liberalism and democracy—that's how we get a tension between the two, which James Madison—he wasn't the first to coin this term—but he worried about "the tyranny of the majority." So you can have a democracy, but the majority might become tyrannical and not respect the rights of minorities. That actually comes from ancient Greek philosophy, and I cannot remember who actually came up with this term. But it's something that the founder is worried about, and hence the importance of various checks and balances in the system.

- 2.45 But having said that liberalism and democracy aren't the same thing, a lot of the newer democracies are actually illiberal. But there is a sense in which liberalism and democracy do actually need each other. One is that democracy, in order to function properly, has to have space for opposition parties to contest for power and to assemble freely. There has to be freedom of the press in order for opposition voices to get their messages out. All of this is integral to the functioning of a proper democracy that is responsive to the wishes of the people, because democracy should be about the wishes of the population being translated into power.
- 2.46 Now, it is also true, however, that you can have liberalism without democracy. A point Snyder makes that—he talks about societies like Hong Kong under colonialism, which was technically before they had voting, but still it was liberal judges upheld people's rights. But people didn't have the right to vote, but it was still liberal. Liberalism does require contending power centers. You could have a small number of people being allowed to vote, 5,000 people maybe being allowed to vote, but as long as there are different power centers competing with each other, technically, you could have a form of liberalism.
- 2.47 So I talked about where democracy and liberalism clash, hence this phrase "illiberal democracy," which has been used to describe many of the new democracies that emerged in the 1980s. And Zakaria, he wrote his book in the '90s, talking about this phenomenon of illiberal democracy in Asia, South America, and Africa. There are these databases that score and rank countries on the basis of their freedom, like Freedom House and V-Dem, and these different indices of political liberalism. They have political liberalism and democracy indices.
- 2.48 And a lot of countries score better on democracy scores, what's known here as political, rather than civil liberty scores. So a lot of countries will have elections. They score reasonably well on transfer of power, but they score poorly when it comes to, are your rights going to be—can you be arrested without trial? To what extent do we have judges that are impartial, willing to uphold your constitutional rights? Maybe not. Maybe you don't actually have very strong rights protections, but you have the right to vote, and there is a transfer of power. This seems to have been a pattern, still seems to

be a pattern, in many countries that have democracy in the sense of elections, but they don't have a lot of freedom and a lot of upholding of people's rights.

2.49 I should say, in terms of democracy, there was an expansion in the number of democracies, a decline in the number of autocracies. But since 2008, thereabouts, we've started to see a slight slippage backwards and a slight decline in the number of democracies in the world. Although it's not been dramatic. Just by looking at a case like Russia, for example, some of these things, these big countries can dominate the headlines. But actually, it's not been a dramatic backsliding, but it has been somewhat of a slide backward. There was the hope with the Arab Spring that we would get a set of new democracies emerging, and that has largely not come to pass. In fact, probably to some degree, the reverse has come to pass.

2.50 OK, I want to now talk a little bit then about the history of how liberalism develops in various Western countries. I'll talk a fair bit about England, which is one of the oldest, most successful liberal democratic societies. Why do we get liberalism emerging in England, as opposed to Turkey? What is it about England that leads to the emergence of liberalism? A lot of this is just down to the accidents of history and the accidents of economics. At least some would argue that this is the case.

2.51 If we look at England, we have a tradition in England going back to the Magna Carta of 1215, which was really about the nobility—that is, the landowners resisting the king. You have the king who wants control over England, and you have these landowners who want to protect their rights, not to be taxed, not to have their authority infringed by the king. And so that is the beginning then of constitutions and rights for individuals, is a small set of elites resisting another elite, which is the king.

2.52 So it's all happening within a small group of people. The mass of the peasantry is having no voice in any of this. But that's the kernel then of liberalism, which emerges and gets expressed in this document, the Magna Carta, in 1215, which is an early statement of rights. But really what the nobles—they weren't thinking of rights for the peasants. It was rights for the nobility against the king. The peasants were not even considered. They weren't even considered even remotely in the game of politics at all. Obviously, they can't read, they can't participate in so many ways.

2.53 You then get the development also of the common law. This is the idea of precedence, setting precedence, which further court decisions have to refer to, in this same period. Then the English Civil War of the 1640s is a precursor to the Glorious Revolution of 1688, which upholds a kind of—it's partly about Protestants making sure that England is Protestant rather than Catholic, but associated with that are a greater set of rights than would have perhaps been the case under a Catholic England. So England becomes solidified as Protestant through the Civil War and through the Glorious Revolution. The English Civil War, by the way, produces the Puritans, who came also to found New England as well. So that's an interesting connection with the U.S.

- 2.54** These events were really about liberalism. They weren't about democracy. So the English Civil War and the Glorious Revolution was not about holding elections. This was really about the rights of property holders, that is, major landowners, the nobility, against the king. And really, it was driven by a small liberal. Whig was the term more or less for liberal. Tory was more the term for the aristocrats. The Whigs, this was a tiny elite of 5,000 landowners who were representing these liberal ideas against the monarchy, who wanted something more authoritarian. And that's the development. That's the origin then of this liberal ideology.
- 2.55** And it also then feeds into a campaign for freedom of speech and the right not to be arbitrarily arrested. This is all happening in the 17th and 18th, and to some degree, 19th century. This heritage of fighting for liberty then starts to be woven into what it means to be English, what it means to be British. That link between liberalism and English and British national identity actually reinforces liberalism and helps give it more of a basis in the society.
- 2.56** But of course, it had to be hard fought. We forget about some of these battles that were fought in the 1700s in Britain. The battle for civil rights, for habeas corpus, not to be arbitrarily arrested. Catholics and also dissenting Protestant sects. So if you weren't Anglican, if you were a Methodist or a Baptist, that was considered a dissenter, and you didn't have the same rights as an Anglican, which was the official established church. So first we have rights being extended to the dissenting sects, the evangelical sects, Baptist and Methodist. Then we get rights for Catholics.
- 2.57** How does this happen? Largely through threats of upheaval and violence. The Catholic were heavily concentrated in Ireland. Ireland was part of Britain. If you didn't extend these rights to Ireland, you might have had a desire for independence and rebellion. So fear of rebellion, fear of unrest and discontent, it was more self-interested. The reason these groups got rights was more about self-interest than it was about ideology.
- 2.58** There was also a battle over free speech and freedom of the press. So 1763, John Wilkes' rights to criticize the king were defended by the Lord Chief Justice. This would be a kind of Supreme Court, although that wasn't the formal institution. So that interpretation protecting the right to criticize the king, that's where the battle for liberalism was in the 18th century. And that was a key battle that was won by these reformers who were linked to the Whigs or what were called the radicals. It was a radical view that you could criticize the king back in the 18th century. They were supported by a particular social group, which was more of a bourgeoisie, the middle-class artisans, as opposed to the landowners. The peasantry were, again, largely not participating in politics in any important way.
- 2.59** So liberalism was a cause linked to that middle class, who largely did not have the vote, by the way, because voting was something reserved for a very small number of large-scale property holders. You then have then a series of reforms that gradually extend rights and later extend the vote to different categories of the population. A wider and

wider group of the population are getting rights and including democratic rights. But there are some setbacks in the 18th century. But nevertheless, there is a victory for the classical liberals in securing their rights to freedom of speech. We've forgotten about these battles. We forget about these battles for freedom of speech, which are incredibly important, and the right not to be arbitrarily arrested also.

2.60 One of the questions is, "Why does liberalism take root then in England, more so than in other places?" One of the arguments one could make is it becomes attached to what it means to be English, is that you are distinctively liberal. When you are the first society in the world to develop a bill of rights and to develop the right to criticize the king, the right not to be arbitrarily arrested, that can become part of your distinctiveness as a country. And arguably, that then can reinforce—so if someone tries to take away your liberty, you can say, "Oh, you're being un-British. This is these are my English liberties. You're trying to take them away. You are actually being un-British, anti-patriotic, and therefore, betraying our country." And so that connection between patriotism and liberalism, I think, is part of what's important here.

2.61 There are also economic reasons why liberalism is more successful in England than on the European continent. So one of the reasons is because England industrializes first, and so there's also a large middle-class bourgeoisie traders who are involved in capitalism, and arguably then can be taxed by the king. And so the king doesn't necessarily need to oppress peasants to extract a tax, and therefore justifying rule on the basis of taxing peasants, as was the case in France or Germany, or what was then Germany, which is a collection of different states. And that meant that the king didn't have to oppress the population as much and could perhaps allow more liberty to exist. So that is one argument why liberalism takes root more easily in England than in France and Germany.

2.62 Of course, the American Revolution then builds on those English revolutions, the Puritans coming out of the English Civil War, for example. American Revolution was also influenced by the ideas of English liberals like John Locke. So the American Revolution extends voting to all, quote, "free white persons," males, of course. But still, that was radical. In 1790, the number of people who could vote in England was vastly smaller than that. The idea that you could vote without owning property was revolutionary. So the U.S. is taking things that had developed in England to the next level, arguably. So it's building already on what was the world's most liberal political culture.

2.63 And then it adds a few other items—the founders' emphasis on checks and balances. So, checks on the power of the president. That could be Congress, could be the Supreme Court. These are different ways in which the power of the executive, which is—the executive means typically the leader, the president, prime minister, and so on, or the autocrat, the monarch. So there's some check on executive power. A strong judiciary, and also a formalized constitution. The American Constitution is written

down. The English Constitution is not written. It is just based on a set of norms and traditions.

- 2.64** Now, there are a number of reasons—why does liberalism work well in the U.S.? Why does it take root in the U.S.? Now, of course, it's coming from England, which already has a liberal tradition. The U.S. is arguably pushing this even more extreme than it exists in England. But there are also some preconditions that allow for the success of liberalism in the U.S. One is the density of associational life, particularly in New England. So you had a tradition of the town meeting to solve local problems, which is quite a liberal process. It's also a very democratic process. Alexis de Tocqueville, the French writer in the early 19th century, was commenting on the civic spiritedness and associational life of the northern United States.
- 2.65** You also had, of course, in the U.S., a large number of Protestant sects. It wasn't the case that everybody was an Anglican. Anglicans become the Episcopalians. Yes, this was an established church in a number of the states, but generally you had a large number of different Protestant sects. And that meant that it wasn't possible for one to dominate the way the Anglicans dominated in England, and that was important as well.
- 2.66** Economically, the U.S. wasn't dominated by large landowners with peasants. It had lots of small freeholders. Again, this is mainly in the north. South had more of a European style, large landowner class with slavery or with indentured servitude. But certainly in the north, you had a small substrate of, or you had a substrate of small freeholders, which that was seen as very important. Thomas Jefferson really put a lot of emphasis in his republican tradition on this idea of the independent farmer as the cornerstone of the republic. And so maybe that also made a difference that you had a broad-based economic prosperity and a broad-based economy.
- 2.67** And even in Canada, where, after the American Revolution, the people who lost—the Tories—went and founded English Canada. Even those Tories, even the conservative element in U.S. society, was relatively liberal in many ways. Just to wind up here on the U.S., the other thing, of course, is that liberalism comes to be entwined with American national identity, the American Revolution, freedom, life, liberty, and the pursuit of happiness, the Constitution. That also makes it harder if you're going to undo and change the United States from a liberal society to a monarchical society. That's going to be harder because it's really going to rub up against the tradition that's been established as a cornerstone of patriotism in the country.
- 2.68** Now we're going to move to a trickier case, which is France. And this is a famous painting from 1830, called *Liberty Guiding the People*, which is a symbol of this. So there was a French Revolution. So the American Revolution, 1776, French Revolution, 1789. Instead of the U.S. Constitution, they have their Declaration of the Rights of Man, which is their constitutional liberal document, which is a very liberal document. However, in France, one of the arguments is that they didn't have as many of the preconditions for the easy taking of liberalism that existed in England or in the U.S.

- 2.69** Because of the heritage of the kind of state that had developed in the 1500s, 1600s, 1700s, it was much more of the kind of state that raised money through taxing the peasantry, rather than through taxing trade, for example. It had a very powerful bureaucracy, not accountable to any strong legislature. There wasn't really a tradition of a strong historic parliament the way the English had a historic parliament that defend —originally it arose as a parliament for the nobility against the king. And those kinds of legislative bodies did exist in France, but they were much weaker. So the precursors, the substructure that France had, was not as powerful as existed in England or the U.S.
- 2.70** Weaker electoral machinery and courts were less powerful, fewer checks and balances in the system. And so what happens in France is, we have a more or less unbroken liberal democracy in England for hundreds of years, in the United States for hundreds of years, whereas in France, there's a movement back and forth between liberal democracy and monarchy. So there have been 5 so-called republics. We're currently in the Fifth Republic. And in between, you had monarchies. So a relapse into monarchy, first after the Napoleonic Wars in 1815.
- 2.71** Similarly, in what became Germany and Prussia, a much more autocratic, much more centralized system, based on taxation of peasantry, much more absolutist. So these were kind of absolutist, dynastic, aristocratic-run states where power was more centralized, and they became more autocratic when they became nation states. And we'll talk a bit more about nations and nationalism in a subsequent lecture. And so, these checks on the power of the executive were weaker in Germany and Sweden.
- 2.72** Now, liberalism does become part of the French national identity. The French Revolution does become a key part of the French national identity. That is a plus for France in terms of the liberal tradition surviving. And so there was always a vigorous liberal opposition which had a memory of the revolution. Arguably in Germany, you didn't have even that kind of a tradition.
- 2.73** I want to move to speaking about other parts of the world where you could argue the conditions were even less hospitable for liberalism. One of the questions might be, "Can we have liberalism, individual rights, being protected in the Muslim world? Can we see that becoming dominant in the Muslim world?" So we have to look at the history of the Muslim world to ask the question of why it is that liberalism does not seem to take root in the Muslim world, as it certainly does in the English-speaking world, and as it eventually did in Western Europe.
- 2.74** Now, there's a tradition of toleration in the Muslim world, but it's much more about toleration of groups being allowed to worship. So the Jews could worship separately from the Muslims, from the Christians. That was the basis of the Ottoman millet system. This was the Ottoman Empire, which was based, centered, in what is today Istanbul in Turkey. But what you didn't have is a tradition of individual liberty rights, the rights that the nobility codified in the Magna Carta against the king in England. That

tradition of individual liberty as against what would be in the Islamic Empire as the caliph was sultan. That tradition of individual liberty did not seem to exist.

- 2.75** You had religious law, the sharia, which is the religious law and the set of juristic decisions, interpretations of the religious law, the fiqh. That religious law covered a wider range of aspects of daily life, including money lending, aspects of dress, than Christianity. So that was kind of the legal tradition in the Muslim world. And that extended to prescriptions on alcohol and relations between the sexes, with a lot of not secular courts, but religious courts. Of course, you did have canon law and you did have religious courts in England as well, but you had a quicker move towards a secularized court system in Europe than in the Muslim empires.
- 2.76** Some people would say that in the West, in Western Europe and its offshoots, the inheritance of both the classical tradition, ancient Greece and ancient Rome, in combination with the Judeo-Christian tradition, which recognizes the idea of the individual, the individual soul under God, that this was an important seedbed for liberalism to emerge from. Others contest that. But there's no question that democracy, which existed in ancient Athens and was written about in the classic ancient Greek texts, that that very much does link back to the classical tradition.
- 2.77** And so the question is, "What happened to Greek learning in the Muslim empires?" Now, for a while, up until about the 11th century, Muslim empires, particularly in Moorish Spain, they definitely did prize Greek learning. There was a proto-Renaissance tradition in Muslim empires. But by the 11th century, some of those more innovative thinkers that were interpreting the ancient Greek texts were eventually sidelined by more conservative Islamic scholars and jurists. And eventually, a more conservative interpretation, which left less room for individual reasoning, emerges in Islam.
- 2.78** And so that means it's going to be much less likely that you're going to have a Renaissance and an Enlightenment occurring in Islam. Whereas in Europe, you did have in the—so in France, in the early 1730s, '40s, '50s, you had Voltaire and Diderot and a number of these secular liberals quite freely pursuing cultural liberalism. And there was no tradition really of that in the Muslim world. So even though France didn't formerly have political liberalism, it did have this cultural tradition of liberalism.
- 2.79** So to what extent do these cultural inheritances, this intellectual history, does that condition the possibility of liberalism? Now, that's not to say they didn't try. It became clear as we move into the 19th century that Western powers, such as Britain and France, which became colonial powers, were more successful, at least in terms of military power, than major Muslim empires, such as the Ottoman Empire. And so the Ottoman Empire looks at the West, looks at its military prowess, and says, "Actually, we're going to have to reform our societies if we don't want to fall behind." And so you had a set of reforms that take place in the Ottoman Empire in the 19th century, the Tanzimat reforms.

- 2.80** And there are aspects of liberalism that are broached as part of the Tanzimat reforms. You could have imagined that maybe the desire to catch up with the Europeans would have led to a wholesale reform of Ottoman society in the direction of liberalism. But still, a lot of these reformers in the Ottoman Empire ran into the barrier that people said, "Well, these are the ideas of the infidel, the Christian European infidel, and they have no place in a Muslim society." So because these ideas did not have a link to the national or religious identity of Muslim societies, they were fighting an uphill battle.
- 2.81** We see this later on after the emergence of the Turkish Republic, Kemal Atatürk. There were, in some respects, and also the Shah in Iran, in some respects, these countries do allow for more freedom, say for women, and to some extent for minorities. But on the other hand, civil liberties do not make, do not make great progress in any of these—Atatürk's Turkey or the Pahlavis in Iran, either. So there's a very, it seems to be a limit to the extent to which liberalism has been able to succeed within the Islamic world.
- 2.82** But that's not to say it's impossible. There are many different pathways, perhaps, to liberalism. One could be fear of falling behind and losing out economically or militarily. Could be a spur to change. We saw that in Japan to some degree from the 1850s. Now, we see a number of different movements popping up in the Muslim world, typically socialist movement, Nasserism in Egypt, Ba'athism in Iraq and Syria. They are breaking from Islamic tradition. So they are breaking from that Islamic tradition, but they're not doing it in the direction of liberalism. They're doing it in the direction more of socialism and of authoritarianism.
- 2.83** And of course, there have been some extensions of rights. Women can now drive in Saudi Arabia. You can say that's a form of liberalism. The question, of course, is to what extent is the Saudi regime now, which is seeking to modernize and change its image, is that going to mean that they're going to go beyond allowing women to drive? They're going to perhaps institute better protections for individual rights? Who knows? It's not clear what the motivation is going to be for societies to liberalize.
- 2.84** Now, of course, you had democratic revolutions of the Arab Spring, which have largely, unfortunately, not come to any successful conclusion for the liberal democrats. So revolution is one pathway to liberal liberalism, but it's a tricky pathway, as we saw with France in the French Revolution. The people who make the revolution are not necessarily the people who benefit from the revolution. And that's been—seems to have been the case with what happened with the Arab Spring.
- 2.85** OK, so just to conclude, last two slides, we've talked about liberalism as the idea of individual liberty, typically against the state, but can also be individual liberty against rights, vis-à-vis the religious authorities, or vis-à-vis so-called tyranny of the majority. The difference between a negative liberalism, which is about toleration and doesn't specify different ideas of the good life, and positive liberalism, which very much seeks to advance a particular vision of the good life in the good society, such as the

importance of education, individual autonomy, rationality, as things one should develop in oneself.

- 2.86** Utilitarian versus rights-based liberalism that is a consequence-based versus what's known as a deontological-based approach, which is too much to get into now, but I can talk about in the Q & A. Cultural and economic forms of liberalism—economic liberalism tends to be associated with the right, cultural liberalism with the left. Again, for American viewers, liberalism here meaning a classical liberalism, not a modern left liberalism. There's a left form and a right form of liberalism. The left form is more focusing on culture and importing aspects of socialism, the right form of liberalism being much more a classical liberalism, which is focused on market freedom.
- 2.87** I then looked at the origin of liberal society—why some societies like England, Britain, United States, became successful liberal societies. Others had a bumpier road, like France, to get there. In other situations, such as Turkey or Iran, have not managed to liberalize. Asking questions about what are the preconditions for societies to liberalize? Can all societies liberalize, or do you need to have that heritage of the Judeo-Christian and Greco-Roman classical influence? Do you need to have a certain kind of economy in order to liberalize, or is there no limit necessarily to how a society liberalizes?
- 2.88** Francis Fukuyama, who is more of an optimist in this regard, after seeing a lot of the democratization in the '80s and the '90s was arguing, well, as societies get wealthier, their citizens are going to want liberal democracy. So we should expect, with growing wealth, a spread in the number of liberal democracies. We've not seen that in more recent decades. We've seen some countries like Saudi Arabia, which are very wealthy, not necessarily becoming liberal democracies. We've seen China become a much richer society. We haven't really seen the emergence of liberal democracy there. Does that mean Fukuyama is wrong? That's a question we can talk about.
- 2.89** Then I talked about liberal democracy and how this is an uneasy compound of two ideas which have an overlap but also have points of tension, particularly over the roles of minorities and majorities. There's even a question of whether democratization leads to tighter restrictions on the rights, particularly of minorities, or whether it advances individual rights.
- 2.90** Thank you very much.

Lecture 3: Conservatism

At a glance — Conservatism as a political ideology.

- 3.1 Welcome, everyone. Today I'm going to be speaking about conservatism. You'll recall the first lecture where we talked about three aspects of all ideologies, the first being a theory of how the world works. That is, the empirical "is" question. Second is the "ought" question, how the world ought to be, the normative aspect. And then C is the action plan to get from A to B. So those are three aspects of ideology in general.
- 3.2 How do conservatives answer these three questions? So conservatism begins with a view of how society works, and that is that humans are not blank slates that are simply something that you can inscribe an ideology onto. They are also not necessarily born angels. They're often imperfect. And because of that assessment of human nature, that means we need to uphold social order, which can include, or does include, particular social rules, norms, and hierarchies in order to ensure the best outcome for society.
- 3.3 In addition, the best societies tend to evolve towards change, rather than move to change through revolution and radical change. So conservatism prefers reformist movements to change, rather than revolutionary movements towards change. So evolution, not revolution, is the plan for social change. So conservatism isn't against change, full stop, but it is against radical change.
- 3.4 So in terms of the conservative outlook on how to achieve social progress, this will occur through a process of evolution and trial and error, which means that you have to respect the wisdom of tradition and precedent. What we can know about the world is little. And what has survived down to us through the ages reflects a kind of, to use modern phraseology, a kind of "wisdom of crowds" approach. That is, there's been a lot of process of trial and error. This is what's come down to us. And there's a lot of wisdom contained in those traditions and precedents and rules and hierarchies.
- 3.5 Also, society for conservatives is looked at not so much as a set of individuals with clashing rights, a set of different groups which are articulating separate interests, but rather as a unified organism. So the liberal outlook is, society is a place where you have a plurality of clashing interests and power centers and checks and balances. And out of that struggle between different interests emerges the most rational way forward. Whereas for conservatives, they would say no, well, actually, society is more of an organism, and you want harmony rather than a clash of different competing special interests, and that you want to surmount that special, those special interests.
- 3.6 And so, in addition, conservatism aims at order and stability, rather than change. So conservatives see a lot of value in the preservation of a social order and social stability, as opposed to the upheavals of change, which can lead to a lot of unintended consequences. Again, getting back to that view of the world—that what we can know is limited, therefore we can't come up with these broad principles that liberalism comes

up with—we have to kind of be a lot more attuned to the tried-and-true, the tradition that we have inherited from our ancestors.

- 3.7** And we can see a real distinction then between the conservatism and the liberalism of the 1700s. And of course, there were different issues at play. I think we already mentioned in the last couple of lectures how a lot of the issues in the 18th century concerned political liberalism—hierarchy versus equality, in terms of how power is organized. Is it going to be the aristocracy and the monarch and the religious authorities that are going to have the power, that elite? Or is power going to be diffused more broadly to a wider swath of the population?
- 3.8** There's also a dispute about the nature of change. John Locke, the English liberal, writing in the early 18th century, early to mid 18th century, puts a lot of emphasis on having consistent liberal principles, such as a set of natural rights that all individuals hold vis-à-vis each other and vis-à-vis the state, sees society as a social contract between individuals and their rulers, a set of rights and duties between individuals and their rulers. Individuals are pursuing their own selfish, in a way, interests, which they're allowed to do as long as they respect the rights of others to pursue those same interests.
- 3.9** But conservatives would take issue with that very contractual reading of how a society works. They would say, "Well, no, people don't write down a contract between themselves and the state." Their tie to the state, to the authorities, is not a contractual, individualistic one, but an organic one, a tie of affection and an organic tie which has been passed down over the generations between, as Edmund Burke and conservatives would put it, "a tie between the living, the dead, and those yet to be born." So you have this link over time, over generations.
- 3.10** And so it is a non-contractual view of the world, as opposed to the liberal contractual view of the world. And that also means that radical changes are something conservatives will oppose, because people have ties to the social order, to their place in the social order. And it's a bit like an oak tree that grows out of the ground. It kind of grows organically and harmonious—and that's how you get social harmony. If you simply allow for these sweeping changes on the basis of social blueprints, such as everybody having the right to vote, everybody having the same rights vis-à-vis the constitution and the king, and upending the existing social order, then that's going to lead to a whole lot of problems and violence and disorder, which is going to make society worse.
- 3.11** That was kind of the argument of Edmund Burke in the 18th century, seen as one of the originators of conservatism. Actually, Burke was a Whig. That is, he was a liberal who saw what was happening in France, wrote very much against the French Revolution, was very much opposed to the French Revolution—and of course, the French Revolution of 1789, for the first few years, it had a Declaration of the Rights of Man. It did overthrow a monarchical, tyrannical system. But then, starting in 1792, you started

to see the Terror break out, the guillotine. Justice was no longer being dispensed fairly. Many people were killed. And so the view is that this led to disorder and violence and is not the way to organize society.

- 3.12** So for Burke, he sees society as a social order that has developed over time, over the generations, and it is simply not possible to develop a set of principles that hold for all places and all times. It is very specific to particular context. And the best we can hope for is kind of incremental change, trying new things, seeing how it works out, but nothing too revolutionary. Revolutions, these big leaps, can make things worse, as in the case of the French Revolution.
- 3.13** Now, the American Revolution actually did take a more liberal approach in the sense that they thought you could formulate—Americans thought you could formulate a set of principles, such as "all men are created equal," such as checks and balances written into a constitution. And so that is very much a Lockean view of the world. And, of course, it's a revolution. It came about through overthrowing British rule, overthrowing aristocratic rule. And so that's an expression, then, of a liberal constitution. And when I say liberal, I mean classical liberal, right? Not modern liberal, which is a fusion in some ways of ideas from socialism and ideas from liberalism. But I'm talking about 18th-, 19th-century liberalism.
- 3.14** Then we can take a look at how conservatism works in the society that was also created after the American Revolution, which was English-speaking Canada. And instead of "life, liberty and the pursuit of happiness," in the Canadian founding document, the British North America Act of 1867, uniting the various provinces which came to be known as Canada, we have this phrase, "Peace, order, and good government." So it's a very different-sounding slogan from "life, liberty and the pursuit of happiness," the first being a liberal, individual-oriented ethos, the second being much more that organic Burkean ethos of peace, order, and good government, the emphasis on order. The constitution remaining that British unwritten constitution, rather than a formalized set of principles, abstract principles, a kind of Lockean U.S. Constitution.
- 3.15** In terms of conservatism, the big issue in—because I'm going to get to a discussion of modern conservatism and the political right. So I want to start, though, by talking about what people were worried about in the 18th century. And in the 18th century, what we see is a set of different states in the world that have a traditional form of government, which is typically a king, some kind of a monarch, and a religious authority.
- 3.16** Now, in the Christian world, that religious authority would typically be the papacy, but also perhaps the established religious authorities in a particular country, such as France or in Britain. So it's the established religious authorities, and it is an aristocracy, with the monarch at the apex. And the principle of the old regime was that the monarch derives their right to rule from God. So there's God at the top, then there is the monarch, the aristocracy, and the social order. That is the natural way people should be ruled.

- 3.17** The French Revolution. So if we take France, we have Louis XIV in the mid-1700s, a perfect example of that old regime where you have the religious authority and the monarch, which have the power. And the people do not have power, and they don't have rights. Moving forward to the French Revolution of 1789, the French Revolution says, "No, it's not the divine right of kings to rule. That power must be wielded by the people, not the king." So the proper bearers of authority, of power, are not the king, but the French people. So we're moving from a hierarchical system to an egalitarian national system.
- 3.18** So nationalism is actually a liberal principle in the 18th century, a radical principle that is opposed. Now there's a debate over whether there was any kind of nationalism in France in the 1600s and 1700s. But essentially the principle of nationalism, which we will talk about in a later lecture, is that the people have the right to rule and not the king—popular sovereignty, rather than dynastic monarchical sovereignty. So it's a different principle of political organization, not the aristocratic monarchical principle, but the national democratic principle, which is associated with liberalism.
- 3.19** So at this time, this is conservatism, and that's liberalism. It's about power, a hierarchical view of power, or a more egalitarian national view of power. The people should rule themselves, not the elite. And this idea of the elite ruling, having a mandate from God to rule, was the general principle in empires. Empires were the way humans ruled themselves from the emergence of civilization in 6,000 BC, in the places like Sumer and ancient Egypt. This was the system, right? You had religious elites and you had political elites, which was coming to a point in the monarch, the pharaoh, the sultan, the king, the queen, whatever. Ottoman Empire was an example. And this idea of the *ancien régime*. So it was very much a hierarchical, elitist form of politics. And so the big battle in the 18th century was, "Are we going to move from this to the popular sovereignty of nation states, national democracy?"
- 3.20** And so, because we're going to get into a conversation about modern conservatism and the right, I just want to sort of emphasize how different things were in the 18th, and even arguably into the 19th century, when the debate was really all about political liberty versus political establishment and authority.
- 3.21** Right, so in the previous lecture on liberalism, we looked at surveys of voters and how they map onto these two dimensions, these two ideological dimensions, the first being the economic left versus right, and the second being more the cultural conservative versus cultural liberal, or if you want, what is now the kind of nationalist versus globalist, or closed versus open dimension. But if we were to go back to the 18th and 19th century, actually the key dimension was this one about power. Because recall that there's really three aspects here on the left-right scale. One is culture—that is, are you in favor of stability and order rather than change? Economics, free market versus the state, the welfare state, redistribution. And the last is power hierarchy versus democracy and equality.

- 3.22** The big conversation in the 18th century was around this third element, which is power. The ancien régime of Louis XIV was about defending hierarchy, the divine right of kings, and keeping the mass of the population away from power. The French Revolution, the American Revolution, were about power to the people. Democracy, nationalism, equality—that's part of the new order, as opposed to the old order of hierarchy. Now, having said that, we've talked about there being a cultural form of conservatism based on order and stability in the culture, as opposed to change.
- 3.23** Economics on the right is kind of liberalism, isn't it? Free market, private property, as opposed to the state and redistribution, and then power. Now, having said all that, there are different strands which complicate that simple picture. And so, for example, we've already talked about the free market right, which is essentially about economic liberalism, economic individualism, private property.
- 3.24** Neoliberalism, libertarianism, are variants of classical liberalism that very much believe in change. They believe in globalization. And that, if you think about it, very much cuts against what a cultural conservative would tend to want, which is the defense of the particular against the universal and global, the defense of the nation against the universal and global. But yet, neoliberalism and libertarianism are much closer to the right in many countries today. So again, what is right today is an amalgamation of different things, some of which are arguably not necessarily conservative, such as free market liberalism.
- 3.25** Now, there is also an older tradition in conservatism, which is arguably anti-free market in some way, or at least it's not hugely enthusiastic about the individualism in the market system. And that is the one-nation Tory or Christian democratic tradition. Because in the 18th century, when there was this concern over preservation of the privileges of the social hierarchy, the aristocracy, the monarchy, that was part of conservatism. Slow change, not radical revolution. Don't want to give all these rights and the vote and everything to the mass of the population too quickly. Incremental change.
- 3.26** And going along with that was, however, an aristocratic notion of economics, which was, you know, "We are the landowners. We don't necessarily want to move to a free market system, but we have obligations—what's called noblesse oblige—obligations to our tenants, our peasants, and we need to sort of take care of them." And so there is a kind of welfare state, sort of welfarism, built in—a redistributionism—built into that older aristocratic conservative tradition of the 18th century, which then, in the 19th century, becomes in Britain, under Benjamin Disraeli, the idea of one-nation Toryism, which is this more organic, unified.
- 3.27** "Because we are a social organism, we're not a bunch of individuals competing with each other, with our own life plans and our own—we don't have pluralism here because we are an organism. Society is a unity. We don't want to let people starve in the ditch." So it isn't that cutthroat, sort of libertarian approach where, if you don't

work, you die. One-nation Toryism has built into it a kind of, not socialist, but a kind of egalitarian welfare distribution aspect to it, in that version of conservatism.

- 3.28** So, oddly enough then, that's bringing conservatism closer to socialism and away from liberalism, that kind of conservative tradition of the 18th and 19th century. And now what we're seeing, I should mention, in a very recent period, post-2016, post-Trump, post-Brexit in the U.K., the rise of populism. We're now seeing more discussion in conservative circles of some of these ideas that, actually, the radical change that free market economics brings disrupts the harmony of communities and breaks apart the kind of social orders and stabilities, stability that we need to ensure that people don't become drug addicts, homeless, turn to crime, etc.
- 3.29** So some conservatives around journals like Compact magazine, that's one example. Certain writers like Michael Lind, certain politicians like Marco Rubio, are reviving some of these ideas that say, "Actually, the state needs to be involved, needs to take some care of people." We can't just have a sort of free market individualism with people completely doing what they want, because that is going to lead to a fraying and fracturing of the social order. So we need to have some more stability. Some of them are even talking about unions being not such a bad thing, which would have been anathema to the right in the 1980s or 90s or even up to the 2000s.
- 3.30** So there is then that tradition, the one-nation Tory tradition, which is somewhat more aristocratic, somewhat more redistributionist, version of conservatism. So it's not to say that all conservatism is automatically about "get taxed as low as possible, markets as free as possible." There's also another tradition on the right, which is more associated with the particularly the 18th- and 19th-century conservatism.
- 3.31** Then we come to populism. The populist right, more recently in Europe and in the U.S. with Trump, and the populist right is anti-elite. So if we're thinking in terms of these three dimensions, and especially the power dimension, which is about preserving elite privilege, and that hierarchy is very important for society—that was the argument in the 18th century. What's being argued by national populists, the populist right, is very much diametrically opposed to that. One of the reasons you see some commentators saying, you know, "Trump is not conservative, populism is not conservative," is because it is anti-elite, because it is, on the political dimension, actually more liberal than conservative. It is more about leveling a hierarchy between elites and the people, rather than preserving a hierarchy between elites and the people.
- 3.32** And so in that sense, right-wing populism is arguably more liberal politically, even though clearly, culturally, it's very conservative, wanting to preserve a particular nation, particular ethnic composition perhaps, particular set of traditions. Culturally, very conservative, but politically, actually pretty liberal. Brexit—this idea of this radical change, breaking away from an existing arrangement. That's actually quite a liberal, politically, thing to do, but it's in the name of stability, particularly border control was one of the major—immigration was a major issue in Brexit.

- 3.33** So culturally conservative, but politically kind of pretty liberal. So there's just those complications. Even though this is sort of the archetype, there are variations on the theme, which can take liberalism and conservatism in different directions. And if we go back to that 18th, early 19th-century traditional conservatism, that's then focused on society as an organism rather than as a set of squabbling plural interests.
- 3.34** And so there's a social order based on the church. And in England, that would have been the established church. In continental Europe, it would have been also established Lutheran or Catholic religions. So you have church, family, nation, and the social hierarchy, which might have been either aristocratic or at least quasi-aristocratic, where people kind of knew their place in a social hierarchy. This was more of a one-nation-style Toryism, where elites felt some obligation to help the less fortunate. And so there was some obligation to redistribute. Christian democracy in continental Europe, which was again a way in which conservatism would uphold the power of the religious authorities, be they Lutheran in places like Sweden or Germany, or Catholic in countries such as Belgium or Italy. Burkean as well. This emphasis on slow, incremental trial-and-error change, rather than radical revolutions and principles.
- 3.35** And importantly, the traditional conservatism was sometimes critical of nationalism. It was critical of nationalism because this idea that the people should rule grated with those who felt that social betters, aristocrats, should rule. Aristocracy was, of course, the principle in the dynastic states and empires that preceded the age of the modern nation state, which we're going to talk about when we talk about the ideology of nationalism.
- 3.36** However, it starts to become the case that liberal economics —free market, free trade, that kind of economic liberalism—becomes central to the definition of right-wing politics, of conservative politics, during the Cold War in particular. So you had a sort of battle between the USSR, which is present-day Russia, and a set of satellites around Russia, the Union of Soviet Socialist Republics.
- 3.37** So that sort of communist system and the more free market, liberal democratic system —that is what defines, particularly post-1945. 1945 to 1989, that defines great power conflict in the world and ideological conflict in the world, two models for how to organize society. And in that context, it made a lot of sense for the hawks on free market economics to be on the right. That included perhaps a certain kind of foreign policy position, a muscular foreign policy that would compete and contest communism around the world, in Nicaragua, in El Salvador, in Africa and Vietnam, in Korea. So allied to the defense of the free market was a defense of the free world against communist encroachment. And so these two things are organically connected in the new right that Heywood talks about.
- 3.38** Now, the heyday of this is in the 1970s to the 1990s, because in the 1970s, economically, a lot of Western societies had had a period of—they'd just come off a period of uninterrupted growth and prosperity between 1945 and the oil shock of

1973. What happens after 1973 is Western economies no longer grow as rapidly and as consistently as they did after 1945. The price of oil goes up. That takes a big toll on the economies. It drives up inflation. We got inflation without economic growth, so so-called stagflation. And in that environment, a much more critical eye was being placed on established institutions, like unions or the welfare state.

- 3.39** The new economic liberal critique from people like Milton Friedman was that these institutions were stifling economic growth and dynamism and that you needed to liberate, deregulate, somehow make it harder for unions to be so successful in suppressing competition for wages. So this sort of emphasis on market freedom becomes important in the 1970s through a set of writers and the work of Friedrich von Hayek, the Austrian School of Economics, Milton Friedman in the United States, who emphasize a different kind of economic policy, which emphasizes what Ronald Reagan called "supply-side economics."
- 3.40** If you cut taxes, cut regulation, you free up business—that will create more tax revenue, because those businesses will create jobs, economic growth, wealth, which you can then tax, which can then lead to more revenue without. So this idea of tax cutting and deregulation becomes important. A different way of handling monetary and fiscal policy. So this idea that you needed to spend money to stimulate the economy kind of goes out of fashion. And so in this environment—this is also the Cold War period still up until 1989—there's an emphasis on free market economics and fighting the Cold War. And that becomes to be what defines the right in this period, as opposed to an older conservative tradition, which was a little bit more one-nation Tory in emphasis, a little less focused so zealously on economics and so zealously on economic liberalism.
- 3.41** And actually represents a kind of a break with the older conservative tradition, which was maybe a bit more religious, a bit more hierarchical. This is much more individualistic. It's much more an extreme form of liberalism, and it's allied to this sort of muscular defense of the free world against the Soviet Union.
- 3.42** But now what's happened since 1989 is we've started to emerge from that Cold War period, and which arguably extends. There was a euphoria in the 1990s when Francis Fukuyama wrote his book, *The End of History and the Last Man*, suggesting liberal democracy is the last and final place for human political arrangement. There was a kind of euphoria. We're going to have globalization. You look at the number of books and articles that used the term globalization in the 90s, and it was huge. Free trade explodes.
- 3.43** It's like, the end of communism. The Eastern Bloc comes into the free world. And there was this euphoria also—we'd seen democratization, at least nominally, in Latin America, Africa, and Asia. And so there was this kind of euphoria that we were going to see a completely different world, the end of the bipolar world, the rise of a kind of more U.S.-centric world order.

- 3.44 But that emphasis on economic freedom and market liberalism as defining the right would not last. One of the reasons it doesn't last is because the left adopts market principles and moves away from the idea of a command-and-control socialist economy to a mixed capitalist view of the world. Unions are anyway in decline, partly due to globalization and technological change. So economically, some of the basis for that left-right economic competition was withering away. And at the same time, some of the new cultural challenges, particularly around immigration, are starting to emerge.
- 3.45 So you have the rise between about the late 1980s and the early 2000s, you get a tripling in support for major populist right parties in Europe, like the National Front in France, the Lega Nord in Italy, Freedom Party in Austria. The first big surge of support for far-right or populist right parties occurs from the late 1980s until 2000. Now, in the U.S., we start to see some of this politics also in Proposition 187 in California in the 1990s, moving forward to legislation in Arizona in 2010. But immigration becomes a bigger topic in politics also in the United States. And of course, that really comes to a head with the Brexit referendum in Britain in 2016 and Donald Trump's election in 2016, which was very much about border control and raising the profile of immigration as an issue.
- 3.46 So these cultural issues then lead to a reconfiguration of party bases, voting bases. And all of a sudden, therefore, that era from 1945 to the 1990s, which sort of had a sort of afterlife into the 2000s, the early 2000s, that was characterized by what was called fusionism in the Republican Party. And that fusionism was a philosophy that blended market liberalism, muscular foreign policy, democracy promotion, the sort of neoconservatism of George Bush Jr., and the religious right. So the Christian Coalition, religious right—those three elements formed this fusionism. And that fusionism was, arguably, in many ways, liberal. It was universalistic, outward-looking, pro-free trade. That that version of conservatism then is superseded by that kind of—more establishment conservatism is superseded by this more populist form of conservatism.
- 3.47 In different ways similar things are occurring in other countries as well. I mentioned the Brexit vote in Britain as a break. This is still in process in Britain, this shift from a kind of more establishment form of conservatism based on free markets, based on—and a lot of donors, of course, have an interest in lower taxes and free market-type politics. Moving away from that, you look at the U.S. election, for example. Trump's success with small-dollar donors, whereas the big-dollar donors increasingly going to the Democrats. That's an indication that the economic elite donor class, which emphasized more of that economic low-tax type of conservatism, is shifting. And it's this more populist, culturally -driven form of conservatism that is rising.
- 3.48 And so that era we can perhaps bookmark and bookend that era of economic neoliberalism being what the right is about, as being a specific and perhaps unrepresentative period in history. Because prior to that, of course, we'd had more of that one nation-type tradition. Now, granted, it was focused on other issues, certainly

wasn't focused as much on the kinds of issues populism is focused on today. But what we increasingly see then is this rift between the economic neoliberals with the market liberals and national conservatives.

- 3.49** And sometimes the terms free cons and national conservatives are national—nat cons, free cons. That's an emerging lingo. The free cons are really about the older sort of post-war market liberalism. Globalization would tend to be pro -free trade. And the nat cons, very often even on economic issues, now favor things like industrial policy, limits to free trade, limits to globalization, self sufficiency, particularly where there's a security issue, such as particular minerals that are needed for smartphones and for chips, and also for green technology.
- 3.50** There's a question about conservatism, which is, "What is conservatism about as a philosophy?" We know liberalism is about freedom, and socialism is about equality. What is conservatism about? Now, you could say conserving, but the question then becomes "conserving what?" And that's a question conservatism asks all the time. Some conservatives would say there really isn't a core to conservatism the way there is to other ideologies. It's more idiosyncratic and can't be easily defined. It's more of an attitude —not wanting to change so rapidly, for example. But it doesn't actually tell you much about what you're trying to conserve.
- 3.51** Now, one attempt to define conservatism actually comes from someone who isn't a conservative actually, who is a socialist, or was a socialist —G.A. Cohen—and he would define conservatism as a kind of defense of the intrinsic value. "We value our way of life because we're attached to it. And that's the bottom line." We don't value our way of life because it produces wealth or harmony or high trust or anything. We defend our way of life because we're attached to our way of life for what it is. And that's it.
- 3.52** So this attachment to the intrinsic value of routines, traditions, rituals, a particular people, our nation, our group, our institutions. For Cohen, "Human beings are the particular valuable creatures that we personally cherish and are therefore worth preserving." So it's all about a defense of attachments, of affective attachments to landscapes, to people, to traditions. It's not instrumental for something else. So if something has an intrinsic value, then we have, as he says, "reason to regret its destruction as such, a reason that we would not have if we cared only about the value that the thing carries." So it's not about the instrumental value, it's the intrinsic value.
- 3.53** So that then raises the question of different types of conservatism. What is it that conservatives are attached to and wish to preserve? It could be an institution, like the monarchy, or it could be even a democracy, actually. It could be that a conservative is not going to want the U.S. to become a monarchy because the U.S. has long been a democracy. So just purely for reasons of attachment, if you're a conservative and you want things to remain as they've been traditionally, the tradition in the U.S. is a democratic tradition. So you don't want to see that change to become a monarchy,

because a monarchy would have a very foreign feel and would be a big break. So in this case, conservatives in the U.S. would be conservative about democracy.

- 3.54** And in fact, the Constitution, which is a liberal document, as I mentioned, the American Constitution is an exemplar of a kind of Lockean liberalism. And yet many conservatives in America are conservative about the Constitution. They want the Supreme Court to interpret the law on the basis of the Constitution. They want to conserve the Constitution. So this very liberal document is the basis of conservatism, right?
- 3.55** So people can be conservatively attached to an institution, like, could be the president or it could be the Constitution. Could be certain things, certain landscapes, and also it can be nationhood, ethnicity as well, could be religion. If we go back to the 18th century in France, the *ancien régime*, it was very attached to Catholicism as the basis of, as one basis for French identity. So it's about conservatism, about religion. The Iranian regime currently is very conservative about Shia Islam. You know, that is the basis of the regime, Shia Islam, and a certain interpretation of Shia Islam. Saudi Arabia is the Wahhabi interpretation of Sunni Islam. It's also about religion. Pakistan, it's also Sunni Islam. Religious Zionists in Israel are attached to orthodox Judaism. So that could be a religious conservatism.
- 3.56** Now, nation—nationalism, what's the relationship between that and conservatism? Going back to the 18th century, nationalism was a radical idea. And actually, conservatives, particularly if we take conservatives in Italy, they would have been opposed to the idea of the nation. "No, we've got the pope, we've got this religious old regime. That's what we're attached to, monarchy and so on." But then, as with the U.S. constitution, which was originally conceived in liberty, most nations—that was also a liberal idea—that then can become the basis for conservatism. So we want to conserve the nation.
- 3.57** Now, there can be other aspects, different versions of nationalism we'll talk about. So we may, it may be that it's the language that we want to preserve. You know, Welsh nationalism, Quebec nationalism, our linguistic —they want to preserve a certain language. It could be the populist right in the West now is concerned with ethnic change, so the ethnic composition of nations might become important. Could be religion. Some conservatives are very wedded to the classical tradition of ancient Greece and ancient Rome. And so the new classical academies that are popping up in schools, and even some universities like Ralston College, they're wanting to teach the great books in the classical Greco-Roman Western tradition. So that Western civilizational tradition might be what conservatives might be attached to, or they might be attached to religion. It might be evangelical Protestantism, it might be Catholicism, it might be Sunni Islam.
- 3.58** So there are these different targets of intrinsic attachment that conservatives have. Now, you can also get a kind of conservatism that actually seeks change to go back to an even earlier period. So it's not a contradiction to necessarily want a change if you're

a conservative. Now, we saw that with populists, UKIP, UK independence party and the Brexit movement in Britain. They wanted a change in Britain's political arrangements. They wanted to break out of the European Union.

3.59 But of course they would say, "Well, Britain entered the European Union in 1975, and we're just going back to the way things used to be. And so we are true to authentic Britishness." So it's not just about preserving the status quo. It might be, we're going to disrupt the status quo to go back to what we think is actually the golden age or a better period. And we see this also in some of the 19th century nationalist movements that are seeking to resurrect a golden age—go back to what was seen as a golden age of unity, "when we were great, when we were together. We need to return to that period, and so we need to break out of this current period."

3.60 I would argue that populism, national populism today, has a little bit of that element to it, that it wants to break out of the current status quo, partly in order to restore a perceived golden age of unity, power, and so on. When society was perhaps less fractured, more united, maybe it was seen as a better period. And, of course, there may be different periods. It might be the 1950s. In the 1940s, it might have been in the 1920s that were seen as the golden age. There are different golden age periods. If you take—you could take the conservatism of ISIS, Islamic State, and they wanted to return to the golden age of the caliphate, when much of the Muslim world, particularly in the Middle East, North Africa, was under one political roof. And so this notion, their golden age then, was the golden age of the caliphate, which was abolished in 1924 by Atatürk.

3.61 OK, in previous lectures, I've also talked about moral intuitions and why some people become liberal. Why do some people become conservative? And what are the moral intuitions that might lead an individual to incline one way or the other? And so I want to return then to some of the psychological models that underpin this kind of thinking. And so the Maslovian hierarchy of needs —Abraham Maslow—that's a kind of psychological model which says people start out having to satisfy their needs for food and shelter, then they want safety from war, for example, then they move to belonging. And then eventually, self-actualization is sort of, that's kind of the luxury good you get once you've satisfied all of the others. This is the sort of argument of Maslow.

3.62 And out of that—and I'm not sort of arguing for or against, I think there could be some problems with this model—but still out of that then comes the view that, as societies become safer and richer and more secure, they're going to move in the direction of these self-actualization values. And in this sort of wheel of, which is derived from the Maslovian model, that might be things like benevolence and universalism, or it might be about self-direction and stimulation and openness to change.

3.63 Now, I think there may be—whether one can argue there's a kind of ideological slant to some of these models, I think that is a fair criticism, but let's just use this as a way of thinking about the kinds of people that might be conservative, or might be inclined to

conservative ideology. And so one of the, as I mentioned before, on this sort of heat map, which comes from the Cultural Dynamics marketing firm, and so they do a lot of very interesting surveys. Several hundred questions. Each one of these titles represents one of those questions. And you see a clustering of attitudes.

- 3.64** This is the sort of settler zone of the heat map, what they call the settlers. This question is about how important safety is to you. And you can see that a lot of this part of the map is lighting up. Those settlers are very concerned with safety. And the people who are least concerned with safety are these prospectors who value having fun, exhilaration, buzz, hedonism, and so on. They're least concerned with safety.
- 3.65** And these people, these pioneers, who are kind of the more people who seek out benevolence, who are benevolent and caring and focus on creativity—they're kind of in the middle on the safety values. So safety and a concern with safety and protection from a dangerous world or people you don't trust could incline you at least in the direction of cultural conservatism.
- 3.66** National security is very closely aligned to the preference for safety. If we look at this map, it looks very similar. So, again, that desire to be protected and kept safe. Propriety again, upholding proper behavior—that seems also to be linked in with this cluster of psychological predispositions, which perhaps underly people's tendency to gravitate to one ideology or another. Afraid—again, we see something similar.
- 3.67** So if we just take a question. This is submitted to a French sample. So this was a survey taken in France. The question is "there are too many foreigners in France," and this is people who strongly agree with that statement. And we look at the heat map. It has some resemblances to the heat map for fear and safety here. So safety, it's that settler group in the top right third that are showing up as well here. But the strongest opponents of this statement are actually coming from the pioneer zone of people who are scoring highly on things like universalism, openness, and, to some degree, forgiveness.
- 3.68** So that part of the zone, which wasn't exactly the same part of the zone that came up here, in terms of safety, the people who cared least about safety are actually this prospector group, and not so much the pioneer group, but this settler group does show up as the key group also, when it comes to the "too many foreigners" question. This "too many foreigners" question, by the way, in Britain—the heat map looks almost identical. It's the settlers that are scoring highly on this as well. So that's again just a way of suggesting that these psychological dimensions, which are also important when you are marketing goods and when you're devising various kinds of campaigns, are important for conservative dispositions. And they're also important for certain kinds of liberal dispositions and certain kinds of socialist dispositions as well.
- 3.69** There's always a question mark here as to what extent—to what extent are these questions tapping sort of an innate, almost genetic or instinctive personality dimension,

or to what extent are they shaped by ideologies themselves? And that's an interesting question. What I would say, however, is that it definitely seems to be the case that psychology and some of these psychological scales are doing a better job of predicting voting now than they would have in the past, and they do a better job in the West than they do outside the West. So it may be that personality is becoming a more important predictor of people's ideology than it might have been in the past.

3.70 A somewhat different question, and this is how important, you know, "how big a problem do you think declining compassion for others is in society?" And it's interesting that the people that really think this is a problem are that pioneer group, who are the most liberal on immigration, the most opposed to the idea of restricting immigration. But on the other hand, this settler group, who are really the group who are most in favor of the populist right and the most in favor of immigration restriction, are not actually scoring most opposed to this decline. So they're actually OK with compassion. And instead, it's this group here, which are characterized more by what's known as social dominance orientation, so they think that hierarchy is natural and normal, and they're not as worried about social inequality. And that seems to be the group that are least concerned with issues around compassion.

3.71 So there are these different dimensions that seem to be in play. What I would say is that, right now, the way politics seems to be breaking is around some of these issues, such as immigration, which very much divide this group from this group, with these people on the side, whereas the older economic left-right questions, these people were more on the right economically. But a lot of the new politics seems to be pitting the people who like stability and don't like to see too much change against these people who are very interested in change and stimulation and also very interested in benevolence and caring, the kind of care-harm, the care-harm moral foundation that Jonathan Haidt talks about. So that seems to be the new psychological basis to our politics and to the support base of the new post-Cold War conservatism.

3.72 So just to conclude, originally going back to the 18th century, conservatism is based on a defense of political hierarchy and the social order, the aristocracy, the old regime. An emphasis on evolutionary change rather than revolution, and a belief in time-tested traditions. In the 20th century, we see free market neoliberalism becoming an important part of the right and of conservative politics in general, partly due to or largely due to the threat from the Soviet Bloc. In the 1970s, this is sort of energized because of economic stagnation. And that leads to a new kind of supply-side market, free market conservatism, taking off.

3.73 Since the 2010s, beginning somewhat earlier, but really since the 2010s, we start to see national conservatism and national populism, which are more or less not totally, but largely synonymous, challenging the older free market conservatism. And finally, we looked at some of the personality and psychological underpinnings of public opinion—why some people might be drawn more to conservative ideology and particularly to the

newer national conservative ideology—and that this is linked to psychological predispositions favoring order over difference and stability over change, and to some extent, hierarchy and dominance over equality. All right.

Lecture 4: Socialism

At a glance — Socialism and its intellectual lineage.

- 4.1 Great. Welcome, everybody. So today we're going to be talking about socialism. And this follows on from previous lectures about the introduction, introducing you to ideologies as a concept, talking about liberalism and then also conservatism.
- 4.2 So socialism, like liberalism and conservatism, is a thick ideology. That is, it has an all-encompassing worldview that can apply in many different domains. And just to recap, as I have for the other lectures, the three aspects of ideology. First, the so-called "is", how does the world work, the empirical is. The "ought", how the world should work. And then the plan of action to get from how the world is to how it ought to be.
- 4.3 Now, when it comes to socialism, as distinct from liberalism or conservatism, what are these three properties? Well, the first, when it comes to explaining how the world works, for socialists, they tend to believe that humans are heavily shaped by the environment. So they are very blank slatist in their outlook, more so than liberalism and conservatism, which tend to be more likely to accept that humans are as they are, either for evolutionary reasons or because of self-interested reasons. In socialism, there's more of that sense that humans are morally perfectible. Again, there are some subspecies of socialism that are a little bit less blank slatist, but we can cover those perhaps in the Q&A.
- 4.4 In terms of how socialism views the world as it ought to be, so in terms of their normative political philosophy, socialism tends to believe that society should pursue equality of outcome. Now, typically that's meant equality of economic and political outcome, although there can also be cultural outcomes in more recent versions of the left around self-esteem as well, which we will get to. The ought here then very much focuses on equality as a central organizing principle.
- 4.5 The plan to get from how the world is, the imperfect world that we are inhabiting, to the more perfect world, is typically going to be revolutionary, but not always for more social democratic or liberal forms of socialism. There's a willingness to accept reform and incremental steps towards a more equal or fair society. In terms of revolution, we can obviously look to a number of socialist revolutions—the October Revolution in Russia, which became the Soviet Union in 1917, revolutions in China in 1949, or in Cuba, 1959.
- 4.6 Equality is central then to socialism and to the definition of socialism. In terms of political philosophy, egalitarianism, the pursuit of equality. However, we think of major political philosophies and those represented, particularly in the French Revolution, out of which socialism eventually springs, just as liberalism and nationalism also spring out of that philosophy of the French Revolution. "Liberté, égalité, fraternité." Liberty,

equality, fraternity. In political philosophy terms, we would talk about liberalism, egalitarianism, and communitarianism.

- 4.7 With socialism, even though equality is central, and without it, we can't really have socialism, there are different types of socialism, some of which lean more in that communitarian or fraternity direction, and some of which lean more in that libertarian liberal direction. So for example, the overlap of liberty and equality, that egalitarian liberalism, is to the fore in certain varieties of the left, the new left, post-1960s, and also libertarian socialism.
- 4.8 We can take this quote from C. Wright Mills, who was a precursor of the new left, writing in the '50s and early 1960s. He says of the three goals, he's cited as saying, "Of the three goals of the French Revolution, he could appreciate liberty and equality, but not fraternity." And this indeed is a feature of the new left. Arguably, the new left is what's influenced the left today, the main thrust of the left.
- 4.9 And this new left is therefore less concerned with a worker state, a kind of fraternity or commonwealth emerging through socialist revolution or reform, and more focused on identity groups, not necessarily forming a unity. And so that's one of the features of the new left. It's more of a libertarian, liberal, anarchist version of socialism that's more about a blend of liberty and equality than necessarily a blend of equality and fraternity or community. And when I say community, I mean at the national community level, rather than simply communities at the subnational level.
- 4.10 Then we come to the more communal, communitarian forms of socialism and the left. Here we have, if you look at zone B, that's where equality and fraternity are overlapping. The Marxist left, Christian socialism, syndicalism, which is sort of the rise of labor-driven, union-driven cooperative society, and the non-European, non-Western socialism in one country philosophy—something like Vietnamese communism, Chinese communism, where, yes, it is Communist, it is Marxist, but it's also focused on a particular country. All of these versions of socialism are more communitarian, and they focus more on the idea that socialist revolution can bring forth some kind of a unity.
- 4.11 So terms like harmony, brotherhood of man, worker state, cooperative commonwealth, indicate that kind of more communitarian aspect to socialism, which was there certainly in Marxism and is much less evident in the new left. The new left, which I should say is more influential in the present, in the West in the present.
- 4.12 I want to now turn to the history and the emergence of socialism. Socialism emerges, of course, during the industrial revolution, for the most part, not entirely, but during the industrial revolution, when you have a considerable amount of inequality and suffering of the working class, crowding, poor housing conditions, sanitation, inequality. And there are many different ways of approaching such a problem. So one approach is to say, "Well, let's try and reform. Let's try and address problems of health, sanitation, education. Let's maybe redistribute some wealth so that we can help the poor." And

that's the reformist approach. That approach, by the way, is decisively rejected by Marxists, by Karl Marx and by subsequent Marxist-oriented socialists who actually don't want to see that happen.

- 4.13 But I want to go and look at the initial wave of socialists who were either liberal socialists or utopian socialists. So they believe very much in this idea that we could supersede capitalism and reach a utopian society in which people wouldn't be in competition, but they would be willing to share. And this partly is based on, as I say, a more blank-slate optimistic view of the perfectability of man. So some of the figures involved in this early 19th-century utopian socialism include Charles Fourier, Henri Saint-Simon, and Robert Owen. So let's look at some of their ideas.
- 4.14 So the first thing to say is that the utopian socialist ideas tended to be instantiated not as movements to take over the state—much less so that than movements to establish utopian communes, many of which were set up in the Midwest or in upstate New York in frontier zones. I think I mentioned something about this last lecture or two lectures before on liberalism. You had a more communitarian version of socialism in some of these communes, like Robert Owen's New Harmony colony, where it would be about sharing of property, communal work, perhaps even communal child-rearing.
- 4.15 And then you had a more libertarian, anarchist-type of liberal socialism in Fourier's movement, the Phalanxes, the so-called Phalanxes, that were also about breaking down established social norms, so allowing for free love, interracial relations, things which would have been contrary to the established mores of the time. So you have these kind of anarchist, more cultural forms of the left, and you have these more economic forms of the left based on sharing and communalism.
- 4.16 You also had new religions like Mormonism and Adventism, which were formed around the same time. Again, this is a period of great fervor where you have a lot of these new utopian social experiments being set up on the frontier in the U.S. Robert Owen comes from England and has this idea for his New Harmony, Indiana, colony. Notice the emphasis on harmony and sharing. This is a very communitarian, collectivistic approach, which I think is arguably quite different from the Fourier approach, which I'll talk about in a minute.
- 4.17 So New Harmony, Indiana, was a new planned utopian community that would be based not on people competing, not on capitalism, but on what Owen believed was simply the natural goodness of humans, that they would naturally share and work for the common good, and they wouldn't need selfishness to drive them forward, and they wouldn't have to exploit each other through the wage system. So how would this work in practice? Well, members would render services to the community, so they work on behalf of the community, in exchange for credit at the town store. But some people could also purchase credit if they already had money with cash payments in advance. Maybe you can start to see some of the tensions that might emerge in this kind of an economic system.

- 4.18 In addition, in terms of governance in the town, the town would be governed by a committee of 4, chosen by Owen, and the community would elect 3 additional members. So here you can see that the balance of power is tilted towards the leader in this system, and democracy is in many ways subservient. And that's part of the philosophy here, is that democracy and competition is something we want to get away from. Of course, the leader is going to have the best interests of the community at heart, and we'll bring that to the fore.
- 4.19 Again, perhaps you can see in that tension, some of the things that might emerge, that might threaten, the harmony of the community. If human beings are not perfectible, if they are in fact selfish, then this system isn't really going to work that well. And so we see actually a prefiguring of some of the problems that emerge in state socialism, under communism, later on in the 20th century in some of these communal experiments, which all tend to fail after a number of years.
- 4.20 So in this case, while Owen was away recruiting new residents, a number of factors led to an early breakup of the community. Members grumbled about inequity in credits between workers and non-workers. The town became overcrowded, lacked sufficient housing, was unable to produce enough to be self-sufficient—although they had, quote, "high hopes for the future." So some of the problems with a system where you expect people to work for the benefit of the whole and to put their selfishness aside, is that really in keeping with human nature? That's one of the questions we have for socialist economics.
- 4.21 The other one is, of course, a power question. Will the leader always have the interests of the community in mind, or might there be divisions and different interests that might quite naturally emerge in a community? And therefore, the idea that there is one communal hive mind might be a step too far. We've talked about Robert Owen and that more collectivistic version of socialism. There is now a more expressive, individualist version of socialism as well. This is where liberty and fraternity—I'm sorry, liberty and equality are overlapping instead of in the Owen case, where it was more about fraternity and equality overlapping.
- 4.22 So Fourierism, and here are some examples of these communes and communal buildings that still survive—one in Colts Neck Township in New Jersey. And these were, people came and they lived in these communes where they would work towards the ideals of Fourier. He had some quite interesting ideas, quite sort of, ideas that went against social convention and social norms. There's a sort of anarchist aspect to Fourierism. He had a concern for the sexually rejected. Jilted suiters would be led away by a corps of fairies who would soon cure them of their love sickness, and visitors could consult a card index of personality types for suitable partners for casual sex, as well as defending homosexuality as a personal preference.
- 4.23 So there are some elements in there which are way ahead of their time, and other elements would strike us as incredibly insane. But at the same time, all of these ideas

were up for grabs. So it was very much kind of about this liberated individual. But at the same time, Fourier also had a socialist conception that people would work, again, for the common good. They would be able to express themselves, but somehow this would cohere into a community as well. Again, based on this idea of equality. So this is a more kind of anarchist libertarian version of socialism than Owenite socialism.

- 4.24 And of course, that more sort of anarchist version of socialism also continues in the anarchist movement. The anarchists believe more or less that you could get this spontaneous order emerging, that if you allowed maximal freedom—you had no political hierarchy and authority—still people could work together, cooperate, and share, and eventually you would have the emergence of an almost leaderless, almost powerless authority as people would govern themselves.
- 4.25 So it's very much anti-state, anti-authority, anti-hierarchy, and also anti-social norm and anti-convention—the belief that you wouldn't have to have these rules and regulations caging people in, allow the human soul, human spirit to flourish, and you will actually have something better emerging out of this. Again, this is a more liberal—it's about human freedom, you know, human freedom and human equality coming together, and that's sort of what anarchism represents, more than the more collectivistic, communitarian approach. And that sort of collectivistic, communitarian approach, which is blending equality and fraternity, comes out very strongly in the state socialism of Marx and Engels.
- 4.26 So anarchism is a kind of anti-state socialism, whereas Marx and Engels' communism is a state socialism. So it's about, "No, we actually are going to take over the state. The state and the power structure will be central to ensuring that equality happens." And so in some ways, Marx and Engels are a little bit less likely to believe in the perfectability of humans than the anarchists. They realize that we're probably going to have to take power here. We're probably going to have to do a lot of indoctrinating in order to get to where we want to get to.
- 4.27 I mean, it's still blank-slatist in the sense that their belief is that the capitalist system is inducing this false consciousness into people, making them believe in religion, in believe in having to have things, believe in the nation. And all of these forms of capitalist brainwashing are things that "we as state socialists are going to remove so that the true socialist consciousness can emerge."
- 4.28 State socialism then had a much more systematic theory of society, of the economy, of power, than some of the ethical socialists and utopian socialists, arguably. So for Marx, Marx tended to think of 4 stages of history, moving from a primitive hunter-gatherer stage to a sort of slave stage, which is sort of the ancient empires; a feudal stage, the Middle Ages in Europe; and then moving to the capitalist phase, and then the next stage is the socialist phase. So it's an evolutionary model.

- 4.29 So in terms of thinking about how the world works, Marx believes there's a direction to history, and it's moving through these stages to higher levels of development, inevitably. So there is a inevitability, historicism here. And then the last stage, the highest stage, is socialism. But you can't get to socialism without going through these other stages. And that's quite important. It's based on a theory that there are oppressed people, which are the working class, the proletariat, and there are oppressors, which would be the capitalists, so-called bourgeoisie. The bourgeoisie, the capitalist class, are exploiting the proletariat and the workers.
- 4.30 Also, Marxist theory puts materialism, economics, first. The mode of production comes first, and culture is second. So all cultural beliefs—those don't drive the system. What drives the system is moving from an economy based on, let's say, hunting-gathering, slavery, feudal serfdom, or capitalism, where people are selling their labor and selling goods. We're moving through these different forms of material production, and those forms of material production determine the kind of politics and the kind of culture that we have. And so it's that economic, what he called the base, Marx calls the base, which comes first, and culture is a superstructure, which comes second.
- 4.31 So something like nationalism or religion is an outgrowth of the economic superstructure, or economic base. It is not a driver of history. It's the material part of society that is really the driver of history. And because Marx believed that societies automatically evolve through these stages, only societies that are in the capitalist phase are ready to move to socialism. So there's no point trying to build socialism in a society that is in one of these earlier stages where most people are illiterate peasants, at least according to the Marxist theory, the original Marxist theory. Now, of course, this is reinterpreted later on in order to justify, in fact, applying socialism in contexts that are not very industrialized. But still, orthodox Marxist theory says you've got to move through these other stages first.
- 4.32 Marx also has an economic theory, which is that capitalists accrue wealth by exploiting labor. Marxists believe in the so-called labor theory of value, which comes from another non-Marxist economist called David Ricardo. The value in here is in the workers. The only way to get value and profit is to exploit the workers and almost extract the value out of them. Therefore, Marxists believe that as the capitalists accumulate capital to exploit the pool of labor that exists, the amount of capital in society will increase. More factories, more machines.
- 4.33 And what that will mean is that the actual amount of profit per unit of capital will drop. So you'll have more capital for each unit of labor, more machines for each worker. And as a result, inevitably—there's a lot of inevitables in Marx's theory—as a result, the amount of profit the capitalist will earn will fall over time. So you will get this falling rate of profit as more capital is accumulated. And as a result, that's going to lead to a crisis, a crisis which will lead to the inevitable destruction of capitalism, as these contradictions of capitalism grow.

- 4.34 And so there's a certain—this is not a normative "ought" argument. This is an empirical "is" argument, that this is how the economy works, and this is where the economy is going. So this is naturally going to happen. However, there is also a normative aspect in Marx, and that is, "What are we aiming for?" The aim is for a socialist utopia. Now, of course, socialism is inevitable, but at the same time, we also have to do something to awaken workers to their plight and turn them into a revolutionary force. To some degree, it's a contradiction. If it's going to happen, why do you have to bring it along? On the other hand, perhaps if you bring it along, it'll happen sooner.
- 4.35 So the communist utopia then says what? It says, essentially, equality: "From each according to his ability to each according to his needs," which suggests that people will work for the common good and they will take from the common good. And this is how we're going to organize society. Now, maybe you can see where some of the problems might arise. Well, what if somebody is a hard worker, and somebody is lazy? Is that a reflection of each according to his ability, each according to his needs? Are people incentivized by selfishness, again, to work harder or to work less hard, to free-ride on the system?
- 4.36 All of these kinds of questions, a liberal or a conservative would say, "This is completely utopian and it doesn't work with human nature." If people can get the same amount regardless of how hard they work, why wouldn't they just lie in bed and not do anything since they're going to get the same amount anyway? The socialist argument would be, "Well, no. They'll be inspired by a kind of communitarianism." But we saw with the utopian experiments that that didn't seem to work, that in fact these issues around selfishness and divergent interests tended to lead to the breakup of these communes over time.
- 4.37 There was also a kind of, almost cultural ideal in the communist Marxist utopia, this idea of hunting in the morning, fishing in the afternoon, rearing cattle in the evening, criticizing poetry, literature, after dinner. So essentially, you could do a bit of rearing cattle, a bit of hunting, a little bit of criticizing of poetry. And somehow the system will work to produce what people want and allow people to be their whole selves and to develop their own interests. So it's somewhat of an attractive ideal.
- 4.38 What are the criticisms then of Marxist economics? Well, I think if we come to the liberal economist critique, the first place that they would start to critique is this idea of the labor theory of value, that value somehow is inherent only in labor and workers, and it's just about squeezing that out of them. In fact, liberal economists would say value stems from meeting consumer demands and doing that at a low cost. So the difference between the price you can charge for creating something that consumers value, and the costs you can save by perhaps doing it in a more efficient way, is what generates profit, not how much labor you can exploit.
- 4.39 So it might be that you come up with a new technology, you come up with a new idea, that creates a new category of demand. That's not simply about accumulating labor.

And therefore, once the labor theory of value is questioned, the falling rate of profit thesis—the idea that the capitalist economy will inevitably collapse because of the falling rate of profit—that falls apart as well.

- 4.40 So the rate of profit doesn't necessarily fall. And we've seen that, because people can wind up consuming more. We can have new technologies, like the Internet or like factory machines, new technologies which allow everybody to have more, allow us to produce more from less. From the same amount of labor, we can actually produce more with new technology. New categories of demand, objects, experiences, the smartphone, things that we may never have even imagined could exist, and yet will increase the wealth.
- 4.41 At the same time, a command and control economy, as envisioned by Marx, with the state setting demand, deciding what to produce, is much less efficient at supplying what people demand. Now, socialists and Marxists might say, "Well, people shouldn't be demanding all of these things. They're only doing that because they're being brainwashed by the capitalist system." It's not an entirely foolish argument. There are some studies that would suggest that in some cultures, people only work for what they need, and then they're unwilling to come to work to make more money because they don't want to spend more money on other things. So it is true that there is a cultural aspect to wanting more things. And so it's not entirely foolish.
- 4.42 But at the same time, what we have tended to see is that, actually, people do seem to have, while not totally insatiable demands, they do tend to have rising demand for new things. So the liberal economist's assumption that there's a kind of infinite nature to human demands is probably, seems to have been closer to the truth than the socialist assumption. And of course, the liberal economist would say that the capitalist economy, by allowing many people to decide how to supply goods at a smaller price or to provide new goods to people, is a more efficient way of meeting supply and demand.
- 4.43 So at bottom here, what we have is that people, according to the liberal critique, are more selfish. Human nature is more selfish, and it is also not so blank slate. We can't perfect humans to not want goods. In fact, they are always going to be somewhat selfish. We have to work with the grain of that and try to harness that to actually create more wealth in the society. And in so doing, we'll create a system that will better minister to people's demands.
- 4.44 And so if you think about—I think Hayek, who's a liberal economist, made the argument that it is a kind of wisdom of crowds. We have this economy where somehow magically, in the shops, they supply what people want every day without anyone coordinating. It's all done through the price mechanism, which the price tells you what to produce, what people want. It's all through the price signal. If there's a high price for oranges, that's telling you that people want oranges, so you go out and you produce oranges. And so this is just a much more efficient way, a sort of emergent, complex

system called the market that seems to produce more of what people want, and seems to have been more successful in doing so.

4.45 OK, so what about the power aspect of socialism? Where does power lie in the system? And here in state socialism, and particularly in Leninism, as the USSR. So we have Marx in the 1840s, writing the Communist Manifesto, 1848, 19th-century figure. We then have the first successful socialist state, which is the USSR. We have a number of theorists of this state socialism. Lenin, who is the first leader of the Soviet Union, and then subsequently Joseph Stalin.

4.46 So what form does this Leninist state socialism take? Well, the first is that it's not a completely egalitarian system. And in fact, we could already see that in the utopian socialism of Robert Owen, where Owen as leader had a lot of power. And similarly in state socialism, the leader—Lenin, Stalin, etc., the party, the Communist Party—has a lot more power than the average individual. So it's not actually a politically egalitarian system.

4.47 The state is in control of the material sphere. Private property doesn't exist. And what we have is a succession of plans to collectivize agriculture. So instead of being able to grow your own produce and sell it in a market, you have the state taking over the land and asking farmers to produce for the common good. Again, going back to those utopian socialist experiments, is this likely to succeed when you get people to produce for the common good? If we assume that humans are selfish and cannot be perfected, then ultimately these experiments are not likely to be as successful. And that seems to be precisely what occurs.

4.48 We have a series of 5-year plans from Stalin in the 1920s. 1928 to '32, the first; the second, 1933 to '37. Likewise, in China, we have the Great Leap Forward of late '50s, early '60s, and the Cultural Revolution period in the 1960s and '70s. Now, the result of these experiments is a disaster. The attempt to get people to produce for the common good does not seem to inspire great productivity in agriculture. Not only that, there's an attempt to get farmers to have back—very inefficient backyard smelters. So, to create industrialization on a small scale, highly inefficient.

4.49 Not only that, you could not resist this. You could not say it's not working. And the result of this is tens of millions of people died in famines in Russia and in China. Many of the people who resisted these initiatives were killed or sent to the gulag. This is a network of prisons in the Soviet Union. We then get the spread of communism to other countries, post-1945. And so this then brings us to the postwar period. Post-1945, we're into the Cold War between the liberal democratic world and the state socialist world, which is not liberal, where you don't have individual freedoms, you don't have property rights. So it's communitarian versus liberal systems. So a communitarian form of socialism versus liberal democracy.

- 4.50 Berlin Wall is a good symbol of this. It was built in 1962, separating East Berlin from West Berlin—the free world, if you like, from the Iron Curtain of the socialist world. And so we have competition. We have two, a bipolar world—Soviet Union and a U.S. Western-based pole as well, creating two blocs. In brown, we have the communist bloc—China, Soviet Union, and a series of other countries such as Vietnam. And then we have a non-aligned socialist bloc in red, which is largely in the non-European world, countries such as India, and also in North Africa, some of the Ba'athist regime, such as Syria, Iraq. And that's sort of the way the world looks in the late 1970s.
- 4.51 Of course, that also meant that foreign policy was very important as each side jockeyed for position in a range of different countries. So the Vietnam War was fought by the United States, partly to prevent Vietnam from falling and becoming communist. And this was based on a domino theory that if Vietnam fell and became communist, a whole series of other countries would also become communist. That happened to a small extent, but not to the extent that was feared perhaps at the time.
- 4.52 Of course, part of the logic behind the Vietnam War was looking at Korea, where there's a North Korea which became communist, South Korea, which became part of the liberal democratic capitalist world. The view was at least you might be able to prevent South Vietnam from becoming communist. Ultimately, that was a failure.
- 4.53 So I've talked about state socialism. Leninism. It's not the only form of socialism that existed in terms of the nation state. We also have a reformist rather than revolutionary, less extreme form of socialism that takes place under the guise of social democracy. So already by the 19th century, we are getting a form of socialism that is much less authoritarian and much less collectivistic than state socialism of the Leninist or Maoist variety. So what are the beliefs then of social democracy? Well, social democracy accepts the idea of democracy, accepts the idea of liberalism. Its aim is just to improve the condition of the working class so that they can become wealthier, healthier, have a better life, have more equality. It's also interested in expanding and extending the vote to include not just property holders, but also workers.
- 4.54 So we have a series of reform bills in Britain, the first of which takes place in 1867, 1885. These are extending the vote to larger categories of society, including the working class non-property holders. Then in 1918, votes for women. We have an extension of the vote to wider categories of the electorate. That's part of social democracy's aim then, is to spread power and resources to a wider section of society, but not to get rid of the capitalist system and to centralize power within a leader and within the Communist Party. So the acceptance of elections in a way which wasn't true, obviously, in the Soviet Union or China, which would not accept elections and the transfer of power or the contestation of power because everybody must be on the same page with the socialist revolution—one ideology, one leader represented by the party.

- 4.55 We see the rise to power in Britain of the Labour Party under Clement Attlee. We see in Germany, France, and other developed countries, the strong emergence of social democratic political parties. And so we can kind of think then about the distinction between state socialism and social democracy. By looking at this chart, for example, communism or state socialism, or Leninism on the one hand and that social democracy on the other. For example, if we take a look at what their aims are—revolutionary in the case of communism, evolutionary and gradual and reformist in the case of social democracy.
- 4.56 Social democracy is not trying to abolish capitalism, but to humanize it. It doesn't seek the state owning all the means of production, but it seeks to use the market to produce. It accepts the productivity and creativity of the market, but it just wants to use taxation and the welfare state to redistribute the products of that capitalist economy more widely. Instead of a classless society as envisioned under Marxism, we get an amelioration of class conflict, which is something that social Democrats accept will always take place.
- 4.57 Social Democrats are accepting that there are competing interests in society, that that is OK. It is normal to have a plural contestation of power within a society, rather than everybody having to be of the same ideology, moving in common towards one common purpose. So it's an acceptance of pluralism rather than the monism of communism.
- 4.58 Instead of state collectivization of agriculture and farming, no, we'll have private farming and people working and realizing the benefits of their own work, and therefore that enriching society, but we'll also have redistribution. And so, a mixed economy, mixed capitalism. Capitalism, but also redistribution, as opposed to the communist system, which is the state ownership of the means of production in all property. Instead of central planning, there's a realization we can have a capitalist system, but we're going to try and manage relationships between labor and capital. So that might be through annual meetings between those who run large businesses and the major unions to hash out wage settlements, which will then be obtaining across the economy. OK.
- 4.59 So what about social democracy and what about this more moderate and liberal democratic form of socialism? What's its trajectory in the 20th century? That's the next thing I want to talk about. And the term Keynesianism, coming from John Maynard Keynes, the British economist, is often associated with social democracy, that this is a reformist left-wing version of economics. So I should say just a few things then about Keynesianism, and I'll come to talk about it a little bit more. But what Keynes was essentially arguing was that you had the Great Depression, 1929, stock market crash. You had a big depression, a lot of poverty. In that environment, a figure like John Maynard Keynes said, "We can't just rely on this capitalist economy because it's going to lead to crashes."

- 4.60 You know, if we go back to the 2007 economic crisis, many of these ideas from Keynes were talked about again, because it's in the context of the failure of free market capitalism, or the perceived failure of free market capitalism, that ideas of greater planning, greater state intervention and regulation of the economy, come to the fore.
- 4.61 Moving ahead into the 1960s, we then start to see a very important, I would argue very important, shift in the nature of the left in Western countries, moving away from economic concerns and class concerns towards identity concerns and cultural concerns. So what about the cultural left, this idea that there should be equality between identity groups, rather than equality between the proletariat and the bourgeoisie, or economic equality? We're now going to talk a little bit about cultural ideas on the left.
- 4.62 If you go back to Fourier and you go back to the utopian socialists, there were certain leftist strains, cultural leftist strains, in their arguments. One was this attack on convention and social mores, which were seen to be confining and restricting, and to some extent were seen to be outgrowth of the existing power structure of some kind of an unfair structure. So there was already a strand in anarchism and Fourierism that was this cultural left. Some of the taproots of the cultural left can be seen there. So this idea of free love or interracial relations or homosexuality—some of these more cultural liberal causes in those early, some of the early, utopian communities, we can see echoes of them today in the new left.
- 4.63 We also have, as we move into the later 19th century and into the 20th century, in the more ethical socialism of the Fabians and the Christian Socialists, support for aspects of feminism, aspects—some of the themes that are going to become important in the new left. Between the wars, between 1918 and 1939, the rise of bohemia, places like Greenwich Village, New York. Starting around 1912 to 1917, you had the emergence of these bohemian writers, artists, who were on the left economically for the most part, but were also culturally very non-conforming.
- 4.64 Now, there was a little bit of tension there, particularly as we move into the Soviet Union phase. If they are members of a communist party, which says you have to do proletarian art and socialist realism—that's the only art you're allowed to do—that's going to clash with the kind of person who just wants the freedom to experiment and defy convention. So there was a real tension in these Bohemian leftists, between their socialist commitments, which—they were attracted to socialism because of its utopianism, because it was a complete break with the present. So that was one of the reasons they were attracted to it.
- 4.65 But at the same time, the materialism and the conformity of that state socialism grated against their kind of experimentalism. So you have this bohemian, so-called lyrical left between the wars. Greenwich Village, New York, was one example of this, becomes influential. In Europe, you also have movements like surrealism, which are reflecting this kind of bohemian, lyrical left synthesis in the interwar years. We then get movements such as the Beats in America starting in the 1940s, which I think very much

reflect that earlier lyrical left interwar bohemianism. Combination of experimentalism in arts, it might be drug-taking, it might be being very liberal on sexuality, it might be going to see jazz in Harlem. So all of these kinds of aspects—working that into your poetry, into your literature. Not for most Beats, but for some of the Beats, a commitment to the left as well.

- 4.66 But then we get a big change in the 1960s, I think quite a significant change. The new left of the late '60s looks very different from the interwar or Beatnik left. We see a definitive switch away from concerns with material inequality, and we see a much greater upgrading of questions around race and later feminism and sexuality. Those become central issues for the new left in a way they really weren't for earlier versions of the left. Earlier versions of the left, going back through to Marx, tended to see a lot of these things as liberal bourgeois concerns, and tended to think that what socialism is really about is proletarian revolution. It's about workers rising up, creating a worker state. And so it's the proletariat that are the agents of change and revolution. It's the working class that are agents of revolution.
- 4.67 But with the influence of a number of figures —the third worldist left, the new independence movements—a lot of countries were becoming independent of their colonial masters in the 1950s and 1960s. So French colonies, British colonies, and later Portuguese colonies were becoming independent. At the same time, you had the civil rights movement in the U.S. from about the 1950s into the mid-1960s. These movements, decolonization and the civil rights movement, capture the imagination. They're transmitted via images on television, and they very much shape the content and affect the content of the left.
- 4.68 And so now, whereas Marx would have said, people who are not industrial working class are what he called "lumpenproletariat," and they're not the agents of revolution. The new left is very much looking to those lumpenproletariat elements. So third-world peasants, to use the terminology of the time, actually now are ushered into history as political actors in the new left philosophy, which is also looking, by the way, to Mao, to Che Guevara, to some of these independence movements, communist movements in the developing world. Not always communist, sometimes non-aligned socialist movements.
- 4.69 And so you get some figures, such as Herbert Marcuse, who's a very important new left figure, who will talk in glowing terms about the revolution in Cuba. And at the same time, they talk in glowing terms about the uprising in Hungary. The uprising in Hungary was an anti-communist uprising. The uprising in Cuba was a communist revolution. Both of these two are fused. Mao. They're in favor of Mao, they're in favor of Che Guevara. These are communist movements, but also talking positively about the Hungarian uprising. So it's kind of a contradiction, but you can understand it as they're both seen as liberating. So it's this fusion of liberationist ideas, which are arguably

closer to liberalism with socialist ideas—this idea of the oppressed always sticking up for the underdog against the powerful.

- 4.70 And so a move away from the proletariat as the agent of change to the lumpenproletariat, if you like, or the mass of the third world oppressed. And also these new social movements, these identity movements for black rights, for women's rights, for gay rights, inspire the new left. And the new left comes to focus more on these new identity movements as as being revolutionary, and loses hope in a way in the white working class of Western Europe, who they kind of say, "The white working class aren't rising up. They're not going to make revolution. We've given up on them and we're going to look instead to, you know, it could be the black neighborhoods of the United States that were revolting in the late 1960s. These are going to be the agents of change and bringing us to a new society."
- 4.71 But of course, it then raises questions as to what the end goal is. If it's not the worker state, and it's not the proletarian uprising making revolution to bring us to the worker state, what is the end goal? And that's a sort of much more diffuse thing in the new left. We saw with C. Wright Mills, who's a sort of precursor to the new left, that it was much more about liberation, and it was much more about liberation from oppression, but without some clear communal commonwealth or worker state goal to pursue.
- 4.72 And in some of, and some of the old left actually were very disappointed by this and said, "Well, all you've got are a bunch of these identity movements, this rainbow of identity movements. You've given up on creating a communal society. This is not socialism." And so you actually have a critique coming from old-style socialists like Eric Hobsbawm or Todd Gitlin, who say, "This isn't socialism. This is actually something else entirely." And that critique continues to exist, by the way—the critique of the identity-politics left, which is associated with the new left by that older materialist Marxist left.
- 4.73 OK, turning now to the fate of social democracy. So even though we have the new left, which is influential amongst intellectuals, we've still obviously got the social democratic left, which is contesting elections, does very well in the period of rapid economic growth in Western Europe and North America between 1945 and the oil shock of 1973. That steady economic growth and broad-based prosperity made possible a politics of redistribution to help the worst off in the knowing that this isn't going to actually affect economic growth, which seemed to have a certain inevitability behind it.
- 4.74 But then we get the spike in the price of oil, which was due to countries in the Middle East, where a lot of oil comes from, engineering a price rise through a cartel. This then produces an economy that sees inflation—price rises without concomitant economic dynamism. So you have stagnant economics with inflation, so-called stagflation. And in that context, the settlement of the post-war years, which made social democracy appealing, starts to fall apart. And so this idea of a regulated, more nationalized economy starts to come into question. And some of the neoclassical or liberal economists begin to criticize much more strenuously that system. And that means

criticizing the role of regulation, the role of unions, the role of economic redistribution, as in some way sapping economic growth by crowding out investment and, therefore, dampening the potential for wealth creation and growth.

- 4.75** It is in this period that we get the rise of politicians such as Margaret Thatcher in Britain and Ronald Reagan in the United States who emphasize deregulation, tax cuts, free market economics. That becomes central to the politics of the right, as we saw in the lecture on conservatism. We also then in 1989 see the collapse of communism, the fall of the Berlin Wall, very symbolically indicating that communism is over as a serious competitor to free market capitalism and liberal democracy.
- 4.76** The confluence of these developments results in social democratic parties being out of power. In Britain, for example, so Margaret Thatcher—well, not just Thatcher, but in Germany and in France—you have the left out of power for significant periods of time. This is a period of free market euphoria. You have increasing talk about globalization, the spread of free trade, the decline of labor unions, the decline of heavy industry, and the industrial working class. All of the core underpinnings of socialism and social democracy seem to be in decline. And that doesn't bode well for the success of this more reformist social democratic left.
- 4.77** Now, as we move forward into the present, you might have thought that because of developments in economics, these developments should favor the social democratic left. So we have rising income inequality in the developed world. You can see there that the share, that the top 10%, that red line, the share of the top 10%, has been increasing since 1990 substantially, whereas the share held by the bottom 10% in green has been relatively stagnant. And looking across a wider range of Asian, North American, and European countries, we can see the steady growth in income inequality since 1980.
- 4.78** Now, you would have thought that in that situation with rising income inequality, and particularly the share of income going to the top 0.1%, or 1% of the population, that these would be really good conditions for the success of left-wing and social democratic parties. One of the questions that we might ask is, "Why haven't we seen a wave of successful left-wing parties in the West on the back of this rising inequality?" Now, that's not to say there's been no success. There have been some left-wing populists, such as Jeremy Corbyn in Britain, Bernie Sanders in the U.S., of parties like Syriza in Greece, Podemos in Spain. So we've had seen some successful populist left movement.
- 4.79** But the record of established social democratic parties has not been a good one. Some of them have rebounded a little bit. But if we look as of 2019, the British Labour Party scored its lowest number of seats since 1935. In Austria, the lowest since 1945. Germany, the second lowest since '49. France, the lowest ever. Italy, the lowest ever. Netherlands, the lowest ever. So the point here is that the established social democratic parties in particularly Western Europe are doing very poorly, particularly in systems that have multiple parties—not just a two-party system like the U.S., but a proportional representation system where you have lots of different parties forming

coalitions. It's a different kind of political arrangement than the first-past-the-post system in the United States, which is known as a majoritarian system, as opposed to the more consensus, cooperative-based systems, so-called proportional representation systems, in much of continental Europe.

- 4.80 So precisely at the time when you would think, because of rising inequality, that social democratic parties should be doing better, they actually seem to be doing worse. Why might that be the case? This is just a chart that combines data on the election shares for a range of different parties from Simon Hicks and his collaborators. Looking at the proportion of the vote then that each of these party types has been getting in these West European countries since 1949.
- 4.81 If we focus then on the social democrats in red, there is a declining share, somewhat declining share, going to the social democrats. Now, some of that is bleeding into the Green Party. Some of that's going into the purple, which is the radical populist right, which has grown as well. There are different forces that seem to be eroding the support base of the social democratic left. Both are important, and both reflect the rising importance of non-economic motives. So Green parties are picking up some of the more cultural left concerns, the environmental concerns of younger people. And that populist right in purple is picking up votes of particularly white working-class voters who feel disenfranchised in many ways or feel that their cultural concerns around immigration, national identity, and so forth are not being addressed by the social democratic left.
- 4.82 And of course, that can also reflect this realignment away from the left-right economic issues, which really define politics and electoral politics in the 20th century towards the more globalist-nationalist, open-closed cultural dimension, which has become so important now in more Western electorates. And as the left moves from economics to culture, that is part of the reason why they're losing some of their white working-class voters.
- 4.83 So just to conclude here, we've talked about socialism as being centrally about equality, egalitarianism. Its view of the world, its view of human nature, is that humans are perfectible, almost blank slates that can be remade through the right social structures. It is not clearly about communalism or individualism. There are different versions of socialism. The version of socialism in the 20th century was more communal, that sort of state socialism. The version of socialism since the late 1960s arguably has moved in a more expressive individualist direction. There are both state-centered, as with Leninism, and decentered versions of socialism, such as anarchism.
- 4.84 Socialism can be evolutionary, or it can be revolutionary —revolutionary socialism as with Marxism, evolutionary socialism as with social democracy. It can be economic in its focus, which has been the case through much of history, or it can be cultural, which is increasingly the focus since the late 1960s' new left, and the cultural focus on identity groups is very much a feature of the left today.

- 4.85 The vanguard of socialism has typically been the proletariat or the working class. But again, some of the changes that have occurred since the late 1960s, at least in intellectual circles, have taken the left away from class and away from material considerations towards identity groups and culture. So instead of the proletariat as the vanguard, different minority groups, whether racial, sexual, become the vanguard.
- 4.86 Socialism can also accept or reject the marketplace. State socialism rejects the market and goes for the state owning the means of production, a command -and-control economy. Social democracy accepts the market but wants to redistribute the fruits of the capitalist marketplace to a wider group of people. Thank you very much.

Lecture 5: Fascism

At a glance — Fascism — its defining features.

- 5.1 OK, welcome back. In the next session, I'm going to be speaking to you about fascism. So to pick up with the definition of fascism, I mean, fascism is a word that is thrown around willy-nilly. I think it can be very difficult to define. But I think it's worth making the attempt and to define it as precisely and tightly as we can.
- 5.2 And I think Michael Mann, who is a well-known sociologist, taught at UCLA for many years, has one of the better definitions. He argues that fascism is "the pursuit of a transcendent and cleansing nation-statism through paramilitarism." Griffin calls it the recurrent rebirth of national pride. You see, the word nation is there in both definitions. I'm going to just say simply that fascism is a particular type of nationalism. So most nationalisms are not fascist, but it's impossible to conceive of a fascism without nationalism. So it's a type of nationalism, a very specific type.
- 5.3 And what are some of the features of fascism? First is the use of state power and overwhelming centralized state power. Seeing society as an organism. And of course, that blends very much into the ideas of conservatism, but also the ideas of state socialism—t his idea that society is not about squabbling interests. It's got to be together. It's an organic whole. We don't want to have competing plural power centers, groups, interests, so very different from liberalism in that sense.
- 5.4 Fascism is undemocratic. It doesn't believe in elections and the transfer of power and competition for power because there's a collective will which the charismatic leader will represent. So you don't have competing parties. So it's non-democratic, illiberal, based on the idea of charismatic authority as opposed to constitutional democratic authority. It's nationalist, so it's based on the idea of a territorial nation-state and its interests. It is militarist and martial. So it's not going to be—you can't have a pacifist fascism or a non-belligerent, non-militaristic fascism.
- 5.5 Minority rights, like any other kind of plural group interests, are frowned upon. We have, "we're a whole, we're a unit here. We don't actually focus on subgroups." Now, there may be fifth columns that we decide to scapegoat, such as Jews, for example, who fall outside our definition of what the nation-state is. And that's part of fascism as well. It doesn't have to be, however, as we'll see in a minute. And also fascism is more about emotion and unreason than it is necessarily about a sort of rational, rights-and-duties, social contractual-based approach to society.
- 5.6 And so the politics then, of fascism, is undemocratic. It's vested in a strong leader with absolute power. It's hierarchical—again, that strong leader at the top and his clique running things. Authority comes not from a constitution, rights and duties, separation of powers, but rather from the authority figure, and what he says goes. Power emanates then from the leader, rather than from some constitutional power structure.

- 5.7 However, this isn't just about a dictator who's content to enrich himself and his cronies and leave everybody else alone as long as they don't challenge his authority. That's not what fascism is. Fascism doesn't just say, "You can do what you want if you don't criticize the regime and you don't criticize me and my cronies having power." We have lots of autocrats today. We don't have a lot of fascism necessarily.
- 5.8 So what's the difference then between a dictatorship and fascism? It's that fascism doesn't just leave you alone. They want you to be constantly showing your loyalty to the regime, being mobilized in mass rallies, expressing fealty to the dictator. The system permeates every aspect of life, doesn't permit alternative power centers, alternative gatherings. And so that is totalitarian. This term totalitarian—they also want to control your thought, your ideology, what you're thinking about politics. It's everywhere.
- 5.9 Now on economics, however, fascism is, interestingly enough, it's not extremely free market. It's not necessarily fully socialist. What it believes is that everybody should be pulling together, should be on the same page, same ideology. So in that sense it sounds more like socialism and communism, but at the same time it respects business interests. And so what it goes for is this kind of corporatism which is similar to social democracy, where you have a kind of cooperation and negotiation between representation from the unions and from large businesses. So corporatism is the kind of economic system, which is similar to a social democratic arrangement. So elements of socialism, elements of market capitalism.
- 5.10 It's all about duty and obligation to the leader and to the nation. It's not about pursuing your own interests. So it doesn't believe in pluralism and competing interests. What about culture? We've talked about fascist politics and economics. On culture, fascism is generally opposed to difference in novelty and experimentation, but not always, as we'll see. There are exceptions—and important exceptions—to the rule that culture has to be completely monochrome and in common. But in general, fascism favors cohesion and sameness over difference in pluralism and individualism.
- 5.11 It also favors a culture of strength rather than weakness, places importance on the past and the relationship to the national past, so that it's getting from nationalism. But it also has a very defined conception of the future based on being strong and powerful. It tends to highlight the decadence and moral bankruptcy of particularly bourgeois liberal culture, modern art, and social libertinism.
- 5.12 In terms of the intellectual taproots of fascism, where do fascist ideas come from? There's a lineage between fascism and continental philosophy. So, broadly speaking, in Western philosophy, we have the Anglo-Saxon tradition, which is more liberal and more pragmatic. And we have the continental tradition—not so much France, but if we take particularly Germany, the continental German tradition, which is very much opposed to that sort of pragmatic, individualistic, liberal Anglo-Saxon tradition.

- 5.13** In terms of continental philosophy, a major strand in the 19th century is German Romanticism and romantic nationalism. Figures like Georg Hegel, who talked a lot about the nation-state as being a kind of spirit, as not something that you contract with a constitution and with your fellows to become a member of, but it's something you're born with. You feel its spirit, its emotion. So it's much more emotional coming through your ancestors into the present. And that idea of romantic nationalism is another source again. But there's a lot of romantic nationalism that doesn't result in fascism. I don't want you to think these are exactly the same thing.
- 5.14** The ideas of Friedrich Nietzsche in the late 19th century are also important. Nietzsche was an important thinker and an influence on fascist intellectuals, and particularly in Italy, which then influenced German fascism as well. And Nietzsche has a set of ideas around how, first, Christianity. He's very critical of Christianity, especially New Testament Christianity, for emphasizing meekness and weakness and not nobility and virtue. So he extols the virtues of the Greco-Roman tradition, which was much less interested in the weak and those who didn't have power, and much more interested in the nobility and the elite and as exemplars.
- 5.15** And Nietzsche believed that—believed in the idea of the will to power, that the strong should in some ways be the rulers and should be allowed to rise and control the weak. And he was very critical of Christianity, and also of socialism for its egalitarianism and its humanitarianism, and that he thinks this weakened society and elevated what he called "the slave morality," common to Christianity and socialism.
- 5.16** The ideas, late 18th-century ideas, enlightenment ideas of Jean-Jacques Rousseau. Rousseau, French tradition, Swiss tradition, who is talking about society and the nation as a general will. So Rousseau is very important in the formation of nationalism as well. And he's stepping away from this Lockean Anglo-Saxon idea of individuals having social contract, constitutional obligation, rights and duties, away from that individualistic idea of society to a more collectivistic idea of society in which there is a general will that is more organic. And it's not about reconciling interests. It's about society as a whole having an interest. And in some ways this is opposed then to that individualist, liberal, traditional.
- 5.17** The desire to create—that there is a possibility to create a new, more noble man. So this is a kind of quasi blank-slate-type of argument, that you can perfect humanity to create a heroic, duty-bound new man who will sacrifice for the greater good. So it's got that in common to some degree with socialism, this idea that you can mold and shape a new type of human being. And that cuts against the ideas of both liberalism and conservatism, that there's a limit to exactly how much you can actually inscribe and shape people.
- 5.18** Fascism very much focuses on strength as against weakness. That's a difference perhaps from socialism, where socialism would laud the oppressed. Christianity would focus on the meek and the weak. Well, fascism focuses on the strong. And strength is

good. Weakness is evil. And therefore it attacks Christianity, humanitarianism, and socialism, and sees life more as a group struggle, more as almost an evolutionary survival of the fittest. So these are just some of the intellectual sources for fascism.

- 5.19** And just to look a little more closely at Nietzsche, who was an important influence, so very opposed to Christianity—this idea that you're going to have people follow the teachings of God and that you're going to valorize the weak. And that in his view, this forces men to value humility rather than pride, equality rather than their own individuality or will to power, that the powerful should rise —timidity rather than aggression. And you can see which side of that equation he tended to favor. With democracy, socialism, like with Christianity, again favoring the masses, the oppressed. This is letting the idiots, the less talented, the weaker, run the system. And "we are not all equal. Some men are greater," quote unquote.
- 5.20** So the strong are forced to comply in kowtow to the weak. And that's not how society should be organized, according to Nietzsche. So Christianity kind of upends, according to Nietzsche, who by the way, wrote a—he's the one who came up with this phrase, "God is dead." So his argument is that there is an upending of the old Greco-Roman classic tradition, which valued nobility and strength, and its replacement with weakness instead. So our instinct according to Nietzsche, prior to Christianity, was to be great. This is a master morality. And instead we've adopted a slave morality, in which actually this is seen as being bad —to be wealthy, to be strong, etc., to have pride. That's now seen as evil. And that's an inversion, which is a mistake, according to Nietzsche.
- 5.21** So if we compare these two moralities, the kind of master morality and the slave morality, according to Nietzsche, we have, according to Nietzsche, that more classical focus on those who are strong, powerful, above-the-herd elite. Has been replaced by focus on those who are abused, oppressed, weak, or suffering. The concern with ethical codes that emphasize excellence, virtue, strength, merit, and toughness is replaced with a concern with justice, equality, and fairness under the so-called slave morality.
- 5.22** The legitimization of power differentials—natural inequality being replaced with a work to try and delegitimize those hierarchies and level those hierarchies. And then finally, the orientation towards the authoritarian and hierarchical in politics is replaced by an orientation towards socialist or communal systems in democracy and in socialism. So he's critical of what he calls a slave morality inherited from Christianity, according to Nietzsche.
- 5.23** Another influence on fascism is nationalism. Now, it's important to note, actually nationalism is very much focusing on the mass of the population, and it's trying to take power away from the ancien régime, the old elite. So in that sense, it's cutting against what Nietzsche is talking about, oddly. In many ways, nationalism is really about the masses as against the elite. But even though it opposes a lot of what Nietzsche was saying about this natural elite, there are aspects of nationalism that are very much important for fascism.

- 5.24** You can't imagine fascism without the nation-state, for example—nation-state, which is defined and I'll talk about this more next lecture, but as a community of territory, politics, and history. The nation also says the people, rather than the king or an elite, should rule. So this idea of popular sovereignty, now that is not there really in fascism. What is there in fascism is a powerful leader who claims to represent the people and their will, but doesn't want the people to have a say necessarily in how things are run.
- 5.25** Nationalism emerges after the French Revolution. It is part of the emergence of liberalism, but particularly egalitarianism as well, and of democracy. But then there's a second phase of nationalism in the early 19th century. The influence of German Romanticism, Fichte, Herder, Hegel, etc., emphasizing less the idea of constitutions and rights and duties and social contracts, and more the idea of pre-rational spirit that you inherit from your ancestors. You get almost through your mother's milk. Focusing more on kind of particularity in culture and less on political rights and duties. This German Romantic nationalism emerges in the early 19th century. And I'll talk more about that in the next lecture.
- 5.26** And then we have the rise of—somewhat inspired by that romantic nationalism—the rise of nationalisms involving breaking away from empires like the Austro-Hungarian Empire, the Ottoman Empire, the tsarist empire, and so on, starting in the early 19th century, but more in the later 19th and early 20th centuries.
- 5.27** That's a very quick scan of the development of nationalism. And I don't want to go into a whole lot of detail yet, other than to say that this idea then is important also for fascism, but only elements. You can see that there are elements here that are very much against fascism coming out of that French revolutionary tradition. Fascism takes bits out of nationalism, as it takes bits out of socialism. So fascism is what we would define as a thin ideology, not having a sort of complete worldview about everything. But it's roughly a thin ideology, as is nationalism.
- 5.28** In terms of nationalism, we've got a number of different versions. We can have a more, a type that emphasizes that everybody must have the same ancestry or ethnicity, or you can have versions of nationalism that are more about political principles and adherence to those political principles. Sometimes we call that civic nationalism. There's a whole debate there. So the idea is that you have a more—similarly with fascism, we have a more sort of ethno-nationalist German style of fascism and a more civic nationalist or statist political version of nationalism in Italian fascism.
- 5.29** Now, this can be—nationalism can be expansionist. It can be connected to past generations, whether these are spiritual ancestors. So, for example, the Roman Empire, which Italian fascism looks back to—those are spiritual ancestors more than they are genealogical, ethnic ancestors. German fascism more focused on connections to past ethnic Germans. So it's more of an ethnic version, ethnic type of nationalism.

- 5.30 Nationalism can sometimes look to the past, a golden age of unity of our people, when we were united or powerful, sometimes when we were heroic, even in defeat. And there are many myths. The Battle of Kosovo for Serbs —defeat against the Ottoman Empire in 1389—would be an example of a powerful national myth focused, "Yes, we were defeated, but we were heroic. And against great odds, we lost, but it's a tragic defeat." But at the same time, nationalism can also be forward-looking and can celebrate futuristic achievements as well.
- 5.31 You may have heard of this idea of the horseshoe theory of ideology, where the extreme left and the extreme right—so extreme left communism, extreme right fascism—seem to be closer to each other than they are to something in the middle, like liberalism, which might be seen as not extreme right, not extreme left. But of course, as I mentioned, there are actually three dimensions to the left-right classification. There is political, cultural, and economic.
- 5.32 And actually, what communism and fascism share are two things. One is political, and that's a centralization of political power in a particular leader. And secondly, economically, there are some similarities that production is meant to be for the common good, not for the individual. Now, having said that, fascism is much less about command-and-control socialism than communism is, although obviously during wartime, there is a lot of command-and-control. Even in a liberal society like Britain or the United States during a war, you need to marshal resources for the common good. And so both communism and fascism, highly illiberal, and so they're sharing that illiberalism and are close in that.
- 5.33 And in fact, you could even argue totalitarianism—this idea of not allowing separate groups to exist in society, separate interests to exist, trying to sort of shape ideology, injecting politics into almost everything—that's also a common feature between communism and fascism.
- 5.34 And we can see this link also between socialism and fascism in the genealogy of both Mussolini and Hitler, both of whom initially claimed, well, they claimed to be socialist. Mussolini was in the socialist party. Hitler began his political life in the German Workers Party—again, a socialist party. So there are these socialist origins, then, of fascism. And even the term Nazi National Socialist harks back to that connection to socialism.
- 5.35 In terms of the support base, the manual working class was important in both fascism and socialism. They're both collectivistic. Sorry, when they say they're both state socialism, not so much Fourier and libertarian socialism, but state socialism and fascism are both collectivist —putting the community before the individual and the common good before your own selfish interests.
- 5.36 Nazis, the Nazi party was influenced, for example, by Joseph Stalin's 5-year plans. So the state socialist elements from state socialism, from Leninism, came to influence fascism as well. But then, of course, socialists are purged and become the enemy for

fascism in this interwar period. And there was a lot of contestation and often violent street battling between socialists and fascists in Germany and elsewhere in other countries as well.

- 5.37** So they are—I don't want you to get the impression that these are very similar. I mean, there are overlaps, but there's also areas of intense contestation, one of which is going back to those Nietzschean ideas about survival of the fittest, and that you want to emphasize military power and strength, as opposed to the oppressed, and wanting to level and redistribute economically.
- 5.38** So Italy and Mussolini becomes the template. Hitler admires Mussolini, wrote to him repeatedly. Mussolini never answered his letters, but he was the idol. Hitler idolized Mussolini. Mussolini develops the template for the fascist leader. He emerges after World War One, becomes leader in 1922, and inaugurates the fascist state in 1926.
- 5.39** What were some of the features of Italian fascism under Mussolini? Well, the first thing is that, to some extent, you can see a precursor in Italian nationalism. Mussolini is very much about the Italian nation-state, which was still at the time somewhat controversial in the sense that Catholicism, which was very important in Italy then, a very Catholic country—the papacy in Rome was opposed to Italian nationalism for the reasons, some of the reasons I talked about in previous lectures, where religious authority is part of the old regime and is challenged by nationalism, popular sovereignty, which has very often got an anti-clerical, a secular bent to it, actually nationalism.
- 5.40** So there was tension between Italian nationalism, which is more secular, and the papacy in Rome. The Italian nationalists felt, "No, we've got to get away from this idea of Catholicism and Rome, and towards this new conception of the nation, the Italian nation." And actually what happens is, during the fascist regime, Mussolini is able to reconcile the Catholic Church and Rome with the Italian nation for the first time.
- 5.41** In terms of Italian fascism, Hegel, that 19th-century German Romantic, romantic nationalist scholar, is an influence on some of the intellectuals around Mussolini, like Giovanni Gentile. So Gentile has this quote: "Everything for the state, nothing against the state, nothing outside the state." So again, that statement there—we don't want pluralism in different groups and selfishness, we want everybody marching towards a common goal. We're all on the same page. We're a part of an organic whole, not a bunch of plural, competing interests. And that's reflecting Hegel's idea, this idea of spirit in the nation-state moving through history as the key actor, very collectivistic.
- 5.42** So this leads then to a crushing of civil society gatherings and competing groups within, within society, wanting everything to be controlled by the state. And that means that competing power centers like the church, the Catholic Church, the Italian monarchy, and other kinds of local power bases very much have to bend to the will of the state. Some versions of fascism would say that we can't have these competing power bases at all. Actually, it seems as though, in both Italy and in Germany, there was toleration of—

you know, you had churches, people were allowed to gather in churches, where sometimes, certainly under some state socialist regimes, this would be seen as a threat to the regime. Any kind of gathering, even at a religious institution, potentially could be a source of subversion and threat. So very paranoid regimes will try and crush even meeting and gathering in any large numbers.

5.43 In terms of the ideology in Germany and Italy, you can see some important differences. One is the version of nationalism that seems to be deployed. So in Germany, there was a lot of emphasis on the German peasant as a kind of repository of folk virtues of simplicity and honesty and virtue. Whereas in Italy, there was more of a view that actually, to some extent, the past has weighed us down and is keeping us from becoming great, whereas in Germany it's much more this idea of we have to return, in a way, to a great and glorious past.

5.44 In Italy, then, there was this sense that the Catholic Church and the traditional society is hindering Italian greatness. We want to return to almost ancient Roman time when we were powerful. Of course, ancient Rome was a multi-ethnic political unit, whereas Germany is looking to a sort of more homogeneously ethnic German peasant, and ultimately tribal, culture. So it's a slightly different version of the golden age past that German fascism is looking to, compared to Italian fascism.

5.45 Italian fascism is therefore more likely to elevate some of these new modern aspects of industrial society. And there were fascist artists like Marinetti in this school of art known as futurism in the 1910s, that extolled the virtue of the machine and machine aesthetic. And this was partly this idea of breaking with a lethargic past and breaking with tradition in a way. And so in some ways, that shares elements with the kind of bohemian liberal left, this idea of breaking with convention. So, oddly enough, this kind of futuristic fascism has echoes of the sort of modernist experimentation of the surrealists and other cultural leftists. So this is kind of an interesting correspondence.

5.46 So this idea then of breaking with tradition was part of—so you can see in Italian fascism, they're looking back to the Roman Empire, but at the same time they're looking forward to these new weapons, these new machines, and extolling the virtues of that. So there's both a backward-looking and a forward-looking element to Italian fascism. There are some differences between Italian and German fascism. The German Nazi fascism is much more racially based, to some extent with origins in that more ethnic-style German nationalism, revering German folk ancestors, going back to a kind of tribal past.

5.47 And the Italian type, with its lineage to Roman tradition, is much more political, non-racial. It's a state tradition, an imperial state tradition, not a sort of ethnic, genealogical, cultural tradition. And again, the German version of fascism is more about that, if you call it, peasant simplicity, as against the decadent city, the decadent enlightenment rationality. It's much more that spirited, emotional, irrational. That's what they're extolling, not so much the overrational, intellectualized enlightenment individualism.

- 5.48 OK, what about, then, Hitler and the racial state, as distinct from Mussolini's Italy, with its emphasis on that ancient Roman virtue? What is that Nazi ideology? Perhaps more so than the Italian—well, definitely more so than the Italian—it is anti-urban, emphasizing that rural peasant simplicity as the exemplar of Germanness. So anti-urban, anti-city, although we'll see that it's very tough to be fully anti-urban and anti-city when you're trying to develop new war planes and talk about how great they are.
- 5.49 It's, on the one hand, got those roots in that German folk nationalism, emphasizing peasant simplicity, emphasizing spiritedness and emotion. It's about the genius of the German language and people and race, rather than rationalism and the Enlightenment ideas, emphasizing the invigorating element of being in the countryside, in the rural areas, rather than in the cities.
- 5.50 But at the same time, of course, Germany has to—it's competing with other powers, so it then has to talk up the importance of building factories and cities and industries. You can't be a major power if you are agricultural and not industrialized. It has to talk a lot about modern technology, how great German Krupp steel is, how great the modern weapons like the Stuka dive bomber or the Panzer tank or the V-1 rocket are. So you have a kind of techno-nationalism, which is also a bit futuristic, blended with this more romantic ethno-nationalism, which talks about rural peasant authenticity.
- 5.51 Then there's the anti-Semitic aspect, which is very important for Nazism and not really there in Italian fascism. So another important difference. Of course, anti-Semitism has a long history in Europe, going back into the Middle Ages in many countries. Jews were expelled from Spain, for example. They were ghettoized in eastern Europe, forced into certain parts of town, lacked the same rights as Christians. You then have a kind of thaw in the 18th century in western Europe, the Jewish Enlightenment. Jews were accorded more rights.
- 5.52 But you also have genocidal pogroms in Russia from 1882. And it's very interesting, the Russian pogroms in the 1880s, how they were covered. There was a study that looked at how the Russian pogroms against the Jews were covered in German and British newspapers. In British newspapers, all across the political spectrum, they were all critical of the Russian, very critical of Russian pogroms, whereas the German newspapers were not. And that tells you something—that there was a difference already in the 1880s between the Anglo-Saxon world and the, and Germany, the German world, in how anti-Semitism was perceived.
- 5.53 So you have this kind of religious anti-Semitism going back to the Middle Ages, and then what we're going to layer onto that is a new racial discourse, scientific racist discourse, eugenicist discourse, in the late 19th century, early 20th century. You also have a history of anti-Semitism in the United States, although considerably milder in the sense of not involving forced ghettoization, just a certain amount of discrimination—including, by the way, in terms of access to elite universities and golf clubs and that kind of thing, more of a social discrimination prior to World War Two.

- 5.54 Then what we see in Germany is an acceleration and formalization of anti-Semitism in the state with the Nuremberg Laws of 1935, the Kristallnacht of 1938. Many of these episodes you're probably familiar with—the Night of the Broken Glass in 1938, and then, of course, leading up to the tragic death of 6 million Jews in the Holocaust.
- 5.55 Just tracing back some of these ideas, I talked about religious anti-Semitism, that long tradition, which goes back to this idea of the Jews as killer of Christ, and some of these blood libels that emerged around that. But then also layered on top of that is this new social Darwinism and eugenics. The idea of that you can improve the race stock of populations by culling weaker elements of the population, or dysgenic elements, such as the disabled or the mentally ill, criminals, minorities. And some of these, now, it wouldn't necessarily—it wasn't explicitly genocidal, but it was based on this idea that you wanted to enable certain groups to breed and others not to breed. These were ideas that were common on both the left and the right. So this is not necessarily a right-wing idea.
- 5.56 And so Fabian socialists were as much enamored of this as more arguably conservative-leaning figures. Henry Cabot Lodge, whose portrait hangs in the Smithsonian Museum, who was an important eugenicist in the U.S., but it's not particular to Henry Cabot Lodge. This was a very common idea. It was seen as modern. It was seen as, if you were in tune with modern ideas, you bought into eugenics. That's not to say everybody was a eugenicist, but it was pretty widespread as a view in Western intellectual circles in the early 20th century.
- 5.57 Influenced some aspects of policy, even in the United States. So the Dillingham Commission report, 1911, classified different European immigrants based on whether they thought that they were going to improve or not improve American society. This was based, again, on some sort of estimate of intelligence based on measuring skulls, skull sizes. And so there was this tradition. It wasn't specific to Nazism. It was more generally in the West, this idea of eugenics.
- 5.58 And there was also an intellectual tradition of scientific racism. And there's a whole discussion we can have about this. But with scientific racism, this was the idea that so-called races could be classified and also classified into being more higher and lower. And this kind of begins in the 1850s with writers such as Arthur de Gobineau, pictured here, the French intellectual. The notion of race back in the 19th century was coterminous with what we would consider to be ethnicity, so the idea of the French and the Russians as races.
- 5.59 But in addition to that, the scientific racists also developed classifications. So they talked about the Nordic, Alpine, and Mediterranean Europeans. So there was a lot of focus on differences within Europe, the Nordic being northern Europeans; Alpine, roughly speaking, central Europeans; Mediterranean, southern Europeans—the idea being that the Nordic was a sort of more advanced type than the Alpine and Mediterranean.

- 5.60** And so in the early 20th century, late 19th century, this scientific racism—racism and eugenics was seen as the modern way to think. So that was seen as modern, whereas religious bigotry—anti-Catholicism, let's say, which had been very important in the 19th century—that would be seen as backward. No, I'm not a bigot. I'm going to include—instead of talking about German Catholics as a threat to a Protestant-dominated United States, or even the Irish Catholics as a threat because they're not Protestant, no, no, that's actually backward. But what is forward-thinking is to include the Germans and the Irish as Nordic, as against the sort of Mediterranean races. That's a sort of modern outlook, whereas the old anti-Catholic outlook, that would be bigotry. That's not a good thing. So very interesting and quite different to the way we might see things today.
- 5.61** So we then come to the rise of the Nazi movement. This begins in the 1920s with Hitler's failed Beer Hall Putsch. This as an attempt to take power in a coup. Hitler is imprisoned and released in 1924. The Nazi party does quite well in the elections. Hitler then becomes chancellor in 1933. The doctrine of "lebensraum," or living space, the idea that the Germans require a living space. Now, of course, Germany as a nation-state was only unified in 1871. Germany had consisted of a bunch of different principalities and was not unified. So 1871, you have German unification, but there are a lot of German speakers in other countries in eastern Europe, for example.
- 5.62** In Poland, after World War One, which Germany lost, of course, many ethnic Germans were stranded within the borders of, for example, Poland, Czechoslovakia. These are because those are the countries that were on the winning side. Germany was on the losing side. Many ethnic Germans wound up being included within the new borders of these countries, Poland and Czechoslovakia. So part of what's going on with the Nazis is this idea of, you know, "We lost this war. Many of our co-ethnics, ethnic Germans, are now stranded inside the territory of the winning countries. We're going to get them back and we're going to create more space. Not only are we going to get them back, we're going to create more space for Germans to settle in eastern Europe." This idea of living space. So that's going to require military expansion to both get back our co-ethnic brothers and also to expand.
- 5.63** 1938, we have the annexation, the "anschluss" or annexation of Austria, with Germany. This was supposedly a red line that the Western allies wouldn't permit, but Germany, or Hitler, crosses it without any repercussions. Then in 1939, the invasion of Czechoslovakia, and in 1941, the invasion of the Soviet Union. So these are stages. By the way, 1939, of course, is World War Two, the start of World War Two. The motivation here then, for the Nazis, is living space expansion and also inclusion of other ethnic Germans within Germany. So Austria, which is an ethnic German country for the most part, to be included within Germany.
- 5.64** And this gets us to the question, OK, so we have this—Hitler seizing power, I mean, did significantly well in the elections of 1932, '33. So the question is, why the appeal of fascism? What is it, first of all, that gives the energy behind the intellectuals in the

movement? And what is it that leads to their support politically? And one of the commonalities that we see across many different types of fascism, not only Italian and German fascism, but the Hungarian Arrow Cross, and also in Romania and in Japan, is the role of humiliation, national humiliation.

- 5.65** Germany was on the losing side in World War One. Italy felt that it had got a bad deal, which kind of Italy didn't play a clear role in World War One, but it felt that it got a bad deal from the peace treaty at Versailles following World War One. It also felt that it was behind other Western powers, such as Britain and France, and therefore was poorer, more backward. And it needed to sort of overcome that as well.
- 5.66** Franco in Spain. Spain loses the Spanish-American War in 1898, loses Cuba, the Philippines. It's seen as a national humiliation. And that's sort of coming at the end of the loss of a whole bunch of territories. Clearly, all of the territories in the new world become independent. Almost all. Cuba is one of the last to fall, and this is in the Spanish-American war. So, Francisco Franco, representing again that trend of humiliation in war. Your country's been humiliated. How do you get your pride back? That's a problem of nationalism, and it is a spur to fascism as well.
- 5.67** Now, in Romania and Japan. Romania wasn't a loser in the war, nor was Japan, but they had this potential stigma of being behind other powers in their economic and military development. So that perhaps is a reason to try to overcome that through warfare, to prove yourself that you're in the top rank of powers. And this touches on various aspects of nationalism, which we can talk about more in the next lecture.
- 5.68** One is this idea that if you have your ethnic kin, who you see to be stranded in other countries or territories that you think are historically yours, that are not being given to you in a peace settlement like Versailles, then that might be a spur for you to militarily want to invade, to take these territories that you believe are rightfully yours. So that's what's called irredentism, after the Italian "irredenta", or unredeemed. Italy thought that territories in the Adriatic, which had historically been part of the Venetian empire, rightfully belonged to them and should not be included in the territory of other states, such as Yugoslavia, in this case.
- 5.69** And so there are also discussions around different national psychologies. So certain nations are seen to be very secure, like Britain or the United States. Other countries are seen as being a bit insecure, perhaps because they have a history of being invaded a lot — Poland perhaps, Russia, perhaps, or perhaps because they have been colonized. And to some extent, maybe that's playing in China, where certain Western powers had concessions in China in the 19th century. And so you might have these different national psychologies that develop as a result of historical events, and that too might feed into and play into support for fascism. So this idea you've been humiliated, you've been conquered, and you want your pride back, might be important.

- 5.70 So that could be one explanation for the rise of fascism. But there are also potentially other explanations, one which revolves around the economy and material factors. I think I may have mentioned in political science theory, we tend to have theories that are more economic or material, and theories which are more idealistic and cultural, and some theories which are more institutional and political.
- 5.71 So we've talked more about that kind of cultural argument around humiliation, a history of invasion, and these sorts of national insecurities. But then there are also explanatory factors around the economy. So the Great Depression. The Great Depression in the world economy hits Germany very hard. In particular, you have runaway inflation, mass unemployment, and in that chaos is a desire then for strong leadership and economic stability. So one argument is actually, it was this, the impact of the Great Depression on Germany at a time when Germany was still being forced to pay reparations to France and other winning Allied powers after World War One.
- 5.72 That humiliation, that economic, not humiliation, sorry—the economic pain that was produced by those events then leads to support for someone who can create, to end this disorder, to bring back prosperity, which Hitler promises to do, and in fact, does actually succeed in bringing near full employment, builds the Autobahn, leads to a sort of economic renaissance.
- 5.73 And so this desire for order is important. Now, there are other arguments also around demography—what we would call, what some political scientists would call the youth bulge. What happens when you have a very young population? And I'm just looking, if you look at this picture, you've got two population pyramids comparing Germany in 1939 and in 2018. This is babies age, just after age zero, and this is people aged 95 as a share of the population. And if you just look at these, and there's men and women here. So blue is males and red is females. It's very interesting to look at the German population pyramid in 1939. You can see what World War One did to the German population.
- 5.74 But in any case, even without that, the German population pyramid has a sort of shape that looks very much like a lot of developing countries today, a lot of young people and not very many old people. And in particular, it's well-known that between the ages of about 15 and 30, young men between the ages of 15 and 30 commit the vast majority of violent crime. Now, there's a whole bunch of reasons for this, but one of the arguments is that societies that have a lot of people in those age groups, especially young men, are more likely to be violent than societies that look like that—Germany, 2018—where most of the population is middle-aged. And so perhaps this youth bulge in Germany is one factor that might have played a role.
- 5.75 Another factor might be large-scale movement from the countryside into the cities, which is also sometimes used as an explanation for instability, because country villages tend to have a more ordered, tend to have more social order, and cities tend to have more disorder. And when you uproot people who are used to the social order of the

countryside and put them in an industrial, chaotic city where they're anonymous, that can lead to a certain degree of alienation. That's a theory. Both of these are theories as to potential explanations for why we saw more violence. We saw street battles and considerable popular violence even before the rise of the Nazis.

- 5.76 So in terms of explaining the rise of fascism, one is— there's also some other explanations too, I should say. One is that the elite in Germany and Italy very much feared the rise of socialism. So we saw the 1917 October Revolution in Russia. They feared that would happen to them, their factories would be expropriated. So the elite was also more kindly disposed to fascism as a bulwark against socialism. So that's another potential explanation.
- 5.77 OK, so we have that explanation around culture of humiliation in war. We have an explanation around the economy with economic collapse of the Great Depression. We also have, associated with that, an explanation around having a young population with a lot of rural to urban migration. So you have economic crisis, you have a sort of cultural crisis. And then you also have this worry about the rise of socialism by the capitalist elite in Germany and Italy and wanting a bulwark against that.
- 5.78 Now, we can compare German and Italian fascism. They have some similar features, but they've also got a lot of differences. In terms of their similarities, right, they're both about a kind of nationalism. They're both about a strong leader figure who incarnates the national will. But they differ on a number of these different dimensions. For example, in terms of principles of social analysis, the German version is much more about different races, racial composition of society. History is a struggle between superior and inferior races, whereas the Italian is more the idea of a conflict between different cultures and traditions. So human history as a history of the war between competing nations, which might be defined on the grounds of political tradition. I'm not going to go into more detail on that slide, which is there for people to look at.
- 5.79 What happened in Western countries? Did we see support for fascism in Western countries? And the answer is yes, there was support for fascism, even in Britain and France, even in those Western European countries. So in Britain, you had Oswald Mosley's British Union of Fascism, sorry, British Union of Fascists. And in France, you also had a French far right that was also enamored of fascism. But they didn't get very far. They didn't succeed, mostly came to be seen as a bit of a joke. And one of the questions we might ask is why these movements did not succeed in Britain and France and did succeed—or in the United States, for that matter—or did succeed in eastern Europe, certain eastern European countries, and in Germany.
- 5.80 Now, in the last couple of slides, I also want to talk about those who use the term fascism in the contemporary period, who talk about a rise of fascism in the contemporary period. And so one of the questions we might ask is, are there any similarities between the contemporary far right and the fascist parties of the interwar period? It's important to note that scholars draw a distinction between far right parties,

like Golden Dawn in Greece, for example, or Jobbik in Hungary, and populist right parties, such as the Front Nationale, now the Rassemblement Nationale in France, or the Austrian Freedom Party, or the Sweden Democrats and other populist parties, populist right parties.

- 5.81** There are some similarities with fascism. The emphasis on the nation, the emphasis on organic unity. Society is a kind of social organism that's united more by sentiment and feeling, rather than by a social contract in which individual interests are reconciled in a constitutional framework. The emphasis on social cohesion. But there are important differences as well, particularly when it comes to the populist right parties that are doing very well in Western societies today. Those populist right parties all accept the democratic system and accept the constitutional liberal order in a way that far right parties do not, and the interwar fascists did not. So the interwar fascists were anti-democratic. They believed that a strong leader with absolute power could incarnate the general will in the population.
- 5.82** Another aspect that's different is the emphasis on territorial revisionism. Taking back territory, which means invading countries and expanding, is also not part of the program of populist right parties today in the way it was part of the program of interwar fascism. The use of violence, street rallies, and intimidation. Now, it has to be said that there are street-based far right movements in Western countries that do use these tactics. So there are some similarities there between a sort of street-based far right movement and fascism. To some degree, movements such as the National Front in Britain is an example of a kind of street-based far right movement that used some of these tactics. So there are some similarities, again, with some of these far right parties, less so, the populist right parties.
- 5.83** There is also a history, post the Second World War, of some properly neo-fascist parties, like the Poujadistes in France or Britain's National Front or others. And they were actually anti-democratic—or even the National Front in France—were anti-democratic and seeking a return to a religious establishment and a more monarchical or elite-based political order. So they were anti-democratic. They saw democracy as allowing these competing, squabbling interests who should be instead working together for the common good. But they're working for their own selfish ends. "We don't want that disorder. We want a much more ordered society with a general will represented by a political strong leader."
- 5.84** So that did exist. And that is, I think, more similar to the fascism of the interwar period, let's say, than the populist right parties today that accept liberal democracy. There's an echo, of course, in some of the eastern and southern European far right parties. I mentioned Golden Dawn in Greece or Jobbik in Hungary. The central role of the religious establishment, the church, the illegitimacy of democracy, this idea of wanting to right the wrongs of history and sort of deal with that historical baggage—that's very important.

- 5.85 In France, for example, when France lost in Algeria and had to relinquish Algeria and a million so-called "Pied-Noirs" who had been French settlers in Algeria had to come home—I mean, that was something that was seen as a humiliation by Jean-Marie Le Pen in the National Front, and some sense of initially wanting to try and fight for those colonies. That was part of the mantra of neo-fascism in France, for example, in the postwar period.
- 5.86 OK, so to conclude, we've looked at fascism, that this is about the organic nation-state, this idea of organic unity, the use of a centralized state power. We saw there was a difference between the more statist and cultural Italian version of fascism and the more racial German Nazi version of fascism. Fascism puts a lot of emphasis on militarism and violence. And in that sense, it's reflecting Nietzschean ideas. It is illiberal. It doesn't tolerate difference. It doesn't tolerate competing power centers, plural groups within society. It's undemocratic, doesn't believe in elections and competing power centers. It believes in an organic general will, which the charismatic leader expresses and represents.
- 5.87 It's a type of nationalism. But most nationalism isn't fascist, but all fascism is nationalist. So it represents an extreme version of nationalism. And then we kind of looked at the post-war period, some of the newer far right and populist right parties. We can see a connection between the interwar fascism of the Nazis and Mussolini with some of the neo-fascist parties, particularly the first version of the Front Nationale in France and the Poujadistes in the decades after World War Two—not in the contemporary National Front, but if you go back to the earlier version of the National Front.
- 5.88 It also depends, of course, how you define fascism. I mean, there are strands within fascism—some of the aspects, the emphasis on cohesion and national greatness, which you can find in the contemporary populist right as well. So it depends how much of, how many strands from fascism count for this thing to be called, a party to be called fascist today. And with that, thank you very much.

Lecture 6: Nationalism

At a glance — Nationalism, a subject of Kaufmann's own research.

- 6.1 OK, good to see you. Nationalism is going to be the subject of this next lecture. It's a subject that I've studied or taught for three decades now, so I hope I know something about it. The first thing I want to do, and when it comes to the study of nations and nationalism, is to talk about definitions.
- 6.2 The nation is not exactly the same as a state, and it's not exactly the same as an ethnic group. What are the differences? The first thing is that a state is primarily a political unit, which maintains a monopoly on the use of force inside and outside the territory. What that means, and that's derived from Max Weber's definition, is that it has a military for defense against external enemies and a police force that controls the territory internally. So a monopoly on the use of force inside a territory. That's the definition of a state.
- 6.3 States also have generally very precise, at least in the modern age, very precise coordinates geographically, so you can map them with a high degree of specificity.
- 6.4 What is an ethnic group? Ethnic group does not have that kind of highly specific territorial demarcation that the state does. It is instead a social group. And it has the following definition, derived from the work of Anthony Smith, who was also my doctoral supervisor, who's passed away, unfortunately, a few years ago, but has done some of the most important work in defining ethnic groups and nations.
- 6.5 Ethnic group is a social group that has a proper name, like Welsh, Vietnamese, Japanese, Somali, so a name. A belief that it, that all members of the group are genealogically related, that they have common ancestors. The Jews trace their origins to the 12 tribes of Israel and Abraham, for example. Shared historical memories of, it could be a defeat. I mentioned the Battle of Kosovo for the Serbs, 1389. Some memory, or it could be a victory, perhaps English victory in World War Two.
- 6.6 Shared historical memories, collective memories. So these are emphasizing the subjectivity, the internal consciousness, of a people as being central to the definition of what it means to be an ethnic group. Not necessarily externally observable elements of culture, like religion, language, or physical appearance. However, you do need to have at least one element of culture in order to demarcate yourself from other groups in space.
- 6.7 How do you know what the difference is between a Turk and a Kurd? Well, there's a linguistic difference. Between a Serb and a Croat, there's a religious difference. OK, so there has to be some element. Black and white Americans in the U.S. South, there is a physical difference. So there has, even if there isn't any other difference, you have to

have something, otherwise there's going to be no ethnic boundary. And ethnic groups do require boundaries.

- 6.8** Now, that's not to say you can't have fuzzy boundaries. The boundary between a Turk and a Kurd can be very fuzzy, because you can have Kurds that are assimilated, speak Turkish, may seem like Turk, so there are fuzzy boundaries or people of mixed background. So that is certainly possible. But there has to be some kind of boundary, and it's usually demarcated by one or more elements of common culture.
- 6.9** And then we have an association with a particular homeland territory, which is also part of the definition of ethnic group, even if a group has migrated. So the Turks do, and the Hungarians, both recognize that they've migrated from Central Asia at some point in history. So they would have a myth of origin that leads back into Central Asia, even though the territory they occupy today isn't in Central Asia, at least for the Anatolian Turks.
- 6.10** And then finally, this idea that it can't just be a few intellectuals in a cafe that think they're Estonian. It has to be a significant share of the population of Estonia before you can really talk about there being an Estonian ethnic group. So a sense of solidarity for at least a significant proportion of the population.
- 6.11** Nation. So we talked about state as a political unit with demarcated territorial boundaries and a monopoly of political power. What is a nation? So the nation has, again, following Smith's definition, like ethnic group, it has a collective proper name. Vietnam, the United States, France. But the difference between ethnicity and nation is that, at least in the case of a nation, you have to occupy your historic territory. Jews can be an ethnic group scattered in a diaspora around the world, but Israel as a nation actually has to occupy, be in the territory of Israel. So that's a distinction—the Israeli nation versus the Jewish ethnic group— as an example of where these things are different,
- 6.12** Nation also arguably has to have a degree of integration of its territorial economy and communication infrastructure. Does that mean it must have a common language? Does that mean that all of the dialects in the country must be mutually intelligible? Generally, yes, because you tend to have an official language, official communications in newspapers, in government speeches. You tend to need some kind of common mode of communication. Now, you can have countries such as Canada, which is bilingual officially. Switzerland, which has German, French, Italian, and Romansh, has four different languages. But there will tend to be a language everybody understands. So again, there is a certain degree to which you need to have a common language.
- 6.13** And it also presupposes, the nation also presupposes what Benedict Anderson would call an imagined community. You are never going to meet every member of your nation, but you have to be able to imagine them somehow. And that does require a certain level of mass communication, a certain level of education, a certain

commonality, perhaps of language, which will allow you to read the newspapers or read novels, which will enable you to imagine where the boundaries are of your nation and who is a member and who is not.

- 6.14** So it presupposes a certain degree of integration, which tends to only happen in the post-1789 modern period, which is one reason people say nations are modern. Ethnic groups can be from the pre-1789 or pre-modern period. Nations—harder to imagine in the pre-modern period, although there are those who do argue that actually certain entities, like ancient Israel, perhaps ancient Greece, that they had properties, or ancient Armenia of, or ancient China, that they did have properties that would make them more or less fall within the definition of nationhood. That's a sort of arcane academic debate.
- 6.15** And finally, you have mass public culture. I would add one other thing, which is that nations have to have at least some political aspiration. They don't necessarily have to seek independence, but they have to have some aspiration, at least to have political autonomy. So, Acadiana, where a Cajun country in Louisiana—it certainly would qualify as a sort of territorialized ethnic group, or—sorry, there's an ethnic group of Cajuns who are concentrated in certain parts of south, southwest Louisiana. But until the Cajuns have a political program of wanting a certain amount of political power and autonomy, they would not qualify as being a nation. Maybe the Balinese on the island of Bali in Indonesia are another example of a territorialized ethnic group, but they are not a nation because they don't have political aspirations.
- 6.16** We then get on to nationalism as an ideology, as an "ism." So there's two actual meanings of nationalism. One is as an ideology alongside the other ideologies we've talked about—so a thin ideology, not a thick one, but an ideology. And the other is actually as a concrete social or political movement. Greek nationalism, Tibetan nationalism, Arab nationalism, something concrete. So this first part of the definition, again coming from the work of Anthony Smith, a particular social and political movement for attaining either autonomy, so you want to separate to obtain your freedom; unity, you want to reunify a bunch of different political units into a nation that's Italian or German, reunification nationalism, Kurdish nationalism; or identity. You're worried about the loss of some aspect of your identity or cultural identity.
- 6.17** That's important particularly for national populism today. So that's a concrete social movement, or it is an "ism" like other isms, an ideology like other ideologies. What is the ideology of nationalism? It doesn't necessarily have a core text like the Communist Manifesto, or it doesn't have a sort of core statement of its ideology. It has to be sort of derived and deduced from the work of a number of different writers, like Jean-Jacques Rousseau or Georg Hegel or Fichte or Johann Gottfried von Herder. And so it's a blend of a kind of Enlightenment, Rousseauian concept of nationhood and the counter-Enlightenment German Romantic conception of nationhood.

- 6.18** So what are these elements? One, this idea that the world is divided into nations, each with its own particular character. The nation is the proper source of political power, not empires and city states or dynastic elites. Everyone must belong to or owe primary loyalty to their nation. Every nation should seek full autonomy rather than being ruled by other nations or empires. And we envision a world order as being based on free nations. And this is coming from perhaps von Herder's concept that each nation has its own special genius to contribute to the world and that it should be free, and that that is really the most secure basis for world order.
- 6.19** Of course, it's tricky because there are some 6000 languages in the world. And potentially, are we going to have 6000 nations? Right? I mean, if we take this conception to its conclusion, perhaps that's going to lead to a lot of disorder. That's a debate. But on the other hand, if an ethnic group really wants to break away and become a nation, should we restrain it from doing so? I mean, these are some of the questions that political philosophers talk about.
- 6.20** What is the relationship, then between that post-1789 period we call modernity and nationalism? And there are those who would argue that we don't see nationalism really prior to the French Revolution. And so what are the features, then, of the modern period, post-French Revolution, that would lead this to be the case? One is you saw the overthrow of the ancien régime in France. This idea of the divine right of kings, that the monarch has the right to rule, derived from God, is replaced with this idea that, "No, we the people, we the people have the right to rule. The monarch doesn't get the right to rule from God." And so sovereignty in here is in the people, not in the monarch.
- 6.21** And through that idea of popular sovereignty, there's a connection between nationalism, a very strong intimate connection, between nationalism and democracy. Now, that's not to say you can't have democracy in other kinds of political units. In ancient Greece, you had the city state and democracy at the city state level. But what the nation is is this kind of scaling up of that republican city state model to the level of the imagined community of the nation. And there's also a link between liberalism and nationalism, because liberalism also is in some ways opposed to the old order of inequality and of rights only, political rights only, adhering in the monarch. So there's a link there between liberalism and nationalism. And a lot of the 18th- and 19th-century nationalists were liberals as well.
- 6.22** Territorialization. So prior to the modern age, this was a—if we go back in human history to ancient Sumer and ancient Egypt, the history of empire is really, it's a history of people living in empires, perhaps in city states. What happens in the modern period is the empires eventually are broken up, and they're broken up along, for the most part, national lines. And so it's this territorialization where you have the breaking up of these very large units called empires and, to some degree, the coalescing of the very small units into larger units. So both processes—an integration of small principalities in Germany into Germany, Germany as a nation, and at the same time, the break-up of

big empires like the Ottoman Empire, the Austro-Hungarian Empire, the Tsarist Russian Empire, into smaller nations.

- 6.23** A couple of other aspects of modernity are important. One is the development of a capitalist economy, of a mass economy. Rather than having separate weights and measures and separate laws in each city, you have common weights and measures, common laws and common communications. Instead of, you know, having bandits between one city and the next, you actually have a national military, national police, that can enable a larger economy of scale.
- 6.24** And so you have an integration occurring economically and also culturally with the development of mass education, universities, and so on. You have also a common language, very often a common history that is taught in schools to children. And so you're getting an ironing -out of those differences of locality and dialect into something that is nationalized. There's a common national dialect, not just your local Italian dialect. We're going to develop a standardized Italian, a standardized French, a standardized language.
- 6.25** And that then enables everybody to read the same text, to read the same newspapers. It creates a common consciousness, which is important for developing this notion of the imagined community, imagining a community at the scale of the nation, which is millions of people, and not just people you know face-to-face. So these are connections between modernity and the rise of nations.
- 6.26** Now I want to talk to you about different theories of what motivates nationalism and also theories about when nation states emerged. And this is important because if we think through—you know, some would argue nations emerged in history, and they can disappear in history. Can we imagine a world order that isn't based on the nation, that actually most people would have loyalties to something smaller or something bigger? And so there are people who argue, well, "The age of nations is contingent. It's recent, it's modern. It's a recent construction, and therefore it can be deconstructed and we can move towards either supranationalism or globalism or something smaller, localism."
- 6.27** So in terms of the theories of nationalism, we've really got—well, we have three schools. There are two major schools, one which is called ethnosymbolist and the other modernist. Now, there's also a primordialist school, which is based on the idea that nations are an extension, more or less, of a very basic, evolved predisposition to cooperate with those who share more genes with us than those who share fewer genes with us. The thinking being that if you die in battle but you're defending your group, other members of your group share your genes to a much larger extent. You are dying to further your genes. So in that sort of primordialist, evolved way, it makes sense for you to actually die for your country.

- 6.28 Now, primordialism has a problem in terms of what is the small—if that's true, is a hunter-gatherer band a nation? And according to some primordialist authors, a group as small as 500 would qualify as a nation. And that's something that would be rejected by most scholars of nationalism.
- 6.29 So we have these two competing schools, one of which is called ethnosymbolism and the other which is called modernism. The modernist school has been the dominant strand in thinking about nationalism, but it has come to be challenged increasingly, or has been challenged quite vociferously by this more culturalist, ethnosymbolist school.
- 6.30 So what do the modernists argue? The modernists argue that what comes first is the state. The political unit comes first, and all of the culture and the identity comes second. The state creates and invents nationhood where it doesn't exist before. It invents the idea of Italy. When no one thought of themselves as an Italian, they only thought of themselves as a Venetian or a Roman. Now they have to think of themselves as an Italian. So the politics comes first. The politics can shape and mold people into thinking of themselves as members of a nation. State creates the culture through a mass education, a mass communication system. This is quite a blank-slatist view, as you can tell—this idea that you can shape people's identities, that the state is what's important to politics.
- 6.31 And there are two kinds of inputs into this kind of thinking. One is a more neo-Marxist view around. One is a neo-Marxist view, and the other is a more liberal, classical liberal view, that it's about individual interests and that therefore, and the state and the nation serve these interests. And so people rationally associate themselves with a nation.
- 6.32 And there are two real questions here when it comes to nationalism theory. One is, when did nations arise in human history? And the other is, what motivates people to create the nation and to reproduce the nation every generation? So in terms of the when question, when is the nation? Sorry. We can also ask about ethnic groups. So we can ask about ethnic groups and we can ask about nations. But the modernist view is the emergence of nations occurs in the modern period, after the French Revolution, post-1789. It's only then that you get a modern state—the modern state with its modern economic system, modern bureaucracy, a military that's not based on mercenaries, but is based on a peasant military, where you recruit soldiers from your population. That was a revolutionary thing, according to modernist theories.
- 6.33 Prior to the modern period, prior to the rise of the French "levée en masse," the new French army, the peasant army, which actually was very successful in the Napoleonic Wars and conquering other territories—this was a new innovation, as opposed to hiring mercenaries. One of the reasons the old elite would hire mercenaries is they feared if they armed their own peasants, their peasants would use those weapons against them. So it's safer to use mercenaries. So this is the idea then of —these modern developments, enable the nation state.

- 6.34 And according to the modernist theorists, if we go back before 1789, in a place like France or Spain, what we find is not people who thought of themselves as French or Spanish, but we have all these peasants who only associate themselves with a particular village and have no national consciousness. And you have a tiny elite who affiliate with an imperial culture based on religion, with its own lingua franca. So Latin and Catholicism, for example, or Arabic and Islam—they had a kind of very large, universalistic identity based on religion. They didn't have a national identity. That was, at least, this is how the modernists saw the world prior to 1789.
- 6.35 And what they see in terms of the process of forming ethnic groups and nations, that's elites telling people that they are Italian, telling people they are Estonian. Without elites doing that, they wouldn't actually think of themselves that way. They would have only thought of themselves as Tuscan or Roman or Venetian. But with the effort of the state to actually inculcate a sense of nationhood, people change the way they think about themselves. And so states create, political elites invent traditions, invent nationhood.
- 6.36 And some of the major theorists, some of the big, very influential intellectuals, historical sociologists, for the most part, people like Eric Hobsbawm, Benedict Anderson, Anthony Giddens, more recently Ernest Gellner. So these are some of the theorists in the modernist school. Against that, you have the more ethnosymbolistic, or perennialist, school, which would argue that we can find examples in human history at all periods since the rise of human civilization after 6000 BC, we can find examples of what we might call nations, and certainly what we would call ethnic groups in that period.
- 6.37 And that this conception that the modernists have of the way society looked prior to the French Revolution is too simplistic. That actually there were periods in which you had certain ethnic groups that were acting collectively well before 1789, and even going back to, I mentioned ancient Israel, where a number of writers —Aviel Roshwald, Anthony Smith, Adrian Hastings—would tend to see ancient Israel as having the characteristics of certainly modern ethnic groups, perhaps modern nation states, and you had that sort of collective action, unity between elites and masses, going on.
- 6.38 But of course, so there's a great variety. You also had some of these warrior bands, like the Goths, that sacked ancient Rome, that also seemed to have a lot of these properties of an ethnic group well before the modern age. Instead of state elites and states inventing nationhood, what the ethnosymbolists would argue is that it's actually Romantic nationalist intellectuals that played a key role, who develop national histories, national dictionaries, typically in the 19th century, under the influence to some degree of Romantic nationalist ideas.
- 6.39 These are then eventually scaled up and distributed through civil society, sometimes through religious institutions, and then ultimately that leads to the formation of national movements, which then spread consciousness. So they're not in many ways

always disputing what the modernists have to say, but they just say it's a bit more nuanced. And actually, these cultural reformers, educator intellectuals, play a big part in the rise of modern nationhood. And some of the writers in this tradition include Anthony Smith, John Armstrong, and Adrian Hastings. I won't, not sure whether I have time necessarily to go into the primordialist arguments right now.

- 6.40 I then want—so the problem of nationalism is very much one of the, quote, unquote, "imperfect overlap" between politics and culture, between political boundaries and ethnic boundaries. And so you have different sorts of problems. It may be that you have a number of different ethnic groups under one political roof.
- 6.41 And so if the red here represents political boundaries, the blue represents kind of ethnic boundaries. You might have a situation where the two overlap. Japan, the ethnic group and the nation and the state—they overlap pretty neatly, so you've got congruence there. But then you might have a situation where you have a significant minority. The Hungarian minority in Romania in present-day Transylvania is an example of that, or Scots in Britain would be an example of that. So these are minorities, ethnic minorities, within a state. And that's very common in the world. It's common. Almost every country has ethnic minorities. Kurds in Iraq, just picking a few examples. That's one situation where you have ethnic minority, different ethnic groups in one state.
- 6.42 Another example is where, actually, you have —some of your co-ethnics are perceived to reside outside your territory. So if you are Hungary and you look to Hungarians living in Romania as being co-ethnics who have been lost in some way, either due to a war—World War One, which reduced the size of Hungary by two-thirds and left a lot of ethnic Hungarians in other countries. Another example are the Irish Catholics in northern Ireland. There was a settlement in 1922. The 6 counties of north, the north of Ireland, remained with Britain. The 22 counties of the south became the Republic of Ireland. So this idea that there are our stranded ethnic brethren in the north, and it would be good to get them back, maybe through a united Ireland. This is the IRA's campaign and now the Sinn Féin campaign for a united Ireland.
- 6.43 So it's all about, or a big part of nationalism, is this imperfect overlap between politics and culture, or between politics and ethnicity. And this takes different forms. I mentioned northern Ireland. I mentioned the Hungarians in Romania as so-called lost co-ethnics. You know, there are other examples. Ethnic Somalis in Ethiopia, in the Ogaden region. So in, around the world, we have a lot of cases of this.
- 6.44 You go back to the start of World War Two. I mentioned Hitler looking at ethnic Germans in Czechoslovakia, ethnic Germans in Poland, wanting to get them back in a movement of irredentism. And that's often been linked to warfare. Russia perhaps, looking at Ukraine, looking at people that it would consider to be ethnic Russians, looking out for their interests, perhaps wanting to get them back, might be an example of a similar process. It's about this imperfect—what's perceived as an imperfect overlap between the political and the cultural boundaries.

- 6.45 A couple of examples here. Italy, before Italy was reunified in 1870-71, we have a map of Italy, and there are different political units. So if you're an Italian nationalist, you would say, "We Italians are divided into the kingdom of the two—kingdom of two Sicilies, Tuscany, and so forth. And we—Venice—and we want to bring this all together. We want to unify." Or it could be the case that you are Germany. First, of course, there was German unification, but it might be that parts of your country are no longer part of your country. You want to bring it together. Today, if we look at Kurdish nationalism, Kurds live in Syria, Iraq, Turkey, Iran. Greater Albania—Albanians, they live in Kosovo, they live in Albania.
- 6.46 So the aim of a unification nationalism is to say that, well, our people are sprawled over a number of different political units, so you have one ethnic or cultural unit, and it's split into a number of different political units, and you want to, again, achieve congruence between ethnicity and politics through some kind of a unification movement, or perhaps through an irredentist movement to reclaim. East Prussia, in the case of Germany. Northern Ireland, in the case of Ireland. So that you're going to be whole again, according to this philosophy of congruence between politics and ethnicity.
- 6.47 However, most—the reality is, I mentioned there are, there's approximately 200 states in the world, and there are about 6000 languages, so potentially thousands of ethnic groups and only 200 states in the world. And that tells us that almost every state is going to be multiethnic. And that is indeed the case. Almost basically every state in the world is multiethnic. The only question is how multiethnic they are. The Russian Federation is not as multiethnic as the Soviet Union. Ethnic Russians were about 50% of the Soviet Union. They are about 80% of Russia, but Russia still has minorities — Chechens, for example, or in the Caucasus region, Dagestan and others. So Russian federation is still a multiethnic state, but it's less multiethnic than the Soviet Union was.
- 6.48 And this incongruence could lead to nationalism. You could have the Chechens wanting to break away. That would be an example of the Chechen saying, "We want our politics to line up with our culture and we want to rule ourselves. We don't want to be ruled by the Russians." And so Chechen nationalism would be a breakaway nationalism.
- 6.49 So I mentioned this distinction between nation and ethnic group. Nation is defined territorially with political aspirations. Ethnicity is defined in terms of shared —a belief in common ancestry. Whether that's true or not in genetic terms is another matter. Irrelevant. Not irrelevant, but it's not the main thing. There are also two kinds of ethnic group, and these are the kinds of ethnic group called primary ethnic groups, or indigenous or native ethnic groups. Those are the kinds of ethnic groups that tend to lead to nations and nationalism and national separatism. And then we have the more immigrant or diaspora ethnic group.
- 6.50 So the primary ethnic groups, the native ethnic groups, which is most, arguably most, of the ethnic groups in the world, they consider themselves indigenous to the territory they're living in. So the ethnic English living in England, the Maori living in New Zealand,

the Zulus living in a portion of South Africa called KwaZulu-Natal, Malaysian Malaysia, Japanese and Japan. These are what we would call primary ethnic groups.

6.51 And then we have the diaspora or immigrant ethnic groups, which do not consider themselves to be indigenous to where they are living. Chinese Americans would not see themselves as indigenous to the United States, for example, and even the Chinese in Indonesia wouldn't see themselves as indigenous to Indonesia. They would accept that they are—their ethnic homeland is in China. So that's a different type of ethnic group from the primary ethnic group. The Maoris would say, "No, we are indigenous to New Zealand." The Malays would say, "We are indigenous to Malaysia."

6.52 And so that then means that, "if we are indigenous to Malaysia, is it right that we are ruled by somebody else, or should we rule ourselves?" Becomes a much bigger question. And so most of the time, you see violent ethnic rebellion. Almost always, almost 100% of the time, it is this kind of group that's going to be involved in making territorial claims on the basis of indigeness.

6.53 Now, different countries are—some countries are more diverse than others. This is another aspect. And the countries that are more diverse are more likely to have separatism, simply because you have different ethnic groups who see themselves as indigenous to a territory and may have grievances with the state, which they may see as dominated by other ethnic groups. Certain parts of the world are more diverse in terms of their native ethnic groups. And the part of the world that is most diverse is New Guinea, with 1000 languages in a very small area. But the second most diverse part of the world is sub-Saharan Africa.

6.54 This is Congo, and this is showing some of the boundaries in and around Congo, the ethnic boundaries in Congo and in West Africa more generally. Of course, ethnicity has many different layers. You might be, you might have a sort of localized tribal group. You might then be a southern Nigerian. You might then be a Yoruba, etc., and then a Nigerian. So you have this kind of onion-like quality to ethnicity. There are smaller units and larger units. An example from this country—you might be Italian-American, but you're also a white American or European American. So there's the lower level and the higher level.

6.55 One of the questions is which of those levels is going to be most important in politics? And so we can talk also about the politically relevant level of ethnicity in a country. So in the United States, Italian-American is not politically relevant, but white American is, in terms of voting, for example.

6.56 The other thing I should say is that ethnic diversity in Africa is very high. And there's a whole bunch of reasons which I'll talk about in a minute why that might be the case. But it is declining over time because of urbanization. And so there's a process, there is a process in which, because of urbanization and industrialization, groups come together, and then they start to say, "Well, actually, we are a separate group from this group

back in our homeland. But now, actually, we kind of share more in common because we're in a city where there's now 100 ethnic groups instead of just having one or two neighbors." And you realize you've got more in common with what were your neighbors back in the countryside. And so actually, you coalesce and form a larger group, and then that consciousness gets sent back to the countryside. And eventually what that does is it leads to an aggregation and a reduction of diversity as people change their identity over time.

- 6.57** And the same thing's happened if we take the United States, the formation of white American as a group. Now, part of that is a lot of intermarriage between Irish and German and Italian, but it's also a process of scaling up where groups are forming and coalescing into larger units over time, which is reducing in some way the diversity of the society over time. So diversity increases through immigration, reduces through assimilation and boundary extension, as in the case of the U.S., where it used to really matter if you were Italian or Irish, Protestant, Catholic, Jewish—that's no longer very important. Now it seems as though just being white, that the racial demarcation is more important.
- 6.58** Of course, we see changes in the nature of that identification. And we saw that in the U.S. census. There was a big change in the share of Americans calling themselves white. A lot of those were Hispanic people who did identify as white, but then ticked also white and something else, maybe white and other, in the census. So the census isn't—it's not as though the actual composition of the population changed very much. It's more people's self-designation on the census changed.
- 6.59** So in terms of this relationship then between ethnicity and nationhood, I mentioned that almost every country has more than one ethnic group in it. This is a survey of major countries from 1998. Now, there's almost no country that is purely 100% one ethnic group. Maybe the Pitcairn Islands, with its population of 75, might qualify. But even a country like Norway or Japan, which is very homogenous, it might not be 100% homogeneous. It might be maybe 98, 99%.
- 6.60** So these are the countries arrayed along the bottom from the most diverse. Liberia is one you see there, to the least diverse, and maybe Japan would be up towards the top. And this is the percentage of the population that the largest ethnic group forms within a country. If we take the 50% mark, you can see that most countries in the world—it's about 70% of countries —have an ethnic majority group of at least 50%. So they may not be homogenous, but they have an ethnic majority group of at least 50%.
- 6.61** Now, of course, it depends how we define ethnicity, which level we're looking at, but in the case of the U.S., I think a lot of people would say it's the white group, not Italian, Jewish, etc. It's the white group that we're going to consider the largest ethnic group, which does form about 60, 60% of the population. And therefore the U.S. would have an ethnic majority on this kind of classification.

- 6.62 But other countries are very, very diverse. And Lebanon would be an example, where you've got the Christians there, the Maronite Christians. You've got Shia, Sunni Palestinians, Greek Orthodox, a whole bunch of different groups. Liberia would be another. Ivory Coast, Côte d'Ivoire, would be another. Indonesia, the Javanese group is probably approaching 50%. Afghanistan, the Pashtuns are approaching 50%. So in general, most countries have an ethnic majority, but it's less than everybody.
- 6.63 And so that then means, well, there is a potential for ethnic politics, and some of that will manifest as separatist movements. And so this is a map of the world. The darker parts of the world have higher ethnic diversity. And Southeast Asia, sub-Saharan Africa, tends to have higher diversity. Most of that diversity is indigenous diversity. India, even though 80% Hindu, it has hundreds of different language groups, and so it's classified as being very diverse.
- 6.64 And we can ask the question, well, how is it that some countries are more diverse than others? What is it that leads sub-Saharan Africa and New Guinea to be so diverse? Well, one of the reasons actually has to do with ecosystem diversity. What is the difference between the highest point in the country and the lowest point? How many different geoclimatic zones are there in a particular country? Now, the larger the territory of a country in general, the more ecosystem diversity you're going to have and the more of a range between the highest and lowest geographic points.
- 6.65 New Guinea is a series of mountain valleys, heavily forested. In some ways there are very strong barriers to moving from one valley to the next. And that's one of the reasons it's incubated so much linguistic and therefore tribal diversity. So part of this has to do with the geography. North Africa, which is largely a desert, it's largely a desert. It has very little ecosystem diversity, despite Libya and Morocco and these countries being relatively big. Low ecosystem diversity means lower ethnic diversity, whereas sub-Saharan Africa has much higher ecosystem diversity and therefore has higher ethnic diversity.
- 6.66 Now, there are other factors. Some have argued that slave trade made it very difficult to have pre-colonial African states that could control large elements of territory and standardize the language and religion and culture in those territories. That's a debate that, therefore, the areas that had more slavery had more political disunity, and therefore weren't able to develop as ethnically homogeneous pre-colonial states.
- 6.67 There's an argument around how old pre-colonial states were. So Ethiopia has a long pre-colonial state tradition. Ghana, with the Ashanti empire, has a long pre-colonial state tradition. Places that have that longer pre-colonial state tradition are less diverse, arguably—it seems to be less diverse than places. So southern Africa, which didn't really have a lot except for Zululand, they didn't really have a lot of these pre-colonial state traditions. So you're going to get perhaps more diversity in those places. Liberia would be another example of this. But then, on the other hand, you have some homogenous African countries. Somalia, even though it has the clans, ethnically Somali.

Botswana, heavily Tswana as well, as compared to the very diverse countries like Tanzania.

- 6.68** Now, then there are relationships between these different levels of ethnic group, nation, and state. A group can be ethnic, but not national, like the Jews. Jews in England are an ethnic group in England. Jews in England are not a nation. OK? A group can be both ethnic and national. You have ethnic Welsh people and you have a Welsh nation. And probably only about 50% of people in the Welsh nation are ethnically Welsh. You can then have a group like, you can have Japan, which is, in which the ethnicity, the sense of nationhood and the state, are largely overlapping. So those are just a way of thinking about how these different units intersect and interlock with each other and where you get sort of, quote unquote, "imperfect overlap."
- 6.69** We saw most states are multiethnic. Once you have multiethnicity, particularly indigenous multiethnicity, you have at least the potential for breakaway movements, secessionist movements. We then can have nations like the United States, where there is a national, common national, identity, but it's multiethnic. Now, how do you get a multiethnic nation? That's different from talking about a multiethnic state.
- 6.70** Indonesia is a multiethnic state. Iraq is a multiethnic state. Iraq is a multiethnic state. The Kurds in Iraq might not feel that Iraqi. That's different from a place like the United States, where most members of pretty much all ethnic groups feel American. So you have a national identity that is sort of overlapping the different ethnic groups. How does this occur? We have different models.
- 6.71** In some places, like the Indian Ocean island of Mauritius, a bunch of different groups arrived not exactly at the same time, but more or less. So it was relatively uninhabited. You had an African origin population that was originally slave, became free, and then it was overlapped by, or overlaid by, an indentured servant population from, largely from India. So that is possible, that you have an area that hasn't had a previous settlement and you have different groups arriving at once. Or you have a place like the United States, where originally it was quite homogeneously white Anglo-Saxon Protestant with a black population. And then you had immigrant groups like the Irish and Italians and Chinese and others coming in. Latin Americans. And so the ethnic core weakens, but the national identity becomes defined more inclusively.
- 6.72** But of course, there's always this trick in a multiethnic nation, because unity and diversity are in tension with each other. To the extent you try and go for unity, you tend to assimilate and melt away the diversity. If you go for diversity, that can threaten unity. OK, and so there's constant tension between these two aspects of nationhood. But as we've seen, some nations are more multiethnic and diverse than others. There's a debate over whether the level of multiethnicity can weaken a particular nation.
- 6.73** In sub-Saharan Africa, for example, we have a lot of ethnic voting. In a place like Liberia, in a place like Kenya, Uganda, you would tend to have coalitions of ethnic groups

backing different parties. Northern Ireland, Protestants would tend to vote for the unionist political parties. Catholics would tend to vote for the nationalist political parties. So one of the arguments is that, in highly multiethnic societies, you tend to get voting along ethnic lines rather than along ideological left-right type lines. Of course, it's never exactly one or exactly the other.

- 6.74 And in a multiethnic state, what you'll often get are multiple identities. So people will have an ethnic identity as Kikuyu and national identity as Kenyan. Or if we take this country, an ethnic identity as perhaps Cuban American, a supra-ethnic identity as Hispanic perhaps, and then a national identity as American. Now, sometimes these identities are in tension with each other. In the old Yugoslavia, being a Croat and identifying as a Croat to some extent detracted from the wider national identity of Yugoslav. So sometimes you have a tension. Identifying really strongly as a Scot might take you away from identifying as British, and so you might then want to support the Scottish Nationalist Party.
- 6.75 You have a different salience, or power of each identity layer. How important is your Quebec French Canadian identity, your Quebec identity, versus your Canadian identity? Do you value—are you more attached to being Canadian or more attached to being Quebecois? Are you more attached to being Kurdish or more attached to being Iraqi? Different layers, or salience, of these different levels of identity. In sub-Saharan Africa, the ethnic layer tends to be dominant over the national layer in many countries, but it varies. In Tanzania, there's been quite a successful national identity. So people tend to put their national identity first and their ethnic identity second. But in Kenya, the ethnic identity first, the national identity second, is more common. We know this from surveys, the Afrobarometer survey.
- 6.76 The other thing is that your identity can change depending on the context. So if you're from Nigeria and you migrate to Britain, you're more likely to identify as Nigerian, because in a British context, you're a Nigerian. You go back to Nigeria and you're a Christian or a Muslim, a Yoruba or an Igbo, etc. So it partly depends on the migratory context as well. So most of what I've talked about, then, is about this imperfect overlap between ethnic group and nation. If you have multiple ethnic groups in one country, you might get separatism or a desire for assimilation on behalf of the dominant group. Or if you have a number of different political units governing a particular ethnic group, like the Kurds, then you might want to have a Kurdish unification nationalism.
- 6.77 That's all true. And this is all, these are made, this is largely the problem of nationalism, but it is not entirely the problem of nationalism. So there is another aspect to nationalism which has to do with pride and humiliation, winning and losing. So if we talk about Russian nationalism, Chinese nationalism, even arguably much of German nationalism in the Nazi period, this wasn't so much just about recovering lost territories. Yes, that was a big part of why the Nazis invaded Czechoslovakia and Poland. But it wasn't just that, especially if we take something like Chinese nationalism.

China is not seeking to reclaim. I mean, it's seeking to reclaim Taiwan. But this is not the major thing going on with Chinese nationalism. A lot of this is, "We were kept down or we were weak. We were humiliated, and now it's our turn, and we want to recover our national pride."

6.78 It might be, in the case of Putin and Russia, that there was a period of, after the collapse of the Soviet Union, when we lost power and respect in the world. China, it was this period, the long humiliations of the 19th and early 20th centuries, and so it's now, "We were backward. Now we want to recover our national standing in the world." And we can even see in the Olympics, for example, the Olympics is about nationalism, but it's got nothing to do with the overlap of ethnic group and nation and wanting to unify or break away or any. It's all about esteem and pride in the world. Or maybe a monument like the Eiffel Tower as a symbol of national pride. So pride and humiliation is another dimension. If we think of the overlap between ethnic group and nation as this sort of horizontal dimension, pride and humiliation, better-worse, is a kind of vertical dimension of nationalism.

6.79 We can also think about different competing nationalisms within one nation. OK, so there are many different types of nationalism. There is—so, for example, we can think about a left-wing version of nationalism, Vietnamese nationalism vis-à-vis the Americans. It's a left-wing socialist nationalism. Scottish nationalism is a left-wing nationalism. English nationalism is more typically thought of as a right-wing nationalism. American nationalism often isn't seen as a right-wing nationalism, but actually, there's no automatic correspondence between nationalism and right or left. So we've got quite a few left-wing nationalisms and quite a few right-wing nationalisms.

6.80 And that's part of this idea of the thick and thin ideology. Nationalism is a thin ideology, so it can be adapted to socialism. It can be adapted to liberal democracy. Social democracy can be adapted to many different, other, thicker ideologies. It can also be highly secular—in the case of Kemal Atatürk, in the case of the nationalism of the French Revolution. The nationalism of the original Zionists were anti-religious for the most part. Or it can be religious, so you can get religion working with nationalism, or religion and nationalism fighting each other.

6.81 So Hindu nationalism in India is a religious form of nationalism. Atatürk was opposed to the caliphate, to the religious authorities. It was a kind of secular nationalism. So we have—just as we can have a left and right nationalism, we can have a religious and a secular form of nationalism, and we can have other kinds of nationalism. As I mentioned, a thin ideology. We can have a liberal nationalism, conservative nationalism. There are nationalisms which focus more on ethnic commonality, so-called ethnic nationalism, and others which focus more on allegiance to a set of ideas or political traditions—civic nationalism. Now, there's a whole literature on ethnic versus civic which we can't get into, and there are problems with this classification, but it's just

to say that nationalism is protean. It can adapt to many different ideologies that are thicker.

6.82 And there are often competing versions of nationalism within one country. It used to be thought you had, quote unquote, "ethnic nations like Germany," and quote unquote, "civic nations like France or the U.S." But we now realize that there's actually more variation within a country than between countries. So in France, you have people who think of France in a more ethnic way, that you kind of have to be ethnically French, that that's very important for what is France. And there are others say, "No, it's all about the Declaration of the Rights of Man, it's liberalism," and so on.

6.83 We have this debate in the U.S., too, to some degree. Those who would say America is just an idea and others that say, "Well, actually, the mix of peoples in the United States is a very important component of what it means to be American as well." The language that is predominantly, a certain religion, etc. Even if there are minorities, these particular features add to what it means to be an American. Even if it's not written down, it's implicit. So you have these competing versions of nationhood within countries, and they often compete with each other.

6.84 I talked about Turkey. Now Turkey has a more religious party in power who have a more religious conception of the nation. Iran, another example. You have a more religious regime, which has a religious conception of the nation. And they displaced in a revolution in 1979 the more secular conception of Iran, which was more ethnic Persian. It's been replaced by this more Shia version of Iranian nationhood.

6.85 Now, just to get into another layer of complexity is, there's an issue of whether nationalism and national identity comes from the top down. Does nationhood come from the state, with its public education system, its national history, its official statements about "this is who we are, these are British values, everyone must sing from the same hymn sheet"? Is that really how nationalism works in France, which is seen as the archetype of that kind of state-led nationalism, where you had a standardized textbook, a standardized dictionary, you have government-sponsored the Académie Française, which decides what the new French word is going to be for smartphone? Is that actually how nationhood works?

6.86 Or is it something that emerges spontaneously from below, through different expressions? And this is a newer development in the literature on nationalism that argues, well, actually, pop culture, market economy, even viral trends emerging in society, can redefine and reshape the nation. And I use this example of the Union Jack. The Union Jack as the flag of Britain having many different meanings. The Who, the Mod movement in the 60s, using that Union Jack in interpreting Britishness in one way, Stormzy, the British hip-hop artist, interpreting it another way. "This is what we're proud of—British hip-hop, not American hip-hop." So we've got, that's an expression of British nationalism. Or the Spice Girls are in a different expression of British Britpop, British nationalism.

- 6.87 But then you have the Union Jack used by Ulster Unionists in northern Ireland. These are the Protestants of northern Ireland who, who see the Union Jack as a symbol of their community, their version of Britishness. Or the far right as well —Tommy Robinson—the Union Jack can be used. So it can be used in many different ways. One flag, many different meanings, many different interpretations of British nationhood, but coming spontaneously and arising in a way through the actions of many people interacting with each other.
- 6.88 And so everybody has a different version in their heads of what is American nationhood. Different things they're attached to. It could be sports, things like baseball, things like the landscape, food, which aren't in the—the constitution doesn't talk about hamburgers or baseball. But maybe hamburgers and baseball are very important for defining American nationhood. In fact, maybe thousands of symbols in everyday life are the texture of American nationhood, and they're celebrated in different ways, perhaps by pop culture, by people in their everyday lives.
- 6.89 So maybe that—and it can be the case that the meaning of a symbol maybe can change, can be appropriated by different groups. Maybe the American flag can be appropriated by groups on the right. Maybe it can be the British flag can perhaps be appropriated. We can look at this as being appropriated by different groups.
- 6.90 So one of the things that happened in England was that the England flag, which is a cross of St. George, which is a red cross flag, was something that was associated with only the far right. And then you had the English soccer team in 1996 playing in a tournament, and all of a sudden there was this euphoria, and everybody was wearing the England, or flying the England, flag, people of all different backgrounds, and it became much more of a mainstream thing. So was that then an appropriation of the English flag, of English nationhood, by a wider chunk of the population? And maybe it can swing back again?
- 6.91 And so this is all, these are all mass trends, peer to peer, bottom-up dynamics, and has nothing to do with the government. The government is only British. They're not English. They don't actually narrate or create traditions. So if you're going to argue that the state is behind nationalism, that's a pretty weak —it's very difficult to explain what happened with Englishness by looking to the state and politics.
- 6.92 OK, that's it from me. Thank you very much.

Lecture 7: Feminism

At a glance — Feminism as an ideology.

- 7.1 Great. So welcome back. Day three, the last day here. So today I'm going to speak to you about feminism. And as you can tell, you may have guessed from feminism, this is going to be a more specialized ideology than something broad like socialism or liberalism. So we're talking about a thin ideology, as opposed to one of those thick ideologies that are covering many, many domains of human life.
- 7.2 Just to stick with the Heywood political ideologies schema here, we talked about ideologies as an assessment about how the society works, so the "is" question; blueprint for how you want the world to be, the "ought" question, or the normative philosophy question; and then an action plan to get from the way things are to the way you want society to be.
- 7.3 In terms of feminism, then, thinking about feminism, how does it view society? And very definitely, when we think about feminism, the overwhelming tendency is to think in terms of the blank slate, in terms of there being a culturally or economically generated structure that constructs masculinity and femininity. So this is the idea that this is something that can be constructed. It's not something innate coming through biology and the psychology, the evolution psychology that comes out of that biology.
- 7.4 So instead of that, we have a relatively strong social constructionist view of how society works. However, that may be one dominant strand of feminism, but it isn't the only strand. And as we'll see, there's another strand of feminism that actually takes biology seriously and believes there are essential differences between men and women, and that women, again, coming out of the childbearing role, have a different nature, and it's not just all about nurture. So two different types of feminism, and we can see that those two types of feminism are increasingly coming into conflict over issues such as the transgender issue.
- 7.5 So that's the assessment of how the world works, how society works. We then move to the blueprint. What is the vision for the good society? And the vision here is very much one of gender equality, equality between the sexes. But then there is another strand, again, which says, "No, actually, we want a separate sphere. We want women to almost secede and separate from society." That is a strand, minority strand, in feminism. Then we have a different plan of action to get towards our future goal. And we talked about revolution versus reform in socialism, for example. And similarly, we have in feminism more revolutionary and more incremental and reformist strands of feminism as well.
- 7.6 So just in terms of the question of social science, assessing how the world works empirically, what is the feminist social science? I mentioned the blank slate idea of nurture as opposed to nature, which would be associated with biology, genetics, and evolutionary psychology. But there are also other questions at play here. One is to what

extent, if we think there is some kind of sex discrimination or patriarchy even at work, is this underpinned by economic relations and economic factors? Is that what's driving this form of inequality, or is the form of inequality a more culturally created and constructed system?

- 7.7** So again, that's a question you'll meet in social science time and time again. Is it more material? Is it more economic? That's a Marxist view of things. Is it more cultural, which is the view of Postmodernism, for example. Then we have a question of structures that we can't see—economic structures, cultural idea structures, even psychological structures, matrices operating on us as individuals, almost as if we are billiard balls that are being knocked around by these impersonal, unseen structures—or do we as individuals have agency to remake the world? So these are all questions that social scientists kick around, and they're questions that feminists also pay attention to and have divisions about.
- 7.8** In terms of the politics, how to get to realize one's vision of the good society, there are different visions. One is that women and men should be fully equal and undertake the same public and even private roles. So maybe that is, pursue a career, pursue recreation in the same way, pursue family in the same way. And then there's another view which says, "Well, no, actually women are different and should pursue difference rather than similarity." Should women be more like men? Or should they lean into their difference from men? Maybe because women are better than men or superior to men in their nature, therefore they should lean into that. That's a very different view from saying women should be more similar to men, or that men should be more similar to women. So dissolving the boundaries between the sexes.
- 7.9** So we have this debate then which gets towards the question of boundaries between the sexes. Should those be fluid, and should we try and transgress the gender binary? Or do we want to actually defend the boundary between femaleness, and between female and male, and defend female distinctiveness?
- 7.10** Then there is a question around political tactics. Do we just want to try and defend women as a class in their interests and further the interests of women only? Or do we adopt a broader, what's called intersectional, left-wing strategy, where we have to consider other matrices of oppression besides gender? We have to look at sexuality, race, etc. Therefore, we have to work in a coalition. It might sometimes mean women actually have to defer to other groups. Maybe trans people are more oppressed than women, and so women have to give way to trans claims under certain versions of this ideology.
- 7.11** We then have revolution or reform. This question of, do we want rapid social change or incremental social change within the system? And then even the possibility of a quietist retreat—should certain females retreat from this masculine patriarchal order and create their own separate society? Political lesbianism is part of this philosophy. Versus, "No, we need to change society, we need to change politics, and we need to

deconstruct that socially constructed patriarchy. We need to take it apart, and we can reconstruct it to get rid of this inequality."

- 7.12** I mentioned that feminism is a thin ideology. It can be adapted to a number of different other ideologies. You can have a liberal feminism, which is focused on equal opportunities, rights, and freedoms for women. Women should enjoy the same rights and freedoms as men, and that they should enjoy the same political rights as men. The way to pursue this is going to be with liberalism, is going to be reformist working within the liberal democratic system to extend voting rights, extend equal opportunities.
- 7.13** We then have a socialist version of feminism, which has a different analysis based on class, which sees sex discrimination as an outcome of class discrimination. So the Marxist analysis always starts from the economic, not the cultural. The economic is the key. Capitalist exploitative relations are the key. And once we move to socialism, the gender sex inequality will fade away under this analysis. So a socialist revolution is needed to create equality in a feminist revolution.
- 7.14** And then you have radical feminism. Now, of course, socialist feminism is radical in its economic way, but culturally radical feminism—their view is, "No, patriarchy and gender discrimination is independent largely of the capitalist economy. It's not really dependent on capitalist social relations. It's based on an independent set of, an independent structural discrimination. And therefore, we have to dismantle that cultural structure, that patriarchal cultural structure, which can exist in a socialist society, can exist in a capitalist society. It needs to be independently dismantled."
- 7.15** And radical feminism focuses not only on public life—the rights of women to participate in politics and have careers and so on—but also on relationships within the private sphere, within the family, within couples, for example, and also the links to other forms of identity politics, again based largely on race and sexuality. So we have these three forms of feminism. Now, of course, there are a multiplicity of types of feminism as well. I think they can probably be cataloged within these three in some way. So a lot of different strands, like trans feminism, can probably be cataloged under that radical feminism label.
- 7.16** So let's step back then and look a little bit at the history of this idea of feminism. And you can go back to the Renaissance period, where you have certain figures like Christine de Pizan, arguing in 1405 for the rights of women to participate in the public sphere, to be educated, to participate in politics. This is an Italian poet and author of the 15th century. That was a very radical, hugely, incredibly radical idea, the idea that women should be educated the same way as men are educated, that they should be allowed a role in politics. But Pizan is really a trailblazer and also pays a lot of attention to women's achievements over the ages. So this is an attempt—again, this is the liberal first wave of feminism, which is trying to say, "Women should have the same opportunities to participate in public life as men."

- 7.17** Skipping ahead a few hundred years to the Enlightenment period, we have Mary Wollstonecraft in England, her work, *A Vindication of the Rights of Woman*, 1792. There was a debate in Enlightenment circles between some who thought that women should be educated and some who didn't, including leading luminaries in the French Enlightenment, people like Jean-Jacques Rousseau and the French Jacobins, who were the radicals in the French Revolution. So this would have been the most radical edge of liberal egalitarianism in the 18th century, and they were still opposed to women's education. So this was a very minor strand, even within the Enlightenment. It was too radical, even for the Enlightenment of the 18th century.
- 7.18** For Wollstonecraft, the culture of the late 18th century, emphasizing the frailty of women, their emotional nature, their tendency to have emotional reactions to things, that that is a, that was something that they were taught to do. It's what society expected them to do and rewarded them for doing, and it was therefore a cultural construct. And that's a good example of this argument from social construction, from blank slate, that it's about nurture. Society has a certain role that it expects women to fulfill and constructs that role. It's an artificial cultural construction, can be deconstructed. Women can be reconstructed into a different role, which might involve participation in public life, being educated, and so on.
- 7.19** And she defends female intelligence, which, of course, another question back then was, "Are women as intelligent as men?" So defending female intelligence, their capacity to reason, and suggesting that this was all being frustrated by the cultural constructs and gender roles of that period. So this is then the first wave of feminism, which seeks to accord equal rights to women in public life.
- 7.20** Feminism then becomes an important movement in the 19th century, and the suffragette movement, which refers to the campaign to give the vote to women, begins in earnest in the 19th century. Now, in the U.S. case, we have here a picture of Elizabeth Cady Stanton, a leading suffragette from the mid-19th century. And the formative meeting was the 1848 Seneca Falls Convention and the Equal Rights Association, which was pursuing the vote for both African-Americans and females. But I don't want you to get the impression that the politics of that period was similar to the politics today. This was not an intersectional movement, as I'll show in a minute. These were quite separate movements.
- 7.21** Now, to understand the politics of the time, the suffragette movement was being pushed by progressive, northern Yankee Protestant women. And that was a very particular culture of the late 19th century, which did support rights for African-Americans, and did support rights for women. But the idea that this was somehow a left-wing movement is something I think we need to question. Suffragettes were not necessarily left-wing. And let's just take this passage from Stanton. Stanton was very — a lot of American suffragettes were very upset that African-American men got the vote

and women didn't get the vote in—so African-American men get the vote in 1870. The vote is not given to women. And so we see this quote.

- 7.22** "American women of wealth, education, virtue, and refinement, if you do not wish the lower orders of Chinese, Africans, German, and Irish, with their low ideas of womanhood, to make laws for you and your daughters, demand that women, too, shall be represented in government."
- 7.23** Now, that doesn't sound very politically correct. And I think it's just important to bear in mind that the political alignments were not the same then as they are now. The suffragette movement was associated with the progressive movement, which had some elements which we might consider left-wing, like suffragette, votes for women, votes for African-Americans, but had other elements which would be associated with the right now, such as immigration restriction, and a view of which groups were higher and lower, which ethnic groups were higher and lower in terms of their capabilities and advancement.
- 7.24** Also, suffragettes would have been part of this progressive movement that also wanted to pursue temperance. That is ban the sale of alcohol, and that eventually becomes enacted in 1920 in the Volstead Act, where the public selling of alcohol was no longer permitted. In 1920, the same year as the Volstead Act banning alcohol for sale comes into operation, women get the vote. And in 1924, an immigration restriction law, the National Origins Quota Act, comes in. These things are not—today, we might think these are completely opposite. Some of these are left-wing, some of these are right-wing. Actually, they were part of the same progressive political outlook rooted in that Yankee, New England, Protestant culture of the time.
- 7.25** Something similar is occurring in Britain with the suffragette movement. Now, in Britain, you had liberals like John Stuart Mill who were in favor of extending the vote to women, were in favor of education for women. John Stuart Mill proposes that votes for women be added to Britain's 1867 Reform Act, which extends the franchise, extends voting rights to some men who didn't hold property—not all, but it extends it to—about 60% of the male population get the vote in 1867.
- 7.26** Emily Pankhurst as well—you get some radical, I won't say radical, but perhaps more impatient, perhaps, suffragette movements who are willing to engage in public spectacles that would attract attention to their movement. Some accused them of being radicals. But Pankhurst, her women's social and political union, was an important movement in drawing attention to the plight of women and their inability to vote at the time. So engages in some attacks on property, clashes with police, and public demonstrations. Was she a radical leftist, however? No. Actually, she became a conservative MP. And that's, again, a way of trying to scramble your perceptions of the way politics worked in this period. It was not a left-right, simple left-right split.

- 7.27 And there were also interesting divisions. So this is a picture of Gower Street, where I had my office for many years. And we were in a building which had one of these blue plaques on it, which you can see. We were next to a building which had a blue plaque on it for a suffragette named Millicent Garrett Fawcett, who was a sort of more moderate feminist perhaps than Pankhurst, and was critical of some of the antics of the more radical feminists, but was essentially pursuing the same aim, which was the vote for women.
- 7.28 And again, as we saw in the U.S. case where there were people who were—a lot of the progressives were in favor of votes for women and for African-Americans, and they were in favor of immigration restriction. We have a similar combination of politics here. Fawcett, for example, opposes home rule for Ireland, which was a major liberal cause. So the opposition to the Irish getting autonomy over their own affairs, because Ireland was part of Britain at the time, and there were people saying Ireland should be accorded certain rights. That was opposed by Fawcett. So that's a very conservative position, again showing that actually there's not an automatic correspondence between being a suffragette and being somehow a leftist. That's not the way politics worked in the 19th century and early 20th century.
- 7.29 With women achieving the vote in 1920 in the U.S. and 1918 in Britain, some of the energy behind the feminist movement goes away until we get to what's called the second wave. And initially, the second wave liberal feminism crests in the 1960s. Now, there are a few important books along the way. Simone de Beauvoir's *Second Sex*, written in 1949. And then we get Betty Friedan's *Feminist Mystique*. I'll talk a bit about Beauvoir in a minute. The shift here is away from acquiring rights in the public sphere to talking about the private sphere, women's roles as having to be homemakers and carers of children. And also the relationship between husband and wife, the role of the woman in the family structure, whether this was in some way holding women back.
- 7.30 And the goal for second wave liberal feminism is women's liberation, the idea of women's liberation, which becomes a slogan. So what women are seeking then is liberation from these roles that are pigeonholing them as carers and homemakers. So that means it could be psychological liberation, it could be sexual liberation, it could be personal freedom to pursue a career and so on. So that is the focus then of this second wave liberal feminism as represented perhaps by Friedan.
- 7.31 And part of this, of course, is also about the decline of extended families and the rise of more nuclear families. So women had perhaps more female companionship and support in those extended families, whereas once you're in the suburbs in your nuclear family, you're more cut off. And some would argue that that was one of the factors prompting this dissatisfaction amongst women in developed Western countries.
- 7.32 I'll say something about socialist feminism. I've talked a lot about liberal feminism, women desiring freedom and equal rights. But there is also a socialist tradition in feminism which stems back to some of the original Marxist, Marx and Friedrich Engels,

his co-author, who believed that what had happened with industrialization is a shift from a kind of pre-industrial matriarchal world and matriarchal society, to an industrial patriarchal society in which women served as a kind of reserve army of labor. So men maybe went and worked in the factories, but women did work at home. Sometimes they went out into the spinning mills and also did wage work as well. But there was a place in Marxism for a feminist analysis.

- 7.33** The aim of course, in socialist feminism, is that —the aim is equality of outcome between men and women, of wealth and pay. But underpinning the socialist feminist analysis is the idea that this is about capitalism and capitalist exploitation. So for Marx, as I mentioned earlier with socialism, it's the base. The economic base is number one, and all of the cultural stuff follows from the economic relations. And so the Marxist view is class comes first, class oppression comes first. If you fix that, you fix gender inequality. So class relations are underpinning unequal gender relations.
- 7.34** And this is a very different analysis, as we'll see from most of the contemporary strands of feminism, which are much more cultural leftist, new leftist, in orientation and much less tied to the material sphere. And indeed, one of the critiques of those more cultural left feminists is that, in fact, in communist countries, you see a similar gender inequality as you see in capitalist countries. So it can't be the case that this is just a matter of fixing the economic system.
- 7.35** So now I'll move on to talking about radical feminism, which typically means a cultural leftist, cultural new leftist kind of feminism, as distinct from liberal feminism of the first wave and to some extent of the second wave as well. Whereas that liberal feminism was looking to give women equal rights and emancipate women, radical feminism is looking for a much more utopian, revolutionary liberation of women. Instead of gender equality in terms of equal opportunities, radical feminism brings in this idea of the patriarchy, that there is this, again, this shadowy system of gender roles and relations that, it's like a matrix. You're in it, you don't even know you're in it, but it's structuring things in such a way that women are not equal.
- 7.36** The individualism, the right, the freedom to pursue your own life plans, which is central to liberal feminism, as opposed to this more identity-based, group rights-based oriented sisterhood approach in radical feminism. Whereas liberal feminism sought to pursue conventional politics—that is, get policymakers to give women the vote and equal rights—we have an intertwining of the personal and the political in radical feminism, the idea that the personal is the political.
- 7.37** So it's not just about equal opportunities at work or in voting, but we now have to have a conversation about the family and about sexual relations and all of these personal realms, because power is nested not only in public life, but there are power relationships that are embedded in the personal as well. And so those are going to need to be reformed or rejected. Traditional personal relations are going to need to be

rejected, at least according to some radical feminists. The conventional nuclear family, for example.

- 7.38** So it's a transformation not only of the public realm, but also of the private realm that is going to be required to address this problem of the intertwining of the personal and the political. And instead of reform and gradualism, there's a desire for a revolutionary overthrowing, overturning, of the patriarchal order. And some of the individuals that are involved in this radical feminism of the second wave—so you have kind of a second wave of liberal feminism, but you have a second wave radical feminism as well, which adopts a lot of the language of the new left and a lot of the theory of the new left as well.
- 7.39** And we see this in the work of Bonnie Greer or Kate Millet in 1970. This is not a socialist feminism. It accepts the capitalist system and —the individualism of the capitalist system and the freedoms of the capitalist system. But the argument here is that men and women have different natures. The idea of a patriarchy, which is this more structural concept, that there is this construct called the patriarchy floating around as a set of ideas, as a set of economic—well, a set of ideas for the most part that are constructing gender inequality.
- 7.40** The focus in this second wave radical feminism comes to rest not only, as I mentioned, on the public, but also on the private sphere. So needing to have a conversation about conventional sexual relations and the family. And so this is a more structural analysis, not just about individual rights gaining the same rights as everybody else, but somehow we've got to overthrow these things called structures—and we can talk about that critically in a minute, whether such things exist or not—but there has to be an overthrowing of a structure in order to achieve women's equality.
- 7.41** So where do those ideas in radical feminism of the second wave come from? They are influenced by some of the strands of thinking which are also important in the new left and that are also important in critical race theory, which we'll talk in the next lecture. Michel Foucault, a French left-wing intellectual who's writing in the post-war period and does a lot of his most important work in the '60s and '70s, and Foucault's idea, he had a couple of ideas. One is that power is not just in the formal political system of government and voting and elections, but power is also in private personal relationships, in the private sphere.
- 7.42** So there is power embedded in all social relations, including in the family, including in couples, including between parents and children. That is one aspect of Foucault's thought that becomes important for that radical feminism of the second wave. The second is this idea of his argument of knowledge is power, that you cannot separate conceptual categories from power. That becomes important also in the intellectual movement called Postmodernism, which is represented in figures like Jacques Laclau and Derrida.

- 7.43 And what is this sort of tradition telling us? Well, it's essentially saying if you take a category like male-female, gay-straight, criminal-non-criminal, deviant, mentally ill versus mentally well, that these are all social constructs. So there's nothing automatically, there's nothing innate that would allow you to distinguish between someone who is insane and sane. So Foucault is arguing that these are all just arbitrary cultural inventions in a way. And more than that, the Postmodernists are arguing that these words like male, female, black, white, sane, insane, don't have concrete empirical reference. So these words are just words. They just float. Their meanings are arbitrary. We can change their meanings. They don't actually refer to concrete things in the material world or concrete phenomena.
- 7.44 And so what that then means is, it's all about who has the power to make these categories, decide who is a criminal, who is insane, who is deviant sexually. That is all shot through with power relations. So all of knowledge, the creation of all these categories—male, female, black, white, criminal, non-criminal —those are all arbitrary cultural constructions. Whereas the social science worldview, the Karl Popper worldview, would say, "Well, no, actually, these words have developed to describe actual phenomena in the real world just the way they do in the physical world."
- 7.45 We wouldn't describe—if we say tiger and lion, we wouldn't say that those are social constructs, that in fact, we could define a lion as a cat. We would tend to accept, at least in the natural world, that there are real phenomena that correspond to these words. And similarly, the social scientific approach, traditional social scientific approach, would say that the same is true for social phenomena, that we can distinguish between gender and race and ethnicity and nation as separate concepts, referring to separate parts of the social world. And similarly, male and female and criminal and non-criminal refer to concrete things that can be measured, that are clusters of variables, different values of variables, that cluster together in non-random ways in the real world. So there is a real underpinning to these words, and people agree on the meaning of these words to a large extent.
- 7.46 That would be the counterargument to this argument that says, "No, these words have been established by powerful elites to achieve power, or the category male, female, sane, insane." It's not just the sane people wanting to deviantize the insane in order to exploit them somehow or give themselves a sense of superiority. Actually, those do refer to real social phenomena. Whereas the Postmodernist claim would be, "No, words—like even in a sentence, a word would only take its meaning from the other words around it." But an individual word, you can't pluck that word out and have it refer to something that is concrete in the social world.
- 7.47 That would be the Postmodernist argument. "This is a set of signifiers," what they would call signifiers. They're just floating around and are not related to anything real in the world. And so it then becomes, the meaning of a word comes down to who has power to decide the meaning of that word. And what that then leads to is a desire to

criticize and deconstruct these constructions. They think that these categories, like male-female, it's all about male oppressing female. There's always an oppressive relationship in any category. And therefore, the aim is to deconstruct, pull apart, expose the power that underlies this oppressor-oppressed relationship that underlies all of these categories. And so the drive is going to be towards erasing categories and upending categories and liberating yourself from categories.

7.48 So that in a nutshell, and we could teach a whole course on this, but that in a nutshell is the Postmodern project. It's liberation from group boundaries, and it's viewing a power hierarchy underpinning all of these knowledge categories. And so similarly, you could say the gender binary, male-female, is underpinned by a power relationship—because you can't have categories without power relationships, according to this argument.

7.49 I mentioned Simone de Beauvoir as a precursor, who in her book, *The Second Sex*, 1949, coming from this existentialist school of post-war French leftist thought, which is not Postmodernism yet, but has a strong social constructionist, has a certain social constructionist flavor to it. So de Beauvoir argues, "One is not born but becomes a woman." That's a very blank slate view, right? So you are not born a woman. There's nothing natural given from your biology about being a woman. It's something that's, a role that society constructs for you, which again puts the emphasis on culture and nurture and construction. And that comes to be influential also, therefore, in radical feminism of the second and subsequent third waves, which we'll come to in a minute.

7.50 So we're in the third wave of feminism, although some would argue that there is a lot of overlap between second, second wave radical feminism and third wave feminism. Third wave feminism, however, has a few distinctive features. The emphasis on the politics of difference on queer theory and trans feminism. Not to say that all third wave feminism is queer theory or trans feminism, but these are new offshoots within third wave feminism. And so they've been influenced by identity politics movements in the late '60s new left, concrete new social movements. It could be for black rights, gay rights, etc.

7.51 And some of the strands that influence the new left include third worldist socialism. So this is the new form of socialism that comes out of all of those independence movements, those movements breaking away from the British and French and other European empires to achieve independence in the 1950s and '60s. That's seen as one source of energy and resistance to the system. And then you have a series of movements for indigenous rights, the black civil rights movement, the gay rights movement, and feminist movements of the post-1960s period.

7.52 So this ferment of on-the-ground social movements and on-the-ground independence movements—that's providing a lot of the energy for new left thinking. The new left is reconceptualizing what it means to be on the left in light of these movements. And that's clearly taking the left away from the white working class towards racial, sexual minorities and feminism.

- 7.53** One strand of feminism then takes the ideas of Foucault and seeks to transgress the male-female boundary. So if the oppression is woven into that male-female boundary, we want to actually erase that, deconstruct that boundary. And that's where liberation lies for the marginalized. It's to get rid of this male-female boundary. And you can see where that's been leading us, towards trans feminism and the idea of people changing their genders. Because if it's just a cultural construct, you can opt in, opt out of that construct.
- 7.54** Queer theory, which is more about sexuality—and again, it's the same Foucauldian principle that there is normal sexuality and deviant sexuality. For Foucault, who wrote about this explicitly as a gay individual himself, again he would see that as something that is a societal construct. It's not rooted in anything biological and real. It's simply arbitrary. In another place or time, you would have a different sexual morality and a different set of sexual categories. So again, that's something that was constructed and therefore can be deconstructed, taken apart.
- 7.55** And then we have this term intersectionality, which stems from a meeting of black feminists in the 1970s, which focuses very much on, to put it crudely, the idea of oppression points. You are black, you are oppressed for being black, and you're a woman. You're oppressed for being a woman, so you have twice as much, not only twice as much oppression by adding the one to the other, but you might actually, as a black woman, be even more oppressed than if you were just black, a black male or a white woman. And so this idea of intersectionality, that the combination of disadvantaged categories then leads you to be especially disadvantaged.
- 7.56** What that also means is that if you're a feminist, you've also got to be an anti-racist, you've also got to be an anti-homophobe, an anti-transphobe, etc. You have to be an ally in all these dimensions of oppression. And so that is a different focus than in the earlier wave of feminism.
- 7.57** As I mentioned, much of this is radically blank slate, emphasizing social construction, obviously deemphasizing biology and evolutionary psychology. But it's not the only strand. There is another group of feminists, another group of radical feminists, who focus on how women are actually, no, biologically different and psychologically different. And that's a big difference from saying that actually women's psychological difference is simply a social construct, and actually, they're not biologically at all different. So this is a different emphasis.
- 7.58** And those difference feminists, as opposed to the more trans feminist approach, the difference feminists would argue that female characteristics are different than male, and they are superior, and they're superior for society. So being caring, more creative, more empathetic, these female characteristics are things that we need to move towards. Society needs to move towards. And therefore, women need to be protected from this retrograde male society. So we need female-only spaces and separation of women from men. And that's, of course, an emphasis on nature over nurture. It's anti

the idea of blank slate, which was the dominant emphasis in this whole social constructionist, Postmodernist-influenced feminism.

- 7.59** Let's just look a little bit at that difference feminism for a minute. Some of the claims in this literature include that normal heterosexual sexual relations constitute a, quote, "ideology of rape." So there's a rejection of conventional male-female sexual relations. Men are conceived as a sex class akin to Marxist class analysis. So men as a sex class who are physically and sexually abusing women. And that means that conventional heterosexual relationships and families become inherently oppressive and something that needs to be overthrown. Now, while the movement extols women's capacity for motherhood and fertility and womanhood, so it's an essentialist feminism; at the same time it embraces separatism that women should separate. They are superior. They should separate.
- 7.60** It's an ideology of femaleness and female culture that women need to retreat, develop their own woman-centered culture and lifestyle. And this manifests as political lesbianism —people becoming lesbian by choice, by political choice, and really identifying men as an enemy. So this is another strand in this radical feminism, which leans into women's biological differences. And so it's a more nature-based, rather than nurture-based, conception of oppression.
- 7.61** And so we then get these sets of tensions between liberal feminism of the first and second wave, but also a kind of feminism that seeks androgyny to break down the gender divide, to make men and women less different—androgyny—as opposed to that radical difference feminism, which wants to lean into the essential, biological, psychological characteristics of women.
- 7.62** An emphasis on gender equality in liberal feminism is being replaced by an emphasis on sexual liberation, the liberation of women from oppressive patriarchal structures, often a revolutionary liberation. Instead of removing differences, celebrating differences. Instead of transcending biology, embracing biology. Now, I don't want to suggest here that the liberal feminism—this comes from the Heywood text—that this liberal feminism is not radical. So pursuit of androgyny, making women like men, men like women, abolishing the difference between the sexes—that actually, as we saw, can be very radical. Trans feminism would fall under this side of the ledger. So I don't want you to suggest that this is a sort of incremental liberal feminism. It's actually got some radical elements in it as well. But this illustrates a divide between that kind of radical difference feminism and what might be a radical androgynous type of feminism.
- 7.63** And that then takes us forward to very contemporary debates, for example, around the trans issue. Trans activism stems from the work of feminists like Judith Butler, who would be falling more on that androgynous side of this debate, would tend to come out of the Foucault Postmodernist tradition, which tends to view gender or even sex, as a social construct, as culturally driven. It's all nature, it's all blank slate. If that's the case, then if somebody is male and wants to become female, since this is an arbitrary social

construct anyway, it's not rooted in biology, it's just a gender role, a sex role, whatever, then why not? That should be allowed. That's liberating, and that's anti-oppression. That's fighting against power systems, systems of oppression.

7.64 And so the Judith Butler approach, rooted in those social constructionist theories, would say, "Yeah, we should, in order to fight for social justice, we should affirm—We should affirm trans women's right to access women's spaces, women's sports, women's toilets, women's shelters, women's prisons." And Foucault would have said, "Who is a criminal and who is not a criminal is in the eye of the beholder, and it's a power construct, anyway." So yeah, it would logically follow then that you would affirm the right of trans women to enter women's-only spaces.

7.65 There's another aspect to this as well, which has to do with intersectionality, the intersection of different categories of oppression, such as women, homosexual, racial minority, and such. So under the intersectional paradigm, the more intersecting lines of categorical oppression you have, in some ways, the more oppressed you are, the more priority you should have in this new left order. So if you are a trans woman, arguably you are experiencing more othering, more exclusion, than a conventional heterosexual woman. So the argument there is, in a way, the trans woman has more oppression points than the heterosexual woman. And again, that would mean the rights or the wants and wishes of the trans woman to enter women's sport, women's prison, etc., trumps the wishes of heterosexual women for them not to be allowed in.

7.66 That would, I think, follow also from this power analysis, this intersectional power analysis, that is associated with that social constructionist school of feminism. Now, against the social constructionist feminism, of which trans feminism is one strand of that social constructionist feminism and that intersectional feminism, you have the difference feminists who would tend to say—like Kathleen Stock. Now, Kathleen Stock is an enlightenment, is not a radical difference feminist. She's a someone who believes in social science, in analytic philosophy, logic, etc. But still, she would tend to cleave to the different side of the equation in so far as she would argue that women's biology—XX chromosomes versus XY chromosomes, gametes, etc.—is very important. And studies have shown that female psychology has a different distribution.

7.67 It's not to say that women are entirely different, but there is a different distribution of psychological traits that are associated with the role of testosterone, etc. So you can't get away from biology and sex as an essential feature of human categorization. And no, that's not simply a social construct. And according to that view, because there is a real basis to a term like woman or man, it's not something simply fungible that somebody can opt into culturally. And so even though someone could be feminine, they would be a feminine man, or if they're a masculine woman, they're still a woman.

7.68 And hence we get into the debate between the more gender—what are called gender-critical feminists and the more trans feminists over these questions. And this is, of course, a big political issue now in terms of, also, should children in school be

instructed in this philosophy or in that philosophy? And because of this intersectionality, this idea of, to put it crudely, oppression points with trans having a higher score, arguably in radical left circles, than heterosexual women, the emphasis in progressive education would tend to fall on this side of the ledger.

- 7.69** And this is one of the reasons you get the introduction of radical gender ideology in schools in Western countries. In a majority of U.S. schools, for example, in surveys, children will have heard of at least one radical, either radical gender ideology term or radical feminist term, like patriarchy or the idea that gender is something separate from sex. So you can choose your gender independently of your sex. These are ideas that are now very widespread in the school system in, particularly English-speaking countries. So that kind of frames some of the battles now over access to women's-only spaces.
- 7.70** To conclude then, I've talked about the history of feminism, the first wave, the suffragettes who were seeking equal voting rights, equal rights to education, and later to accessing the workplace as men. We talked about liberal feminism, which is more incrementalist, more seeking women's liberation. Then socialist feminism, which tends to see gender inequality through a class lens, through a Marxist lens, that believes that we need to have socialist revolution economically, remove the capitalist system in order to achieve gender equality.
- 7.71** We then moved to talk about two forms of radical feminism, equality or trans. Trans is not the right word. Social constructionist equality feminism, which sees the difference between men and women as socially constructed and therefore seeks a more androgynous social order versus difference feminism, which is a form of radical feminism that sees women as essentially different from men, and that that is in some ways a superior form of social organization to the patriarchal order.
- 7.72** We talked about reformist liberal strands versus revolutionary strands in the feminist movement. Some feminists want to withdraw from the world, separate into a sisterhood, a female-only culture. So we have that quietest withdrawal versus the more activist "let's reform politics, let's reform mainstream politics." We see this quietest activist distinction in many other different ideologies as well, such as religious fundamentalism. There are quietest Salafi Muslims, and there are Salafi Muslims who want to get involved in politics in a revolutionary way.
- 7.73** That led us into the difference between equality feminism and difference feminism then is transposed onto the current debate between trans feminism and gender-critical feminism over access of those who've transitioned or who identify as women but are biologically male—their right to enter women's spaces becoming a flashpoint. We also have, and I haven't talked a lot about this, but there are various forms of conservative backlash to these movements in feminism over time, to the first wave, to the second wave, and so on. So there are these conservative backlashes to these waves of feminism as well.

7.74 And just to recap, feminism should be thought of as focused on one particular domain and one particular group, which is women. So it is a thin ideology, but it can be sort of paired with a number of thicker ideologies. So we have a socialist feminism. We can have a liberal feminism. We can have a new left form of feminism. And with that, I end.

Lecture 8: Anti-Racism

At a glance — Anti-racism as a relatively recent ideology.

- 8.1 All right, we're back. Last but not least, anti-racism as an ideology. And of course, this is also a relatively specific domain. We're looking at race and as one component of a broader ideological sphere. So this is going to be a thinner or a thin ideology, and not a sort of thick, complex ideology like socialism or liberalism or conservatism. So a thin ideology. I'm going to begin by talking about race and racism, and then move to talking about the ideology of anti-racism as well.
- 8.2 So the first thing to say about race and racism is there's an absolutely enormous literature. We could have entire courses. So this will have to be a very sort of potted tour of some of this literature. And the first thing to say is the term "race" refers to phenotypical characteristics, like hair style and skin color and eye color and so on. It's worth saying that there's a whole discussion about, "Is race a social construct?" I don't think it is controversial to say that blue eyes tend to be found—blue eyes and blonde hair as a combination is more common than, and white skin, is more common than blue eyes, black skin, for example. So there are certain clusterings of certain traits that cluster together.
- 8.3 However, that clustering of traits of hair color, eye color, skin, hair type, etc., tends to more or less be a continuum, rather than having sharp divisions. So you have this continuum of characteristics—lighter hair and eyes, as you go further north in Europe. As you go further south, darker hair and eyes, darker skin, etc. So even though we do have a sort of naturally occurring clustering of certain phenotypical characteristics, the cutoff points, the boundary lines between races, are arguably socially constructed.
- 8.4 Now, of course, in some cases, you do have natural barriers, like the Sahara Desert or the Atlantic Ocean, which perhaps may help to demarcate groups. But it's also worth saying that it's very clearly the case that a lot of the races involve cutoff lines that are socially constructed rather than rooted in genes, even though there can be racial differences. Racial difference, arguably, is not socially constructed, but races are.
- 8.5 There are also a number of other characteristics. And some experiments have shown that if you take faces, and you can actually, with computer generation, you can alter the characteristics of faces and present these to people and ask them to categorize these faces. And it is the case that, for example, a Japanese person who moves to the United States will, after a while, make it—identify certain faces differently as being white or East Asian than they would in Japan.
- 8.6 So there's a certain degree to which there's a fungibility in the identification of group, of individuals as being in one race or another. So there's definitely a fluidity and a social constructed nature to races. And this is some, some people have said that also different kinds of dress, different kinds of language, also can affect how people are racially

categorized. So racial categories have a socially constructed character to them, even though race has clustering of phenotypical characteristics, is in fact rooted in biology.

- 8.7** We talked about nationalism, and I just want to return to the concept of the ethnic group, because one of the questions is going to be, how is ethnicity and race—how are ethnicity and race related? Are they different? Are they similar? It's worth just talking about that briefly. So we encountered the idea of the ethnic group, which is essentially a community that believes itself to be of common ancestry and that has one or more elements of culture, in broad terms, that differentiates it from another group.
- 8.8** Now that can be, as in the case of Serbs, Croats, and Bosnian Muslims, it can be a religious difference. It can be a linguistic difference as well. In the Baltic, between Estonians, Latvians, and Lithuanians, these are linguistic differences. Religion doesn't matter that much. Or it can be phenotype or race. In the American South, you have two English-speaking Protestant groups. One's white, one's black. They are separate ethnic groups demarcated by a—race is serving as a boundary marker between those two ethnic groups, just the way religion serves as a boundary marker between Serb and Croat.
- 8.9** OK, now, sometimes you can get multiple elements together, groups that look different, have a different religion, and have a different language, but generally, they will have fewer than those three traits, but just one of those traits. So there's an intersection then between race and ethnicity, insofar as race can sometimes serve as a boundary marker between ethnicity groups.
- 8.10** The other thing is that ethnicity is based on subjective belief in common ancestry. Yes, ethnic boundaries are marked out by particular cultural markers, like religion, language, or race. Now, the other thing to say is that this term race was the term that was used to describe ethnicity. The term ethnic group dates from about 1960. And prior to 1960, people spoke of different ethnic groups as different races. So that's just to confuse you even more.
- 8.11** Now, today, the way I would theorize this is, if you think of an onion, race being the highest, the outer skin of the onion. So it is the sort of largest unit. It amalgamates ethnic groups into a larger whole. So you have, for example, if we were to take white Americans, that's amalgamating Irish and German and Jews and others into this supra-ethnic. So supra just means the level above. It's a category above the ethnic group. Now, you can have other kinds of supra-ethnic categories, like all Christian groups, all Muslim groups, or you can have all Spanish-speaking groups. We can call them Hispanic. That's a sort of language-based supra-ethnic category that includes Cubans and Dominicans and others.
- 8.12** But we're going to talk about race on the basis of physical characteristics. It's a supra-ethnic category. White, black, East Asian, etc. Now, there are all kinds of questions around people of mixed background. How blurry are the boundaries? Could we have a

totally different set of categories? Middle Eastern—are they, are Arabs white? There are all these questions that we can have, and so there's definitely a social constructiveness to how these categories emerge. So when I talk about race, you should think in terms of supra-ethnic —groups categorized on the basis of physical appearance.

- 8.13** Now, what about racism? Racism, then, would be a sense of hatred between groups, sense of superiority of one group over another. Could be discrimination in the workplace on the basis of race. So that would be racism. But we also have this thing called ethnic chauvinism. If Estonians really dislike Russians living in Estonia, are we going to call that racism? Is that racism against ethnic Russians by the ethnic Estonians? The term that I would prefer to use in that case would be ethnic chauvinism, that it is one group that has antipathy towards another on the basis that they are a different ethnic group.
- 8.14** Now, that could be delineated by that group—Russian having a different language, having a different religion, not looking different. And arguably, that's ethnic chauvinism. Now, if the group looks different, then we can talk about racism. So could be whites and blacks in South Africa or the southern U.S., or it could be even Hutu and Tutsi, although arguably the actual physical differences aren't as complete. But there are stereotypes about what a Hutu—you know, Hutu is shorter, flatter nose, Tutsi taller, more angular nose. Those are stereotypes. There's been a lot of mixing over time, but typically with racism, arguably, you need to have some element of physical appearance at work, but not always.
- 8.15** Sort of make it a bit more complicated, it could be the case that a group actually looks similar. Maybe the Hutu and Tutsi—I mean, let's just imagine that physically they were identical, and you couldn't tell one apart from the other. But people kind of racialize. You're a Tutsi and you actually imagine that the Hutus are a different race. You imagine they are inferior biologically, psychologically, and their mentality. So that is a kind of racialization of a group. And that also, I think, would qualify as racism.
- 8.16** Perhaps Jews in Germany or in eastern Europe, anti-Semitism —Jew may not necessarily look different, but they can be viewed stereotypically as being biologically different and inferior. Another group would be the Irish in Britain or in the United States. I mean, there were some cartoons in the 19th century of the Irish as kind of white chimpanzees. Is that similarly a kind of racializing of an ethnic group? So the Harvard sociologist Orlando Patterson says that even the Vikings were racialized. And so there's this concept of racialization, which is another aspect. It's coming closer to ethnic chauvinism. But I think we've got to distinguish ethnic chauvinism from racism, while allowing that some forms of ethnic antipathy have this racializing element which puts them into the racist box.
- 8.17** So here's an example, perhaps from Benjamin Franklin in the mid 18th century. Franklin is English, and he's talking about the Swedes and Germans as having "a swarthy

complexion," so Swedes and Germans not being white the way the English are white. Now we might say, "Well, OK, there are some differences. Perhaps the average Swedish, the average German, looks a bit different from the average English. But surely the differences aren't large enough to be really talking about Swedes and Germans as a separate race." But that's an example of racialization, and that would fall under the definition of racism, because the Swedes and Germans are being racialized as being racially different from the English.

- 8.18** Moving forward then, to the 19th century, and we have the rise of scientific racism, which I've already spoken about a little bit. And this is a sort of systematic classification of the peoples of the world on the basis of race. And this is meant to include not just surface characteristics, but those surface characteristics are supposed to also be connected to mental and physical characteristics. And you classify groups as superior or inferior. And these race theorists would talk back and forth.
- 8.19** So, Arthur de Gobineau—sometimes they'd say, "Yeah, the Nordic are the superior race." Others would say, "Well, no, if you mix a Nordic with an Alpine, you get something that's even better." And they have these sorts of discussions around which races were superior. There was a lot of social construction going on, a lot of quite shoddy science.
- 8.20** So, for example, the measuring of skulls. Measuring skulls is a scientific activity. But what happened in, let's say, the U.S. case is they measured the skulls of immigrant groups. Instead of measuring the skull sizes of the children of immigrants, groups that were born in America, the children of immigrant groups born in America had the same sort of skull sizes as the sort of white Anglo-Protestant Americans. But immigrants coming from poorer countries had smaller skulls. But of course, that was then used to say, "Well, they're less intelligent," and to create these kinds of hierarchies. So it was really very much a shoddy, pseudoscientific approach.
- 8.21** In any case, this is sort of the history of scientific racism in the 19th century, which goes forward and informs eugenics policies even in the early 20th century. So it was used in the U.S. case for classifying different European ethnic groups to decide who was undesirable and who was desirable to be admitted into the U.S. in the sort of 1910s and 20s.
- 8.22** I've talked about race and racism. What about anti-racism? We have in liberalism—liberalism is not just concerned with the rights of the individual against the state or the king, and the desire to sort of carve out a sphere of natural rights for the individual. There is also an element in liberalism that is concerned about tyranny of the majority, tyranny of the established norms, of the established religion. And so part of liberalism is about toleration, a tradition of toleration of religious minorities.
- 8.23** Now, initially, what that meant was the established church in England is Anglican. What do we do with these Methodists and Baptists, these dissenters? Still Protestant, but

dissenters. Do we give them the same rights? Are they allowed to have their marriages solemnized, etc.? Are they allowed to vote? All these things were the subject in the 17th, 18th, 19th century. Similarly, the rights of Catholics in Protestant countries—do they have the same rights in Britain? They got the same rights in 1829. Jewish enlightenment, Jewish rights. Do Jews have to live in a ghetto, as occurred in the Middle Ages in many European countries, or are they allowed to move freely and live where they want? Are they allowed to participate in public life? Are they allowed to own land? All of these rights which weren't accorded to them until beginning in the late 18th century in western Europe.

- 8.24** So the religious toleration movement, and we have a picture here of William Penn, founder of Pennsylvania, a Quaker, who believed in the idea of toleration. Very much so. Pennsylvania was this relatively tolerant place. Relationships—there were a range of different groups, German-speaking and English-speaking and others. So Penn's colony was known for its toleration.
- 8.25** And then moving forward to the 18th century, we have the rise of the anti-slavery movement. Now, this is a movement that seeks to end the slave trade and eventually abolish the ownership of slaves. It starts in the 18th century, is inspired to some extent by evangelical Protestant Christianity, but also by liberalism and enlightenment liberalism as well. That's an anti-racist movement. You get in the U.S., of course, there was a civil war fought over slavery. William Lloyd Garrison. There was a wing of the abolitionists. Of course, abolitionism was strong in the north as opposed to the south. But even within the north, most abolitionists did not believe in equal civil rights for black Americans. And many abolitionists, many people who were anti-slavery, also thought it would naturally be the case that black people in America should go back to Africa once slavery was abolished. That was a strong view, the colonizationist view.
- 8.26** Now then you had some, however, some radical abolitionists who were much more in favor of equal black rights and the integration of black people into American life, one of whom was William Lloyd Garrison, pictured on the right. We moving forward, 1870. I mentioned the vote last time, that black American men get the vote in 1870. So this is a big step for black rights. And so we have a kind of anti-racist movement insofar as the abolition of slavery, civil rights, the vote for black people, and then the founding in 1908 of the National Association for the Advancement of Colored People. Now, what's interesting about the NAACP in 1908 is you have certain figures, certain white figures, who are founders of the NAACP, and there are also black founder members.
- 8.27** Among the white founder members, there is the odd socialist, but that is not the predominant strand within the NAACP. And the socialists that did join the NAACP were viewed by the Socialist Party of America, which was actually reasonably popular—I mean, I'm not saying this was a major strand of American life, but the Socialist Party of America was a conventionally economic Marxist socialist movement. Not so much Marxist, but it was definitely a believer in the materialist basis of socialism.

- 8.28** And their view on the NAACP and black rights was that this was bourgeois, and this was not really what socialism should be about. So most socialists in Europe and America were not concerned with black rights. That was not part of what socialists did. And if anything, somehow there was this view that actually these people are going to retard the socialist revolution. We don't necessarily want to go in the direction of anti-racism. So anti-racism was primarily and principally a liberal rather than a socialist movement in this period.
- 8.29** You have other liberal movements as well, such as the ecumenical movement in Protestantism. This is seeking to surmount the Catholic-Protestant divide, which was a very important division in the West and in the United States as well. Not until John F. Kennedy, that was the first Catholic president of 1960. And in the 1920s, there were some very strong anti-Catholic movements, as there were in the 1890s as well. So the ecumenical movement is actually kind of a liberalizing movement, seeking to sort of destigmatize Catholics and Catholic ethnic groups.
- 8.30** That was also the position of the liberal progressive movement, which is a strand of the turn-of-the-century progressive movement as well, which was liberal on ethnicity, but not necessarily on race. So somebody like Jane Addams, who was very prominent in terms of saying, "America has to become more open to Poles and Jews and Irish, and we have to stop thinking of America as just an Anglo-Protestant country." So a very humane attitude to immigrant groups, but a very different attitude to African Americans, actually showing some sympathy for Southerners who engaged in lynching. So this is just to say the politics is not coterminous to the way it is today. These strands didn't all fit together the way they do now.
- 8.31** Socialism I mentioned did not really focus very much on anti-racism until after World War One. And even then, it wasn't the main strand in the movement. If we fast forward then to the civil rights movement in America in the 1950s and 60s, we have a number of different milestones, the first of which is the desegregation of the U.S. military by Harry Truman in 1948. The development of, at the state level, of some equal employment opportunity commissions that investigated racial discrimination. 1954, Brown versus Board of Education. So that gets rid of the idea of separate but equal schools. So this idea was that you couldn't have segregation of schools.
- 8.32** 1955, Rosa Parks in the South. Now we're moving to the South, where Rosa Parks refuses to give up her seat for a white passenger. The buses, of course, in the South had—black people had to sit in the back of the bus and white people in the front of the bus. So now challenging—we have a challenging of southern segregation and some of these racial boundaries during the civil rights movement. And 1957 to '62, you have people coming from the north, Freedom Riders, that are trying to desegregate schools, universities. They're being met with violence by the Ku Klux Klan and other white supremacist organizations.

- 8.33** 1963. Martin Luther King, who is leader of the civil rights movement, has the march on Washington and is successful in gaining sympathy and support, and certainly support from politicians. The Civil Rights Act passes in 1964. It's passed by the Democrats. But, and again, showing you how politics was different, actually there was more support from Republicans than from Democrats. Why? Partly because the Democrats were also the party of the white South.
- 8.34** And so the Democrats very much relied on Republican votes to get the Civil Rights Act through, and the Voting Rights Act. So this means essentially equal rights for black people and end to segregation in public spaces. Voting Rights Act is getting rid of the poll taxes and literacy tests that have been used to keep black people from voting in the South. So this is the civil rights movement. This has got very little to do with socialism. The driving force behind the civil rights movement is liberalism and sort of, sort of a Protestant Christian kind of evangelical movement, particularly the black church.
- 8.35** So anti-racism then is about achieving equal rights, equal voting rights, equal civil rights. And that's an individual level analysis. I, as a black individual, want the same rights as a white individual, to enter a university, to go to a certain school, to have employment and whatnot. That's a very individualistic, liberal conception of rights. What we see then, after 1965, is a shift in the nature of anti-racism. It's no longer about "we want equal rights as individuals." It's going to move towards equal results, equal outcomes, and it's going to move away from an individual-level analysis of "I as an individual and being discriminated against by that racist person" to this idea of racism without racists.
- 8.36** Well, there are no individuals who are expressing direct racism, but there are these more diffuse structures, quote unquote, "that are leading to unequal results." And so there are these systems, or systemic—these systems of discrimination, what we call systemic discrimination or structural discrimination, even if we don't see old-style individual-level racism anymore.
- 8.37** This is Lyndon Johnson. In 1965, he gave a speech at a historically black college, Howard University, and he's saying, "Well, you don't just take a person who's been hobbled by chains, liberate him, and expect him to compete with the others. We seek not just freedom, but opportunity, not just equality as a right, but equality as a result." So, moving from equal rights and equal opportunities to equality of outcomes and results. Now, that was just a speech. And the words "affirmative action" meant originally equal opportunities, not equal outcomes, and not fixed representation in contracting and in university places and such. But it evolves to become that very quickly.
- 8.38** And so we have a number of things that happen at the level of the courts and at the level of the new civil rights bureaucracy, the EEOC, the Equal Employment Opportunities Commission, and the Office of Federal Contract Compliance. These are

two offices of—these are two civil rights bureaucracies staffed by bureaucrats who believe very much in the mission not just of equal opportunities, but actually of equal results. Now to be fair, to be fair to these bureaucrats in the new civil rights system, it's often very difficult to tackle individual-level discrimination.

- 8.39** So it could be the case, and it was the case in contracting, for example. In construction, like in a city like Philadelphia, the construction industry was essentially a series of personal relationships dominated by certain white ethnic groups, like the Italians, who would tend to hire their own. But you could always make up some excuse for why you wouldn't hire a black person. And so in that context of really quite open racial discrimination, there was a shift towards the use of quotas, because you couldn't fake a quota and couldn't come up with an excuse why you didn't meet a quota. The problem, however, is when you move to a quota, now it may be that that's the only way you can cut through the individual-level discrimination initially. But if those quotas then become solidified, it may be that a group shouldn't be represented at its share of the population in construction contracts.
- 8.40** Maybe they should be. Maybe they should be higher or lower. Once you fix it at a certain percentage, you're no longer allowing sort of natural interests, aptitudes, to be expressed as percentages. So it's clearly not the case that we would expect the National Basketball Association, the National Hockey League, to have exactly the same racial makeup. It would be very artificial to say that they should have the same makeup or should reflect some kind of population basis. And so once we get into equal outcomes on the basis of targets and quotas, we're moving away from that idea of equal opportunities, anti-racism, and the racism of individuals that we're trying to surmount to this more sort of nebulous concept of systemic racism, which is much more difficult to verify or prove or measure, or at least some would argue that it's more difficult.
- 8.41** So we have minority targets with the EEOC, and we also have the concept of disparate impact. So if a policy has the result of, let us say, let us say you have an aptitude test, or you have a test requirement for a job or a SAT requirement, an SAT score for admission to universities. Now, if you institute this policy and it leads to fewer African Americans in your workforce, fewer African Americans in your university, that is known as a disparate impact of the policy. And according to the evolution of civil rights law, that now becomes something that is not permissible.
- 8.42** It is interpreted by relatively liberal courts in the direction of, you can't have disparate impact. So, quote, "This prohibits employers from using a facially neutral employment practice." So in a practice such as a test which appears on its surface, that is facially neutral but results in inequality of outcomes, is something that is seen as indirectly discriminatory. We also get the rise, then, of affirmative action, which happens as a result of a number of things. One is the activity of the EEOC and the OFCCP. These are the civil rights bureaucracies. But also, cynically, Richard Nixon, who's a Republican, who's really not in favor of these ideas, nevertheless sees affirmative action as a way to

break the unions. These are predominantly white, working class, northern-based unions. And so the Philadelphia Plan, which mandates these affirmative action quotas, is arguably stemming also from a cynical ploy by the Republican Party.

- 8.43** But then we have a series of—so affirmative action becomes institutionalized in contracting, and we start to see it in university admissions as well. But then there are a series of court cases which start to try and delimit affirmative action. Say, "Well, you can use race, but you can't blatantly have quotas and have reserved fixed percentages for minorities." And that was the outcome of the Regents of the University of California vs. Bakke case of 1978. There's a 1995 Supreme Court case which says, "Well, affirmative action quotas are only something that you can use when it is in a—you have to demonstrate a compelling government interest to have affirmative action in contracting."
- 8.44** 1997 court case does uphold the California ban on the use of racial preferences. California had held a referendum outlawing affirmative action in university admissions. That was upheld by the courts in 1997. In 2003, University of Michigan, or I don't know if it was Michigan State, but University of Michigan case, which further delimits the use of affirmative action. Diversity becomes the rationale. So universities are not allowed to pursue affirmative action to rectify injustices of the past. They're allowed to pursue it, however, to give a bit of diversity. And that's an allowable educational mission, to sort of give plus points for race.
- 8.45** Now, of course, universities then are using this more or less to engineer a certain racial mix on campus. We've had very recently, the Harvard vs. Students for Fair Admissions case, which further restricts the ambit of affirmative action. It allows, however, universities to use processes of admission, such as essays, whereby candidates are allowed to say, "Well, part of my life experience is overcoming discrimination." So one of the concerns is, amongst opponents of affirmative action, is that's a loophole which universities can use to essentially re engineer a kind of quota system, more or less to maintain the same racial mix as they had before, but under the guise, done not through giving points directly for diversity, but giving points for these personal statements which mention diverse characteristics.
- 8.46** And this is all happening, then, in the context of a culture, particularly a left, which is shifting from class to identity. So the cultural turn of the left, post-1960s, the rise of the new left, the demise of the old left, the switch from the old Marxist class analysis to the new left identity group-based analysis, is the context also in which we're seeing the rise of affirmative action, disparate impact, and so forth, a new kind of anti-racism.
- 8.47** And so Fredric Jameson's cultural turn is pointing to this, as is Eric Hobsbawm, who's an old Marxist leftist, saying that since the 1970s there's been a tendency to see the left as a coalition of minority groups in interests, race, gender, sexual identities, or other cultural preferences and lifestyles. Hobsbawm was actually decrying this trend as an old leftist. He's viewing this as fragmenting the left, and that the left should actually behind

some unified vision of making society more —cohering around social reform and social justice.

- 8.48** And there are also a series of new culture wars, if you like, that are opening up in the U.S. and to some extent in other Western countries. When I was at university and entering academia, the debates were in the U.S. around bilingual or multicultural education versus English language-only education. So there were provisions in American law for education in more than one language. With the growth of the Hispanic population in the U.S., substantial rise from several, maybe 2% in 1960 to about 12% or thereabouts in the 1980s and 90s, suddenly this becomes a big issue because are we going to provide bilingual Spanish-English education? And that was actually a culture war issue. You had 25 U.S. states adopt English-only legislation that said English is the official language of our state. And that happens partly through referendas, partly through conservative states adopting English-only legislation.
- 8.49** So there was that debate. You had the ongoing affirmative action debate, which was becoming more contentious actually in the 80s and 90s. And you saw those court cases where suddenly this was more of a battle between right and left, and it was drawn into the political system. You had a rising concern over immigration, particularly illegal immigration, entering politics in the 1990s. In particular, we—Proposition 187 in California, 1994, the beginning of this debate over immigration. So some of these cultural issues are rising up the agenda, and the older economic left-right issues, particularly at the end of the Cold War, starting to fade from the agenda.
- 8.50** Political correctness. This is a term that emerges at the end of the 1980s, early 1990s. And in a number of U.S. universities, all of a sudden, at the end of the 80s, early 90s, they all start writing these speech codes about what you're allowed to say or not say on campus. And these speech codes are almost universally found to be unconstitutional violations of people's right to freedom of expression. So the speech code movement and political correctness also takes off in this period.
- 8.51** And all of this is also related to developments in intellectual anti-racist thinking, which brings us to critical race theory. If we go back to the late 1960s new left—in the new left, of course, in the 1960s, you had sit-ins and protests against the Vietnam War, but also protests against racism, demands by black students. If we take the case of the University of San Francisco, 1968, black students struck—they called it the Third World Strike —demanded 50 black professors, demanded racial studies department, etc. And in a lot of racial studies, Africana studies—that grows out of activist movements, demanding courses, demanding minority professorships. And so it has activist origins.
- 8.52** The Black Panthers had a critique of the American constitution in the late 1960s, arguing that the constitution was a smokescreen for white supremacy and slavery. And so already you had then this radical new left tradition of seeing American law as being illegitimate in a way. That's then given an academic expression by critical legal studies, the work of Derrick Bell at Harvard, who took a very cynical view of not only the

American constitution, but also the Emancipation Proclamation, freeing of slaves; also the civil rights movement, Brown vs. Board of Education. He viewed all of these as cynical ploys by a white elite to maintain power, and only because of what he called interest convergence. That is, it was only because it was in the interests of white capitalists or the white elite to free the slaves, to give black people, to get rid of segregation. That's the only reason that these things happened.

- 8.53** In critical legal theory, which emerges in the 1970s and 80s, Bell is arguing—Bell and some others are arguing that if we look at Supreme Court decisions and we look at the justifications and the lines of argument that they make, their claims to being universalist and principled actually fall apart. They're actually interpreting facts in a slanted, white supremacist way. Now, it's important to say that there are studies which do show that the ideology of court justices does affect their decision-making. So it's not completely insane to believe that people's attachments and beliefs will shape their judicial rulings.
- 8.54** However, the critics would say, "Well, you have to be able to prove that, and you have to be able to counter alternative explanations for those judicial decisions. We can't simply take a cynical view and assume a structure of white supremacist thinking is informing all of these decisions." So critical legal theory, then, is limited to legal scholarship in the 70s and 80s. Critical legal studies. That then goes on to influence other academic departments in the humanities and social sciences, so sociology, history, and philosophy.
- 8.55** And that brings us then to Critical Race Theory. This book is written in 2002, comes out of a series of workshops and conferences by almost entirely minority scholars who are scholar-activists openly. If you read the first chapter of Critical Race Theory, they're quite open about the idea that they're moving away from this idea of dispassionate knowledge and objective analytical logic. And they see this as an activist project that has been influenced and inspired not just by scholars, but also by concrete social movements.
- 8.56** And so what are the basics, then, of critical race theory? Well, the first is the idea that it's the white elite that is benefiting materially by dividing people on the basis of race. So white supremacy is an ideology that benefits the white elite, which is very similar to the idea of capitalism as an ideology which benefits the capitalist elite. The bourgeoisie, the ruling class in Marxism, divides the working class by the use of ethnicity, nation, religion, and so on. Similarly here, the white elite divides the working class on lines of race, benefiting itself materially. And the white elite kind of decides who is white and who is not —white being a social construct, according to critical race theory. I'll try and explain that in a minute.
- 8.57** The second part of critical race theory, however, is more kind of psychological—this idea of whiteness as a kind of matrix, an ideology you are kind of born into and socialized —not born into, but socialized into. So it's a kind of belief system that you

imbibe psychologically. And that sort of informs a lot of—whereas the material benefit to the white ruling class is behind a lot of the structural material analysis and critical race theory to do with incarceration, zoning of certain areas as being unsafe, and having to pay higher insurance. So what was known as redlining. Certain districts were redlined. You couldn't get a loan. Those districts were disproportionately black, although some critics would note that actually most of the people in the red line districts were actually white. But still, there's no question there was disproportionate black residents in the redline districts.

- 8.58** But this idea of material structures, but also psychological structures, and the term "unconscious bias" kind of refers to this idea that, unconsciously, this kind of psychological matrix, understanding something you absorb, you don't even realize you're in it, and, but unconsciously, you're being discriminatory. You don't realize you are. You unconsciously think you're superior to a black person. You don't realize you are. So this idea of unconscious bias, and that's upheld through certain cultural narratives, certain symbols. Could be certain statues. Could be the names of buildings. It could be, you know.
- 8.59** And that's coming out of Postmodernism, and the idea of knowledge is power and the power of culture. It's not a Marxist analysis. Marxism would very much focus on material goods, although it could be linked to second generation, more culturally oriented Marxists like Antonio Gramsci, who put a lot of emphasis on this idea of false consciousness and hegemony as a kind of belief system that the capitalist class created to kind of brainwash and hoodwink the working class into being loyal, docile subjects for capitalism.
- 8.60** In terms of the ideological origins of critical race theory, the first thing to note is that, well, the cultural left, the new left, is a big influence here, and that is seeing the world through a lens of power oppressors and oppressed. Every social relationship, every category, has really got a power valence to it. We saw that with Foucault's argument. And in the first chapter of critical race theory, they mention Foucault, they mention Derrida, Postmodernists; they mentioned Gramsci, that cultural Marxist, the sort of neo-Marxist who believed in this idea of hegemony, kind of false consciousness created by capitalists. So that's a sort of cultural version of the left which is influential intellectually in the critical race theory movement.
- 8.61** But it's not only the high intellectuals, the Foucaults and the Derridas, but also the critical race theorists are giving a lot of credit to concrete identity movements. Black power, gay liberation, Chicano movements, radical feminist movements—these concrete movements, radical movements, are also influential and inspiring for critical race theory. They are openly, avowedly, activist. They say, "We're not just intellectuals dispassionately trying to form theories and test out those theories." They're rejecting, in a way, that Popperian scientific tradition. They're moving away from objective,

positivist science and towards this more interpretivist, social constructionist view of the world.

8.62 And so in critical race theory, there's the idea that the white elite enriches itself. The white working class gets a psychic wage. They're being exploited just the way the black elite are. But the white working class at least gets to think of itself as superior to the black working class. So they get a certain psychological benefit, even though they're not getting anything materially much out of the deal. So you have that kind of material benefit for the white elite, the psychological benefit for the white working class. Each is benefiting from this system of oppression.

8.63 And you can see that there is both a material basis and a psychological, cultural basis to critical race theory. So materially, they say, "If the materialists are right, one needs to change the physical circumstances of minorities' lives before racism will abate." Take seriously things such as immigration quotas, the prison industrial complex, outsourcing. So there's perhaps somewhat of a—there's an aspect of conventional Marxist class analysis, but also the emphasis on the prison and immigration side. There's also something there that's more cultural.

8.64 And then there is this psychological analysis that campus speech codes, remedies for racist speech—again, that's moving in the direction of suppressing free speech, because it all depends on how you define racism. If it's a flexible term, a lot of things can be called racist and shut down. Media stereotypes, diversity seminars, healing circles, increasing the representation of black, brown, and Asian actors on TV shows—you can see this cultural work and cultural agenda is important to critical race theory already in the late 90s, early 2000s.

8.65 Associated with this movement is the idea of critical white studies, or whiteness studies. These are books coming out in the 1990s. Interestingly, I did a review—one of the first things that I wrote in 1998, a review of that book, *Critical White Studies*, where this was seen as exciting. You know, there wasn't much attention being paid to ethnic majority groups, so there was a certain expectation that there would be interesting material, and there is some interesting material there. But there's also a lot of material that is very ideological coming out of that critical race theory tradition.

8.66 So the white studies strand within this is the argument that there is this ideology called whiteness. So when Noel Ignatiev, a writer, says he wants to abolish whiteness, abolish the white race—sounds genocidal, but what it actually, according to Ignatiev, is really about is abolishing this ideology that white people imbibe. And therefore, this whiteness is something that is an ideology that we want to remove.

8.67 OK, so what is the evidence for this? There's a historian called David Roediger who wrote a book called *The Wages of Whiteness*. And what he says is that essentially the white elite decides who's white. So for a while, they decided that Italians and Jews weren't white, and then they decided to expand the category—or Irish—and they

decided to expand the category so that the Irish become accepted as white during, maybe just prior to the Civil War, as a way of shoring up white power against African American claims.

- 8.68** And so Roediger's argument, therefore, is the category "white" is a social construct and is fungible, and it's whatever the white elite decides that it's going to be. And if they are faced with a threat from African Americans, they might include some other groups, like the Irish or the Italians in that white category, or maybe Hispanics, or maybe even Asians, to be included in that white category—the dominant category that benefits, either economically if you're in the elite, or psychologically if you're in the working class. But it's all about exclusion of African Americans from upward mobility or integration.
- 8.69** OK, I want to move to some of the criticisms that have been leveled against critical race theory. Now first, within academia, Richard Alba, who is a very, you know, a leading American sociologist, impeccable liberal Democrat, and anti-racist credentials— but he's working in that more empirical social science tradition, which values analytic rigor, testing of evidence, countering, you know, dealing with opposing theories. So the argument here is that theories have to be testable, measurable, falsifiable. That is the basis of science, according to writers like Karl Popper, for example. And if your theory of whiteness is not falsifiable, if you can't measure this thing called whiteness, then it cannot be considered scholarship.
- 8.70** So Alba then takes on critical race theory, and particularly in his most recent book, *Great Demographic Illusion*, and he argues that, yes, critical race theory is the dominant paradigm in American sociology today. In the academy, it's the dominant paradigm. But it's something that he's questioning. So he argues, if it is the case that the boundaries of whiteness are expanded to include other groups, like the Irish or the Italian, in response to a rising threat from growing black power, we would expect to see the boundary expansion and the inclusion of the Irish and the Italians and others occurring at the same time as a threat of some kind from black America, either a demand for more rights or more resources or some kind of threats of violence. But the reality is we don't find that chronology at all.
- 8.71** The reality is that the Italians and the Irish and the other white ethnic groups really made a lot of headway post-1945 at a time when there wasn't much agitation from black people. There wasn't an increase in the size of the black population. There wasn't a lot of militancy. So how do we explain the expansion of the boundaries of whiteness, the upward mobility of the white ethnic groups, at a time when there's no particular threat coming from black America? And so that is a sort of empirical flaw in the arguments behind whiteness and this idea that groups become white because the white ruling class instrumentally uses them to advance its interests.
- 8.72** Alba argues that critical race theory overplays the role of color and underplays ethnic divisions. So the discrimination that Jews face and the Catholic face, Catholics faced in

the labor market in the early 20th century, in the 19th century, is something that is not given much attention at all. So it also—critical race theory doesn't pay much attention to the similarities between the upward economic advancement of white ethnic groups and the contemporary upward economic advancement of Hispanic, Asian, and, to some extent African American. More particularly immigrant black groups, but there is a rising share of the American elite now, 30% of top jobs in the youngest generations going to non-white groups. And it's very hard to explain that using critical race theory.

- 8.73** It's much easier to explain that by drawing an analogy between the rise of the Italians and Poles and others post-war, and the rise of Hispanics and Asians and African groups in the current period. And so, for example, those of mixed Hispanic and white background are earning as much as those of white, unmixed white background. Those of Asian or part-Asian background are earning more than those of white background. Hard to explain from the perspective of critical race theory.
- 8.74** So what happens then in the U.S. case is, post-1945, there was an economic boom, huge demand for labor, a lot of opportunities opening up in this economy. And in that climate of expansion, white ethnics—the Jews, Italians, and other groups who had been to some extent less fortunate than or not doing as well as the white Protestants—they experienced upward mobility. So there was room created in a non-zero-sum way. It wasn't that the white Catholics and Jews did well and the white Protestants did worse. Everyone was able to prosper because of this booming economy. And now what's happening, according to Alba, is now we don't have the same industrial structure to the economy, but we do have a large generation of largely white baby boomers who are retiring and opening up space at the top for members of other groups. And that's precisely what's occurring now. And there is a rising share of non-whites in the American elite amongst younger generations.
- 8.75** And once again, Alba would say the patterns are much more similar than they are different. And this critical race theory idea that the white elite is cynically deciding when and where to include white groups simply to bolster its power doesn't really match the evidence particularly well. It simply doesn't follow. The rise of Italians and Irish and others in the immediate post-war period has absolutely nothing to do with what was happening with black people at the time.
- 8.76** Now, there are, a lot of bases of criticism of critical race theory from the liberal left. But we also have other kinds of criticism coming against critical race theory. And one of the most serious, perhaps, is that this is not a scientific theory. We cannot measure, we don't have an accurate measure of whiteness or white supremacy.
- 8.77** And the measure that is given by critical race theorists is race gaps in terms of achievements, whether that be in higher education, or employment, or income, or wealth, or incarceration. And the problem there is, there are many potential explanations for race gaps. It could be due to a group entering the United States relatively poor. If they were refugees, they're not going to have a lot of money. You

wouldn't expect them to be all of a sudden at the top in the C-suites. Or it could be to do with different cultures putting different emphases on book learning, different emphases on savings, and so on. Or it could have to do with other historical forces as well.

- 8.78** So the problem with critical race theory, therefore, is it's not falsifiable and cannot address counterarguments empirically. Also, measures of unconscious bias have proven unreliable, such as the Implicit Association Test, or IAT. Scores on the IAT vary. One individual can take the test, which has to do with associating positive things with black and white faces, quickly. That does not seem to be linked to actually how people will act in real life. So we don't have actually accurate measures of unconscious bias.
- 8.79** Simply arguing from race gaps that the average white person has more wealth than the average black is not enough to provide evidence of structural racism. So what we see a lack of is a lack of empirical work in the structural racist tradition, partly because structural racism as a concept is coming out of that CRT critical legal studies tradition, which is anti-positivist, which opposes Western scientific methods, and is relativist rather than realist in its epistemology. So therefore, they really have not gone down the route of trying to test, create attitude scales, create falsifiable hypotheses that can be contested by others, and therefore they aren't engaging in the job of science.
- 8.80** There are other others. If we take John McWhorter, Chloé Valdary, they also make a normative moral critique that critical race theory, in arguing that the fate of black people lies in white hands, removes agency from black Americans to take charge of their own fate and their own lives. And it justifies policies on education. For example, getting rid of standardized testing will make it much harder, or getting rid of school discipline, because maybe black students are disciplined at a higher rate. What that will mean is the black students who want to pay attention, who actually would do well on standardized tests, are not able to sort of flourish as well as they might have in a more traditional educational regime. And so this critical race theory approach is actually damaging black success, and it is reducing the pipeline of potential black candidates into leading universities and leading economic leading occupations.
- 8.81** Also, some of the more extreme manifestations and the vulgar applications of critical race theory, such as separating children by race and class as oppressor and oppressed, getting children to focus on race and focus on themselves as those who have been oppressed or are benefiting from being oppression, that this is divisive as opposed to a more unifying message. And this has, of course, become political now with some 22 U.S. states adopting some kind of legislation on—just not adopting, but tabling legislation on bans on critical race theory in schools. So far, about 7 bills have passed out of those 22 tabled bills.
- 8.82** But of course, there is always a paradox here, and that is, to identify racism, you have to focus on race just to track gaps and areas that may need improvement. But then,

does this make people focus more on race, and racialize and divide society? And that's a tough balance to strike.

8.83 OK, so just to conclude here, we've discussed anti-racism as a thin ideology, which does draw, however, on a thicker tradition coming from the left. It starts out as a liberal movement about equal rights regardless of skin color, civil rights, voting rights, and that was manifested in the civil rights movement. We then get a shift in the 1960s to a more new left-influenced movement, influenced by Foucault, Postmodernism, and also by new social movements such as black power in the 1960s. Critical race theory then has roots both in social constructionist left, new left ideas, and also in concrete activism and critical race theory. Scholars see themselves as activists, as scholar-activists. That is not something that they would hide.

8.84 Critical race theory—we've seen it makes both a material argument about gaps in wealth and in material success, incarceration, and also a more psychological argument, which is to do with an unconscious bias that whites have, that they've imbibed, and that they carry out in their daily lives, which reproduces structures of white supremacy. The critics of critical race theory come from a conventional Enlightenment, Popperian science background, which says, "Well, if critical race theory is going to make a claim, it's got to be measurable; it has to be falsifiable; it has to answer to counterarguments that would explain race gaps, for example." It hasn't done that. And when we actually look at the historical record, as with looking at the upward mobility of white ethnics or the upward mobility of minority groups in the more recent period, the CRT explanation doesn't seem to explain the trends and patterns that we see.

8.85 And at the end, really what we're left with is a debate, normatively and philosophically, about what the meaning of equality is. Does equality mean equal treatment under the law through universal liberal principles, or does it mean that we must have equal outcomes? And if we don't get them, we have to engineer them through affirmative action, for example, or through speech codes, which would suppress forms of speech that we think might lead to the structure, quote unquote, of "white supremacy becoming entrenched."

8.86 There is a difference between a focus on colorblindness, which is that sort of liberal equal treatment tradition, and a focus on race consciousness, which is needed in order to track racial outcomes and gaps, and therefore to fix them. And this is really the debate in the politics of affirmative action, as it is the debate in the politics of critical race theory that is becoming increasingly important in American elections.